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CHAMBERS'

EDINBURGH JOURNAL.

CONDUCTED BY

WILLIAM CHAMBERS,

AUTHOR OF "THE BOOK OF SCOTLAND," "GAZETTEER OF SCOTLAND," &c.

AND

ROBERT CHAMBERS,

AUTHOR OF "TRADITIONS OF EDINBURGH," "HISTORY OF THE SCOTTISH REBELLIONS," "SCOTTISH BIOGRAPHICAL DICTIONARY," &c.

VOLUME VIII.

NUMBERS CCCLXV. TO CCCCXVI.

LONDON:

PUBLISHED, WITH THE PERMISSION OF THE PROPRIETORS,

BY W. S. ORR AND CO., AMEN CORNER, PATERNOSTER ROW;

AND SOLD BY ALL BOOKSELLERS IN TOWN AND COUNTRY.

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CHAMBERS' EDINBURGH JOURNAL

CONDUCTED BY WILLIAM AND ROBERT CHAMBERS, EDITORS OF "CHAMBERS'S INFORMATION FOR THE PEOPLE," "CHAMBERS'S EDUCATIONAL COURSE," &c.

PRINTED BY BRADBURY AND EVANS, WHITEFRIARS, LONDON.

NUMBER 414. SATURDAY, JANUARY 4, 1840. PRICE THREE HALFPENCE.

LIVING IN PARIS.

BY GIBBONS MERLE.

My observations on this subject are intended to be comparative; but a long absence from England may have exposed me to some errors, which the reader will excuse. I treat of three bodies; those who are independent by fortune, persons in trade, and the productive classes; and begin, as is usual, with the rich.

Paris is not essentially so *quartiérié* [a term which the reader will presently find explained] as London, and therefore the rent of private houses does not vary to an equal extent according to the spot at which the residence is fixed. In London, the distance of a street, and sometimes of a few doors, may make a difference of 15 to 20 per cent. in house rent; and a professional man, who does not reside on the Regent Street side of Oxford Street, must not expect, whatever may be his skill, to count guineas with his colleague of the "far west." But Paris has also its fashionable districts. In the Rue de Rivoli, or the Rue de la Paix, and also in the streets immediately adjoining the Boulevard des Italiens, on the side of the Eglise de la Madeleine, the rent of a house, of thirty to fifty rooms, unfurnished, varies from 12,000 to 25,000 francs a-year [a thousand francs being about forty pounds sterling.] Few persons take an entire house. The lower part is generally let out as shops, and the remainder in floors. In the Rue Tronchet, which is behind the Madeleine, the *entresol** of a first-rate house, and which consists of about eight rooms and a kitchen, with two or three servants' rooms at the top of the house, lets for 4000 francs a-year; the first floor, with servants' rooms and coach-house and stable, for 7000 to 8000 francs; the second floor, with stable, coach-house, and servants' rooms, 5000 to 6000 francs; the third floor, with servants' rooms, for 3000 to 4000 francs; and the fourth from 2000 to 2500 francs, with one or two servants' rooms. A house of similar size, and similarly situated as to the quarter, would not let in London for more than L.600, or, at the utmost, L.700 a-year. The amount of taxes paid by the tenant in Paris, is certainly less than in London. It never exceeds 10 per cent. upon the amount of rent, and frequently is not so much.† The rent of shops in good situations is very heavy. In the Palais Royal, the smallest shop, with one or two dwelling-rooms, cannot be had for less than 3000 francs a-year, and in the streets of trade, the prices are little lower than in the Palais Royal.

The lowest-rented houses in Paris, with the exception of the outskirts, are in the faubourg St Germain. By merely crossing the river, and at ten minutes' walk from the Tuileries, good houses and apartments may be had at little more than half the prices above mentioned. This quarter is unfashionable, but the houses are fully equal to the best houses of the opposite side of the river. Why there should be a difference of 50 per cent. between the faubourg St Germain and the quarter of the Chaussée d'Antin, whilst in the quarters near the latter there is not a greater difference than of from 10 to 20 per cent., is not to be explained. The faubourg St Germain is more aristocratic than any other part of Paris, for here the old nobility reside. In Paris the aristocracy of wealth vie with each other in display, and wish to be fashionable. This may be one reason for the great difference in question, but it is not by itself a satisfactory explanation. House rent in Paris absorbs a much larger portion of the income of the rich than it does in London, but the difference in the style of living is such, that whilst of an income of two thousand pounds a-year in Paris three or four hundred pounds may be thus employed, being probably 25 per cent. more than in London, when the most fashionable quarter of the town is not fixed upon for a residence, the remainder gives at least 33 per cent. in favour of the Paris resident. As many servants may be kept, but their wages are lower, and they are kept at less expense. No tax is paid upon them as in England, nor is there any tax upon horses and carriages. In England these taxes are of considerable amount, and increase in proportion with the number of servants, horses, and carriages. The style of living is different. Dinner parties are comparatively of rare occurrence; only a small quantity of the more expensive wines is used, and these are on an average 15 per cent. cheaper than the same qualities in England. Evening parties not being followed by suppers, are much less expensive than in England. In every thing, generally speaking, even to the liveries of servants, what would be thought shabby in London is stylish in Paris, and it is only amongst what the French call the *parvenus* that competition in expenditure is considered necessary. Where there are children, education, which among the higher classes is very expensive in London, is cheap in Paris: very good masters are to be had for three francs per lesson, and many of the most wealthy families do not even pay so much. With the rich, therefore, Paris is a desirable place of residence, and it is not so much so because things are cheaper than in London, but because in Paris the habits of the rich are not in themselves so expensive as in the English metropolis. There are in Paris many English families, who, with an income of about two thousand pounds sterling each, live in very good style, and lay by a fourth of their income, whereas in London the force of example would drive them beyond their means.

The *bourgeoisie* of Paris are less favoured than persons of large and fixed incomes. They earn less than English tradesmen, and the necessaries of life are on an average as expensive as in London. Compared with the returns of their business, rents with them are double what they are to London tradesmen, and fuel is more than double, even if they burn coals, which are now much used, and would become general if the bad construction of the chimnies of French houses did not prevent their use. When coals are burnt, the apartment is filled with smoke, which indeed is also the case with wood: but the French are accustomed to the latter, whilst they bear the smoke of coals in horror. The following prices of some of the necessaries of life in Paris will enable the reader to judge of the truth of the above observations.

Bread is on an average 4 sous (2d.) per pound, whilst the fancy bread, called *pain de gruau*, which is generally used for breakfast when the means of the consumer permit, and which is not subject to tariff, costs at the rate of from 8 to 13 sous per pound;* according to the conscience of the baker. Butcher meat costs on an average 15 sous per pound, good loaf sugar, 18 sous; very inferior tallow candles, 15 sous; butter, of the best quality, from 24 to 42 sous, according to the season; milk, about 8 sous per quart; black tea, 6 francs per pound [a franc being tenpence of our money], and green, from 7 to 10 francs; fish, on an average, double the London price; coals, 65 to 75 francs per ton; ordinary wine, which is certainly not equal as the usual beverage at meals to good English beer, 60 to 70 francs, which, added to the *octroi*, or town duty, which it pays on entering Paris, makes it from 110 to 120 francs per cask of about 280 bottles, or about 12 sous per English quart. Poultry is on an average quite as dear if not dearer than in London; a good sized fowl never costs less than 3 francs, and frequently 6 francs; game varies much, but on the average is nearly that of the London market; vegetables are much cheaper in Paris than in London, and as they form a considerable part of the food of the middle classes, enable the tradesman to economise in the support of his family. Many of the most respectable tradesmen who on the Sunday treat their wives and children with a jaunt into the country, or a dinner at a restaurant in Paris, have nothing for dinner during the week but the *pot au feu*, which is beef boiled gently into soup, with abundance of vegetables, and a dish of the white beans called haricots, boiled and mixed with butter, a very cheap and nutritious diet. This, with bread and a salad, and for beverage ordinary wine weakened with twice or thrice its bulk of water, and hence called *eau rougie*, is the usual dinner of half the leading shopkeepers of Paris. Were it not for such economy, they could not pay their rent and *patente*, whereas they continue not only to exist, and to be always well dressed, but to lay by annually a small sum, with which, in time, they retire to the country, and on an independence of three or four thousand francs a-year, become *rentiers*, and aspirants to the municipal offices of their communes. The breakfast with this class is a very simple affair. It is a little *café au lait*, with dry bread, or a basin of soup, with a slice of cold meat from the *pot au feu*, or a dish of vegetables. Clothing is a very expensive article in Paris. Linen, of good quality, is a fourth dearer than in London; articles of woollen or cotton at least a third dearer. Shoes are a little cheaper, but hats are dearer, and the charges of tailors are about the same. The greatest advantage the Paris tradesman has over persons of the same class in London, is in the cheapness and the excellence of the education for his sons. There are several colleges, in which, for L.4 to L.8 English per annum, a boy may receive the most finished education, without board; consequently there are few respectable tradesmen's sons in Paris who have not to a certain extent a classical education. Here, however, the advantage stops; when the youth enters into active life either as a master or as an assistant, he has none of those opportunities of improving his mind which are so numerous in London. There are no scientific institutions of which he can become a member, like the London Institution, the Marylebone Institution, and fifty others, which form the pride and honour of the British metropolis. He may, indeed, attend the lectures of various professors without cost, but the spirit of association which makes learning attractive, and the *esprit de corps* by which young men

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* The *entresol* is little known in London; it is a set of rooms of low ceilings, between the shops and the first floor. Where there are shops—and very few houses in public situations are without them—they are either let out to the occupants of the shops, or are taken by merchants for counting-houses, or by professional men as offices. This part of the house is but rarely occupied by persons out of trade, except by the proprietors of the houses themselves.

† Although the taxes on houses which are paid by the tenant are not so high as in England, the taxation in large towns is generally high, for every person in business pays for a licence or *patente*, which varies, according to the occupation of the person, from 5 to 500 francs per annum. All public establishments, such as hotels and coffee-houses, have to pay according to their rent. The *patente* alone, in some cases, costs from 2000 to 3000 francs a-year. The owners of property, also, have to pay the tax *fonciere*. There is another tax in France which is very productive to the state. Every lease or other agreement, every contract or sale, is liable to the *droit d'enregistrement*, which varies from two per cent. upwards. The average amount of taxation per head in France is indeed little more than 10 francs, which is much less than in England, but in some towns this tax amounts to a much greater sum. The principle of taxation in France is to make the rich pay for the poor, and the trading towns for those in which little business is done.

* The French pound is equal to about seventeen and a half English ounces.

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are bound together in London by their institutions, is wanting.

On the whole, if the Paris tradesman is better off than the London tradesman, it is not because rents and the necessaries of life are lower in one capital than the other: it is because he regulates his habits by his circumstances, and his expenditure is governed by his means of obtaining the comforts of life, without expecting that those comforts should assume the character of luxuries, and the cost of obtaining them be brought down to the level of created inclinations. He gives fewer dinner parties than the London tradesman; and when he does give them, he does not feel that it is necessary to show his hospitality, or the superiority of his purse, by forcing his guests to get drunk with expensive wines; and when he follows the English fashion of grog-drinking, he does not devour large tumblerfuls of rum and water because rum is dearer than brandy in France, as some English tradesmen drink brandy in England because it is dearer than gin. His greatest indulgence (I am speaking of the class, of course, and not of individual exceptions) is a cup of coffee or a bottle of beer at the coffee-house in the evening, where he plays a game of billiards or dominos. If his wife has her evening party, a little tea and some cakes, with *eau sucrée*, and perhaps a glass of sweet wine, are all that her guests expect; and this, it will be allowed, is not seeing company at a very dear rate. But the great happiness, the great superiority of the French tradesman, consists in the *equality*, which is all perhaps that has resisted the encroachments of successive governments upon the spirit of the great revolution. The tradesman has no notion for aping what is called quality, for he is as independent of the idle rich as they are beyond him in the means of display; and no title commands homage in France merely because it is a title. The tradesman does not disgrace himself in the morning by going bareheaded to the carriage which stops at his door, and indemnify himself in the afternoon by driving his cabriolet through the public promenades with a splendidly dressed groom at his side, or behind the carriage. The ambition of the French tradesman is to be independent in circumstances; he feels that he is already so by position. The comparatively economical habits of the French tradesman do not depend entirely on his natural temperament, the force of example, or the way in which he has been trained to commercial pursuits. The law relative to bankruptcies contributes much towards his dread of speculation, and the control of his expenditure. In England, where there is no penalty attached to over-trading beyond that which a man inflicts upon himself, the evil of such conduct is twofold. The tradesman not only gets involved frequently deeper and deeper, by launching out, when he is in a small difficulty, in the hope that a bold effort may bring back all his losses, and with the conviction that if he should fail, a bankruptcy for a large amount is considered by the world to be more "respectable" than for a small one, but as his speculations are upon a large scale, he is accustomed to take less heed of his expenditure, which is apportioned to the extent of his dealings rather than the profits which they produce. He does not always reflect that the one is fictitious, and the other is real. In France the law requires that the tradesman shall keep an account of all his domestic expenditure, even to the milk that he uses for his breakfast, and the money that he expends in what the English call pocket-money, but which comes under the head of *menus plaisirs* in France. It regards almost as fraudulent any speculation with the money of his creditors, and compels him to declare himself a bankrupt when he owes twice as much as he has the means of paying, either in money, or in stock and good debts. It is indeed true that where the expenditure for himself has not been profligate, the law, which subjects him, if enforced, to imprisonment for simple bankruptcy, is rarely exercised, and even in the case of over-trading without means, great leniency is generally shown; but the possibility of being made to suffer by some hostile creditor, operates as a check both upon wanton expenditure and over-trading. The application of the criminal law to his case, however, is not all that he has to fear. A bankruptcy in France deprives the bankrupt of many of his civil rights, and he can only recover them by paying in full all his debts, when, by a special and solemn process, he is restored to the position which he previously held, or, as the French say, *réhabilité*. The statement of this important fact will account for the prudence, I might say timidity, of the tradesman as to his operations, and also for his economy.

The condition of the labouring classes in Paris affords a vast field for inquiry and information. If Paris be a desirable place of residence for the rich, as respects the mode and expense of living; if it offers resources to the trading classes equal to the desires which they feel, it is still more favourable to the industrious poor; for although provisions are enormously dear, as compared with many other parts of France, the wages of workmen are more than proportionably high. But it is only to the industrious and honest workman that Paris offers peculiar advantages. He who would save money from what he earns, must be uncorrupted when he arrives in the capital, and have a mind strong enough to prevent his being led astray. There is no capital in Europe, not even London, where there are so many temptations to idleness and profligacy, and none in which the upper and middle classes have done so little for the instruction and comfort of the various grades of labouring men. London has her Mechanics' Institutions. Paris has none, or rather it has none worthy of the name. London abounds with coffee-shops, many of which are highly respectable, and afford opportunities to the workman to obtain refreshment at a cheap rate, and to peruse amusing, but at the same time instructive, works. London, with all its vice, is at least free from the presence of returned *forçats* (galley-slaves), who infest Paris, and who are not satisfied with not working themselves, and with deriving a subsistence from theft, but endeavour also to deter others from industrious pursuits, and to seduce them to their own course. If London has gin-shops and public-houses, Paris has its wine-shops and cabarets, and the amusements outside the barriers on the Sunday, and on the Saint Monday, which is regularly observed every week by immense numbers of French workmen, are not always of that innocent nature which many tourists have been pleased to describe. The Parisian workman is very far from the *beau ideal* of the labouring classes in France. He earns more and works less. He discusses politics when he should be at his loom or his lathe, and becomes affiliated with secret societies for the improvement of the state, before he has done any thing to cultivate his own mind. If drunkenness be not so apparent to the Englishman who visits Paris as it is in London, it is because he does not frequent the places in which it is carried on. Let him go on Sunday or Monday to the *guinguettes* on the outer side of the barriers, and his belief that the French lower orders are sober, will rapidly cease. But to the sober, honest, and industrious workman, Paris is full of advantages. He knows that by patience and perseverance he may realise a small fund, with which he can commence business on his own account, and that all the persons with whom his master deals, will give him credit as readily as if he were already rich. His mind is not weighed down by any conviction that he is regarded as an inferior. There is no aristocratical feeling in society to prevent his rise. When he can pay the tax of a *patente*, he becomes a *bourgeois* like his former master, and his respectability is not appreciated, as in England, by the extent of his gains. When he sees the nobility taking pride in the titles to esteem which are conferred by trade, and feels that he, although in a more limited sphere, may obtain equal esteem, he has a stimulus before him which nothing can destroy. No one says of a tradesman, by way of sneer, "that man rose from nothing;" and if it be said at all, it is in the way of honour. He is a member of the National Guard, and by the side of him, also in the uniform of a private, is a wealthy banker or merchant. He goes on carefully and quietly, until, by the esteem of his fellow-comrades, he carries his election as an officer, and knows that he is then eligible to be appointed a commandant, which gives him the right, when on guard at the palace, of dining with the king. Even the bench of justice is open to him, for by election he may become a member of the Tribune of Commerce, and sit in judicial robes, as if he had been bred to the bar. In a country where trade is honoured by all who engage in it, and where the laws and usages require that it be respected by all classes, he has every inducement to the exercise of his industry, and the attainment of a position which gives him importance in his own estimation and in that of the world. And when he considers that this is attainable by the means which industry creates, and by the economy which his ambition commands, he feels that the position at which he aims is within his grasp.

The wages in Paris of the ordinary workmen in handicraft vary from two francs and a half to six francs per day, for about fourteen hours' labour. Those of labourers, who are called *hommes de peine*, vary from one franc and a half to two francs and a half. In many of the provinces they do not exceed half this amount. Now, allowing that lodgings and provisions are twenty-five per cent. dearer than in some parts of the country, there is still an advantage of twenty-five per cent. in favour of Paris. A good and prudent workman may, in five or six years, realise sufficient to begin business in a small way on his own account; for in Paris, a small capital in trade, with good management and good credit, goes a great way. The expenditure of a French workman on mere articles of food is very small. Many of them live on fifteen or sixteen sous per day when they are without families, and the surplus of their wages is either laid by or expended in carousing at the barriers. It is not a hardship to the dissolute workman to live on bread and vegetables, with now and then a little wine and meat, so that he may have two or three francs or more to spend at the *guinguette*; and the prudent workman eats his crust with an apple or an onion with relish, knowing that he is daily adding to his reserved fund. A *pot au feu*, with half a pound of meat, and a good quantity of vegetables will serve him for two days. If he be a married man, this is prepared by his wife, who does not, as in England, send four or five pounds of meat to a baker's, to be dried up into the volume of two or three. A dish of *haricots*, which, with a little butter, costs five or six sous, serves for the dinner of his wife, a child, and himself. Bread and vegetables complete the feast. When bread, indeed, is dear, he suffers, because this is the staple food of his family as regards their breakfast and dinner, but the average price is quite within his means. The surplus of his earnings is carried to a Savings' Bank, and it is only in seasons when work is not to be had, which are not of very frequent occurrence, that he touches this reserve.

HYBERNATION OR WINTER SLEEP OF ANIMALS.

Many animals are so constituted, that during the winter season the activity of their functions is greatly impaired by the reduction of temperature, and they pass into a peculiar condition called hybernation,* which bears a strong resemblance to ordinary sleep. Naturalists and physiologists have sought in vain for either external or internal characters of general application, by which they might distinguish the species likely to be subjected to this singular but wisely appointed lethargy. It is a provisional faculty, dependent on external circumstances, and may be interrupted, postponed, or altogether prevented, by regulating the conditions under which the animal is placed. Hybernation is induced by a moderately low temperature, but extreme cold destroys it, so that it differs essentially from that state of torpor which cold produces in any animal by benumbing the sentient nerves, and stiffening the muscles. Many physiologists have mistaken this state of animals for that of true hybernation, but the two conditions are quite different. In the latter, the mobility of the muscles remains unimpaired, not the slightest stiffness being observable, and the sensibility of the nerves is as perfect as it is in ordinary sleep. The lethargy, indeed, is sleep, not torpidity. It is a property peculiar to a few species, which, however, differ very materially in other respects, as will be perceived when we name as familiar instances the dormouse, the hedgehog, and the bat. When the decreasing temperature of autumn reminds them that they, like a campaigning army, must look about them for cantonments into which they may retire for the winter (for all hybernating animals avoid exposure to extreme cold), each according to its species seeks out its place of repose. This is either in the earth, among old walls, in caverns, trunks of trees, or bushes, which retreats are usually lined with dried herbs, grasses, leaves, or moss. The bat chooses caverns, churches, barns, and other situations where the temperature is milder than that of the open air; and, contrary to the usual practice, it suspends itself by the hooked claws of its hinder extremities. Other hybernating animals contract themselves into balls, so as to expose the smallest possible surface to the air.

The phenomena of hybernation have been very carefully observed by Dr Marshall Hall, and an able paper of his in the Philosophical Transactions, enables us to present some interesting particulars regarding this singular "second course" of nature. It appears that respiration is almost wholly suspended during hybernation—a fact so remarkable, that it would require strong proof to convince us of its truth, and this we fortunately have. Amongst other experiments to which Dr Hall had recourse, was one in which a bat was placed in a vessel so contrived that any absorption of air which might take place could be readily ascertained. The animal was allowed to remain a whole night in the vessel, and when the contained air was examined, no alteration could be perceived in it. On other occasions, however, when the bat was aroused for a little from its lethargy, air was consumed, and its amount was always in exact proportion to the length of time in which the animal was kept in a state of activity. Additional evidence is afforded by the fact, that the temperature of animals in this state accurately follows that of the atmosphere around them. When the temperature fell in the air, it was found to fall in the animal also, and vice versa. It is well known that in the act of respiration the air absorbed by the lungs gives out a quantity of heat to the system, and thus raises its temperature above that of the atmosphere in all ordinary circumstances. This is an invariable consequence of respiration; and when, therefore, a living body is found to have no higher temperature than the air which surrounds it, it may

* Hybernation is from the Latin *hibernare*, to go into winter quarters.

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be fairly inferred that in that body respiration is very nearly suspended. The last proof of this fact which we shall notice is, that the lethargic animal is capable of bearing the total abstraction of atmospheric air or oxygen gas for a considerable time, and can live for several hours in carbonic acid, a gas of so deadly a nature that it instantaneously destroys the life of any animal when in its active natural state. The celebrated Spallanzani kept a marmot four hours immersed in this gas, and it remained unaffected by it. A rat and a bird put in along with it perished in an instant. Bats and hedgehogs were found by Dr Hall to sustain submergence in water, the first for sixteen minutes, the second for twenty-two minutes, and appeared to be quite uninjured by the experiment. The possibility of bats enduring submersion in water was curiously proved on one occasion, by their being found to live under the arch of a very low bridge, which the water filled completely on the occasion of every little flood. The floods often lasted a whole day, and yet the bats passed every winter there in perfect security. In their active state these animals "bear no charmed life," but drown as fast as any others.

Some striking facts connected with surgery and medicine were illustrated by Dr Hall's experiments. It was proved that the irritability* of the heart is augmented during continued lethargy in an extraordinary degree; that the irritability of the left side of the heart is then nearly as great as that of the right, this not being the case in ordinary circumstances; and that in this condition of the animal system, the action of the heart continues for a considerable period independently of the brain and spinal marrow. These facts will be more interesting to the medical man than to the general reader, but they are sufficiently remarkable to be mentioned here. They constitute one of the numberless proofs of wisdom and design to be found in the works of creation, by which provision has been made for the well-being of every living thing. As respiration is nearly suspended in the hybernating animal, had not irritability become proportionately augmented, the actions of life must have ceased!

It is very generally stated that in animals in this state of lethargy, sensibility is greatly impaired; but Dr Hall asserts that this is a great mistake. In those animals upon which he experimented, he found the reverse to be the case, and that in hybernation the sensibility is nearly the same as in ordinary sleep. The slightest touch applied to one of the spines of the hedgehog immediately roused it to draw a deep and sonorous inspiration. The gentlest shake induces inspirations in the bat. In fact, it appears that the least disturbance given to the animal is immediately felt by it, for it begins to move. On the other hand, the sensorial functions are nearly suspended. This is proved by the suspension of respiration, which is immediately renewed for a time on exciting the animal. It is further proved by the fact, that although the animal coils itself up when touched, it immediately relaxes into the former position, whereas when it is awake such contraction and immobility are continued for some time. When the hedgehog coiled up in its state of activity is thrown into water, it immediately relaxes itself from fear, and takes to swimming. In the state of lethargy on the other hand, no fear appears to be excited under such circumstances, and the animal would probably remain still and quiet for a considerable period, if its sensibility were not acted upon by the contact of water. As has already been observed, neither stiffness nor lameness is induced by hybernation, the mobility or power of moving the muscles, like the sensibility, remaining unimpaired. The hedgehog, when roused, walks about and does not stagger, as some have asserted. The bat speedily takes wing and flies about with great activity, although exhaustion and death may subsequently result from the experiment. This is a very remarkable fact, and introduces the subject of reviviscence, or the renewal of active life. If an animal during its hybernation be kept in a state of excitement for any length of time, it will die. To explain this, it is necessary to revert to the fact, that during this lethargy a great irritability of the left side of the heart is induced; and this irritability co-existing with that high respiration which immediately follows any disturbance, and with arterialised blood, is found to be incompatible with life. In short, in a state of hybernation, respiration, suddenly restored and permanently excited, is as destructive as its privation in other circumstances. How admirable then is that instinct which prompts hybernating animals to seek out such sheltered situations as caverns, burrows, lonely churches, deserted wells and the like, where they may be at once secure from the rapid changes and inclemencies of the weather, and from other causes of disturbance! A cold atmosphere excites them into activity as well as an augmentation of temperature.

By a very delicately managed and perfectly satisfactory experiment, Dr Hall ascertained that in hybernating animals the circulation of the blood proceeds uninterruptedly, but more slowly, the blood being what is called venous. Before it can be rendered arterial, it must be acted upon by air drawn into the lungs in the ordinary process of breathing; but as this is almost entirely suspended during lethargy, there is of course no air to change the blood, so that it remains venous. When the hybernating animal is in its state of activity, the heart is precisely in the same condition as it is in all other mammalia; but it becomes quite altered, or what is technically called "veno-contractile," in lethargy. "This phenomenon," says Dr Hall, "is one of the most remarkable presented to me in the whole animal kingdom. It forms the single exception to the most general rule, amongst animals which possess a double heart. It accounts for the possibility of immersion in water or a noxious gas without drowning or asphyxia, and it accounts for the possibility of a suspended respiration without the feeling of oppression or pain, although sensation be unimpaired. It is, in a word, this peculiar phenomenon which, conjoined with the peculiar effect of sleep in inducing diminished respiration in hybernating animals, constitutes the susceptibility and capability of taking on the hybernating state."

Animals take very little food during the period of their lethargy, but much difference is observed amongst them in regard to the quantity which they do take, and the fact affords another proof of the admirable adaptation of animals to the situation in which they are placed. The bat, which feeds on insects, would awake in vain amidst the frost and snow of winter; no food could be found. Hence in the bat no disposition to awake from a desire to take food has been observed—it is only aroused by external warmth or by excitement. The hedgehog, again, as it feeds on snails and worms, might find a small supply of these savoury dishes if the ground be not baked into a pavement by the frost. Accordingly, it awakes after various intervals of two, three, or four days passed in lethargy, to take food, and again returns to its state of hybernation. The dormouse feeds on grain and fruits, which there is much less difficulty in getting than there is in finding any of the other articles of diet, and accordingly the dormouse awakes daily during hybernation. The operations of the stomach and viscera are found to be exactly proportionate to the disposition to awake and take food. This appears to increase after a time, and, in combination with the warmth of spring, again calls the animals from their winter quarters into active life. Between thirty and forty degrees of Fahrenheit seems to be the temperature best fitted to induce hybernation. Methods which secure moderation in temperature lead to this state. Thus, hedgehogs supplied with hay or straw, and dormice with cotton wool, make themselves nests, and become lethargic; when other animals of the same species, deprived of these materials, and exposed to a higher degree of cold, remain quite active.

Some animals in warm climates pass into a state of hybernation, as well as those of the colder zone. The tenrec, a species of hedgehog found in Madagascar, becomes lethargic for some months in the year, and is only to be found when the summer heat is felt, which being generally ushered in by an electric state of the atmosphere, the negroes (with whom they are a favourite food) say they are awakened by the peals of thunder which precede the summer storms.

Many cold-blooded animals are regarded as of the hybernating kind, although we doubt if the state of lethargy to which they are subjected be the true hybernation described by Dr Hall. But, at all events, the greater proportion of reptiles, insects, molluscous animals, &c., inhabiting both cold and hot countries, pass a part of the year in a state of lethargy, during which they usually take no food. Humboldt describes certain reptiles in South America which pass a portion of the year buried in the earth, and which are only aroused by the occurrence of rainy weather, or the excitement of violent means. "The manners of animals," says he, "vary in the same species, according to local circumstances difficult to investigate. We were shown a hut, or rather a kind of shed, in which our host of Calaboza, Don Miguel Cousin, had witnessed a very extraordinary scene. Sleeping with one of his friends on a bench covered with leather, Don Miguel was awakened early in the morning by violent shakes and a horrible noise. Clods of earth were thrown into the middle of the hut. Presently a young crocodile, two or three feet long, issued from under the bed, darted at a dog which lay at the threshold of the door, and missing him in the impetuosity of his spring, ran towards the beach to attain the river. On examining the spot where the bedstead was placed, the cause of this strange adventure was soon discovered. The ground was disturbed to a considerable depth. It was dried mud that had covered the crocodile in that state of lethargy, or summer sleep, in which many of the species lie, during the absence of the rains, amid the llanos. The noise of men and horses, perhaps the smell of the dog, had awakened the crocodile. The hut being placed at the edge of the pool, and inundated during part of the year, the crocodile had no doubt entered, at the time of the inundation of the savannahs, by the same opening by which Mr Pozo saw it go out. The Indians often find enormous boas, which they call uji, or water serpents, in the same lethargic state. To re-animate them, they must be wetted with water, or irritated."

Taking all the foregoing facts together, it appears to us that hybernation is a wise provision of nature for preserving the lives of certain animals during a part of the year when they were likely to perish for want of a sufficient supply of their ordinary food.

* Irritability is a term used by anatomists to indicate that property peculiar to the muscles of the animal frame, by which they contract when touched, or when stimuli are applied. The power may be seen in the tremulous contraction of muscles when cut, or when separated from the body. Even after a body is dead, the power remains until the organisation yields to decay.

FUGITIVE WRITINGS OF JAMES BOSWELL.

Of James Boswell as the biographer of Johnson, the merits and demerits have been amply discussed. Let us turn from the consideration of these, and think of him, for a time, as simply what he appeared to his friends in life, the drollest, most whimsical, and most mirth-exciting of mortals—a man, as we have heard a contemporary of his own* remark, in whose face it was impossible to look without laughing—an eccentric, but upon the whole an innocent and well-meaning man. While considering him in this aspect, the reader may allow us to revive and bring before him some specimens of the fugitive writings of Boswell. Many of these contain no small share of humour, and all are more or less characteristic of one who was certainly in most respects a singular, and in many an interesting person.

There is a curious and rare volume of light-headed letters, written partly by Boswell, which he published in London in 1763, the year in which he formed the acquaintance of Johnson. Few men have ever perhaps given such compositions to the world, with their name, even at the early age (twenty-three) which Boswell had now reached. And what makes the case the more singular, the title-page also exposed the full name of his correspondent, the Honourable Andrew Erskine, a younger brother of the well-known musical Earl of Kelly. Frivolity, unchecked by any just sense of the world's opinion, could alone have prompted such a publication; yet it is impossible now to read it without experiencing some sympathy with the genuine youthful overflow of spirits which may be said to form the matter of the book. In the first letter, Boswell to Erskine, dated from Auchinleck, August the 25th, 1761, the writer says:—"You see I retain my usual volatility. The Boswells, you know, came over from Normandy with William the Conqueror, and some of us possess the spirit of our ancestors the French. I do for one. A pleasant spirit it is. *Vive la Bagatelle* is the maxim. A light heart may bid defiance to fortune." Then, as if to prove how truly he possessed the spirit of bagatelle, he adds—"Write to me soon. Your letters, I prophesy, will entertain me not a little, and will besides be extremely serviceable in many respects. They will supply me with oil to my lamps, grease to my wheels, and blacking to my shoes. They will furnish me with strings to my fiddle, lashes to my whip, lining to my breeches, and buttons to my coat. They will make charming spurs, excellent knee-buckles, and inimitable watch-keys. In short, while they last I shall neither want breakfast, dinner, nor supper. I shall keep a couple of horses, and I shall sleep upon a bed of down. I shall be in France this year, and in Spain the next, with many other particulars too tedious to mention."

The second volume of "A Collection of Original Poems by Scotch Gentlemen," published by Donaldson of Edinburgh in 1762, contains many light trifles by Boswell—amongst others, one upon himself, in which he lets out the leading principle of his literary life—

> ——"not a bent sixpence cares he,
> Whether *with* him or *at* him you laugh."

We hasten from these *jeux-d'esprit*, many of which are dull enough, to a very curious poem which he is said to have aided in writing, some years later, in burlesque of the procedure of a criminal trial before the Circuit Court of Justiciary. Some other gentlemen, like himself advocates at the Scottish bar, are said to have also had a share in this whimsical composition. Unfortunately, no manuscript of the *Justiciary Opera* was preserved; and we have only some fragments of it, which were taken down, at a comparatively recent period, from the mouths of gentlemen who recollected hearing it recited. These were printed privately by the late Sir Alexander Boswell, eldest son of the bio-

* The late Mr William Macfarlane, long the judge of the Small-debt-court in Edinburgh.

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grapher of Johnson—a man of not less lively faculties than his father, and of whom we shall have more to say afterwards. By Sir Alexander, a number of gaps in the original were very cleverly filled up. It is altogether a most grotesque composition, smacking strongly of the men and things of the last age. The best parts of it are here given from a volume quoted below,* in which Sir Alexander's set has been recently reprinted.

The trial is one for an assault upon an excise-officer, and Ayr is evidently the circuit town meant as the scene. The persons of the drama are—*Caliendrosus Maximus*, the presiding judge; *Bombyx*, advocate for the crown, or public prosecutor; *Hystrix*, clerk; *John Black*, the pannel or culprit; *Bamboozle* and *Flawfinder*, advocates for Black; witnesses, *Pepperer*, a horse-dealer, *Bizz*, a blacksmith, *Peter Brown*, the exciseman; *Matthew Mutchkin*, *Widow Macleerie*, and *a Waiter*; likewise judges, jurymen, sheriffs, bailiffs, serjeants, macer, mob, &c. That the opening scene may be intelligible, we must premise, that the judges at a Scotch circuit town usually move from their inn to the court, in a species of procession, attended by the magistrates, and heralded by their own trumpeter.

SCENE.—*An Inn.*

CALIENDROSUS MAXIMUS, et HYSTRIX.

DUET.—AIR, *Saw ye my father?*

Cal.—Saw ye my trumpeter?
Or saw ye my macer?
Or saw ye my man John?

Hyst.—I have not seen your trumpeter;
I have not seen your macer;
And drunk is your man John!

(Martial Music.)

Enter a waiter.

* AIR, *Hey Jenny come down to Jock.*†

Waiter. The bailies are waitin'—the provost is come—
Twal permanent serjeants, a fife and a drum;
Twa sherras, wi' swords (but they're peaceable men),
And some twa three mair—and the clock's chappit ten.

A Grand Procession.

SCENE.—*A Hall.*

Enter CALIENDROSUS MAXIMUS, BOMBYX, HYSTRIX, BAMBOOZLE, FLAW-FINDER, MACER, JURYMEN, MOB, &c.

* AIR, *Fye let us a' to the weddin'.*

Hyst. Ge—en—tlemen o' the jury,
Ye'll answer until a' your names—
Walter Balwhid o' Pitlurie.
Jurym. Here.—*H.* Matthew Powloosie o' Kames.
J. Here.—*H.* Duncan Macwhey o' Todwiddock.
J. Here.—*H.* Jacob Bafour o' Howbrig.
J. Here.—*H.* John Macindo o' Glenpuddock.
J. Here.—*H.* Hew Gib in Bog o' Daljig.
J. Here.—*H.* Patrick Macrone o' Craig-gubble.
J. Here.—*H.* George Yellowlees in Cowshaw.
J. Here.—*H.* Ralph Mucklehose in Blindrubble.
J. Here.—*H.* Robert Macmurdock in Raw.
J. Here.—*H.* Andrew Mackissock in Shalloch.
J. Here.—*H.* Ingram Maclure in Benbole.
J. Here.—*H.* Gilbert Strathdee in Drummalloch.
J. Here.—*H.* Gabriel Tam in Dirthole.
J. Here.—*H.* Lowrie Macwill o' Powmuddle.
J. Here.—*H.* Daniel Losh o' Benskair.
J. Here.—*H.* John Stoupie, writer, Kirkfuddle.
J. Here.—*H.* Bailie Bole, shoemaker there.
J. Here.—*H.* Samuel Macguire in Craig-gullion.
If present, sir, answer your name.
J. Here.—*H.* Quintin Maccosh in Knockdullion.
J. Here.—*H.* Gal-lery—si-lence—Ahem!

* * * *

* AIR, *In the Garb of Old Gaul.*

Macer. Hem!—Si-lence.
Cal. Officer, bring John Black to the bar.
(The pannel is brought in guarded, and petitions for banishment.)

AIR, *The Lee Rig.*

Pannel.—O send me owre the lang seas,
My ain kind lordie O;
O send me owre the lang seas,
My ain kind lordie O.

O send me east, or send me wast,
Or send me south or nordie, O;
But send me owre the lang seas,
My ain kind lordie O.

* AIR, *Lass gin ye lo'e me tell me now.*

Cal. Pannel, a halter must be your end,
The fiend, at your skirts, has now his prong;
Your days, that are number'd, in penitence spend;
But I'll lecture you, presently, half an hour long.

Mercy were folly, if lavish'd on him;
Robbing and thieving, the gallows shall check;
Our duty is plain, we'll proceed to condemn—
John Black, you shall presently hang by the neck.

AIR, *We're gayly yet.*

Pannel. We're no guilty yet,
We're no guilty yet,
Although we're accused,
We're no guilty yet.

Afore ye condemn,
Ye maun hear us a bit,
For although we're accus'd
We're no guilty yet.

(Jury are chosen, and the Indictment read.)

AIR, *Grimaldi's Jig in Mother Goose.*

Hyst. Whereas by the laws o' this realm,
And o' ev'ry well-governed land,
To seize on anither man's gear,
(As the tangs ance a Highlandman fand.)

And whether the thief he be caught
In the fact, or be gruppit out-fang,
The law says expressly, and wisely,
That chiel by the thrapple shall hang.

And you, John Black, there, the pannel,
Ye robbit, assaulted, and a',
And sae, gang till an assize, sir,
And underlie pains o' the law.

* AIR, *Miss Macleod's Reel.*

BOMBYX.

Painful the duty is, which I must now perform,
Stating a train of guilt uncommon and enorm—
Ous—calling my witnesses to make the fact out plain,
And if your verdict's guilty, my labour's not in vain.

Gentlemen, your feelings must with justice never jar,
The statutes of the land condemn the pris'ner at the bar;
The law most clearly indicates the gallows, as reward,
For culprits such as him between the soldiers of the guard.

John Black met Peter Brown, upon the king's highway,
With foul intent to rob—I fear intent to slay;
John Black, the pannel, did step up to Peter Brown,
And with his fist, or bludgeon, did knock said Peter down.

Ferocious, atrocious, felonious also,
Did *then* and *there*, with *that* or *this*, reiterate the blow;
Then seized Peter by the throat, to suffocate his cries,
And most outrageously exclaim'd "Your money, —— your eyes."

Enter PETER BROWN.

* AIR, *The bonniest lass in a' the world.*

Peter. The pannel's a regardless loon,
And brags that he defies man;
And bauldly threepit through the town
He'd *do* for the exciseman.

I thought 'twas nought but silly clash,
That sneevlin' gowks wad tell me;
Quo' I, my thum I winna fash,
It's no *siclike* can fell me.

Four cadgers rade through Halk-wood-stack,
I doubted Jean Macleerie;
I took the road, when up cam Black,
And dang me tapsalteerie.

He rypit, maybe, for his knife,
I thought I saw it glancin',
He took the rue, and sav'd my life,
Syne, like a de'il, gaed dancin'.

Other witnesses are examined. Pepperer, the horse-dealer, relates, to the tune of Gala Water, that "coming frae the town o' Straiven, on his mare that had the spavin," he met the pannel near the Kirk of Shotts, and saw his assault upon the gauger. Matthew Mutchkin can only report, to the tune of Calder Fair, that, coming home drunk from Ruglen, he saw two fellows fall a-struggling, but was too far blinded by his favourite liquor to discriminate the assailant and the assaulted. Bizz the blacksmith gives a favourable view of Black's character, to the tune of Will ye gang and marry Katy? And Widow Macleerie speaks in the same strain. The prisoner's counsel then begin to plead for him:—

AIR, *De'il tak the wars.*

Bamboozle.

Fye on the laws that hang a man for stealing,
Sure such penal statutes were savagely fram'd
By legislators devoid of human feeling,
Before divine religion mankind had tam'd.
Gentlemen, 'tis yours, with vigour,
To check the law's excessive rigour;
*Yours is the power, to you the choice is given,
A father—husband—bends;
On you his fate depends:
'Tis yours to take or give,
To bid him die—or live!
Then here that mercy show, you hope from heaven.

AIR, * * *

Flaw-Finder.

Gentlemen, now 'tis my turn to address you,
And with much speaking I need not oppress you;
The proof lies before you, in writing down taken,
All I do wish is to save this man's bacon.

But as it is usual some few things to mention,
I say, that to steal, it was not his intention;
So be not, I pray, like the Lords, in a fury,
But bring this man off, like a sensible jury.

(Charge to the Jury.)

* AIR, *Merrily Dance the Quaker.*

Cal. If ever a case before me came,
That I could judge most clearly,
This is a case, I'll boldly name,
I've scrutinis'd it nearly.

To trace the truth through all its track,
No witch requires, or jugglers;
The witnesses are all a pack
Of drunkards and of smugglers.

The counsel for the Crown, with skill,
Extorted facts most glaring;
Black, when prim'd by stoup and gill,
You see, became most daring.

That Black put Brown in mortal fear,
The proof is clear—*clarissima;*
And that he rob'd, tho' not quite clear,
Presumptio est fortissima.

Gentlemen, 'tis my desire
To state the case precisely;
'Tis you to judge, so now retire,
And weigh your verdict wisely.

The proof is strong, a verdict bring,
Such honest men becoming;
I need not say one other thing,
And so I end my summing.

(Jury are enclosed.)

LOWRIE MACWILL o' POWMUDDLE, *Chancellor.*
JOHN STOUPIE, *Clerk.*

* AIR, *Ally Croaker.*

Powmuddle. In this case there's nae argument,
Nae minor and nae major;
A chield had ta'en a glass, and had
A towzle wi' a gauger.

That there's nae proof o' robbery,
To see, I think, ye canna miss;
Sae we the pannel maun acquit—
No guilty, sirs—Unanimous.

Demi Chorus by Five Jurymen. } Unanimous, Unanimous,

Double Chorus by Ten Jurymen. } Unanimous, Unanimous,

Grand Chorus by the whole Fifteen. } Sae we the pannel maun acquit, No guilty, sirs—Unanimous.

(The Verdict is returned, Caliendrosus Maximus reads—in a passion.)

AIR, *Up and Down Frisky, and fire away Pat.*

Caliendrosus—

A plague o' such juries, they make such a pother,
And thus, by their folly, let pannels go free,
And still on some silly pretext or another,
Nothing is left for your Lordships and me.

Our duty, believe us,
Was not quite so grievous,
While yet we had hopes for to hang 'em up all;
But now they're acquitted,
O how we're outwitted,
We've sat eighteen hours here for nothing at all.

(Chorus by the whole Bench.)

Tol de rol, lol de rol, lol de rol, lol de rol,
Tol de rol, lol de rol, lol de rol, tol de rol.
But now they're acquitted, &c.

(Mob without huzza.)

In the same volume, under the name of the Justiciary Garland, we find some other fragments of a similar composition, in which James Boswell is said to have also had a hand. Here, however, the trial goes against the pannel, who is a Highland sheep-stealer, and he is accordingly condemned. His last speech is too serious a subject; but we give his unavailing petition for mercy to the king, which appears to be to the tune of "Let me in this ae night:"—

I am a chief of the M'Craws,
Knew nothing of your Lowland laws,
Which of my stealing was the cause,
But I'll not steal again, sir.
O let me aff this ae time,
This ae time, this ae time,
O let me aff this ae time,
I'll never steal again, sir.

A fencible I'll guard at home,
Or on the seas a sailor roam,
Even common soldier I'll become,
Or what else you incline, sir.
O let me aff this ae time, &c.

Here for the present we must conclude our notices of the whimsicalities of the Boswells: the remainder will appear on a subsequent occasion.

* The Court of Session Garland. Stevenson, Edinburgh.
† The songs marked by an asterisk are by Sir Alexander Boswell.

THE MONT DE PIETE OF LIMERICK.

IT is perhaps not generally known that the sick in public hospitals, and likewise the destitute and houseless poor, in several continental countries, are mainly supported by the profits arising from pawnbroking establishments, locally or technically termed *Monts de Piété*, a phrase nearly equivalent to that of Benevolent Institution. This very remarkable, and, as it appears, highly advantageous method of raising funds for relief of the sick and destitute, originated two or three centuries ago in Italy, whence it gradually spread towards the north of Europe, and is now adopted in Germany, the Netherlands, France, and perhaps some other countries. Although thus well known on the continent for a considerable period, no attempt, as far as we are aware, was made to introduce it into the British dominions till 1837, when, by the active benevolence of a private gentleman, it was tried for the first time in the city of Limerick, in Ireland.

From the year 1831 there had existed in Limerick an hospital or infirmary for the sick poor, which was supported by donations, subscriptions, and collections in the churches and chapels; the constant difficulty experienced in raising the necessary funds by these casual means, suggested to one of its governors, Matthew Barrington, Esq. (whom we should suppose to be a relation of its founder or founders,* for it is called Barrington's Hospital), the propriety of inquiring by what method similar establishments are supported in other parts of Europe. The result of his inquiries satisfactorily proved the utility of Monts de Piété, and that the principal hospitals in France, Italy, Germany, and other parts of the continent, are sustained out of their profits. One of the most extensive and flourishing he found established at Bourdeaux, and a few particulars respecting it will give us an idea of the organisation of others on the continent. It was established by a law in the year 1804, which ordained L.24,000 to be raised by shares of L.160 each, the shareholders to be paid eight per cent. for their money, but the shares to be redeemable at any time by repayment from the surplus profits. With the capital so raised, the Mont de Piété commenced business by lending small sums on pledges to humble persons, but only to those of good character and in-

* This hospital was built, and presented to the city, by the family of Sir Joseph Barrington; and as some evidence of the extensive benefit conferred on the city by this institution, I may mention, that no fewer than 14,000 persons were relieved at the dispensary attached to the hospital, during the last six months. Important additions to the hospital are at present contemplated by Mr M. Barrington, who seems resolved not to stint his beneficence, but is willing rather that the capabilities of the institution shall keep pace with the wants of the city. Hospitals are frequently endowed with the wealth which the rich cannot carry into the grave with them; but to found an hospital during a man's lifetime, is an act that deserves to be recorded, and remembered. —*Inglis's Journey in Ireland, in* 1834.

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dustrious habits. The interest of the money lent was on as low a scale as possible, and, after deducting expenses of management, and setting aside a fund for repaying shareholders, was applied to the benefit of the community at large, in charities and public works. All former pawnbrokers' establishments were at the same time superseded. So successful was the institution, that in a few years the shares of the subscribers were bought up, and destitute pauperism was banished from Bourdeaux and its neighbourhood. From the same fund, with the assistance of some donations, the hospital in that city, said to be the finest in Europe, has been lately completed and endowed.

Mr Barrington being satisfied of the great benefits to be derived from such institutions, exerted himself to establish one in Limerick, under the guidance and direction of the governors of Barrington's Hospital, and to be called the Charitable Loan Bank. At the opening of the institution in March 1837, Mr Barrington delivered an address, explaining its constitution, and the objects which were in view. In this Address, which has been published as a pamphlet, the speaker offered some observations and statements on the existing condition of pawnbroking in Ireland, which appear to us worthy of being quoted.

"And now, with regard to the British dominions, we shall find that these are the only countries of Europe in which lending money on pledges is allowed for private advantage exclusively, and in which the profits are not applied to some charitable or public purpose; and although various efforts have been from time to time made by the legislature to regulate the rate of interest, still it is found impossible to prevent the most dreadful excess in the charges. I admit pawnbroking to be an evil, but knowing, at the same time, that it is one which cannot be avoided, I propose (which is the next best thing to its suppression) to apply the profits of the trade to charitable and useful purposes. * * Let me add a word on the present system of pawnbroking. It cannot have escaped your observation how frequently the distress and improvidence of the poor compel them to have recourse to pawnbrokers, and that the advances they thus receive are made at a rate of interest ruinously usurious. It may be said that the rate of interest is regulated by law, as, by the 26th George III. c. 43 (Irish statute), pawnbrokers are allowed to take L.25 per cent. per annum, besides the allowance for duplicate tickets. This is on the supposition that the pledge is not redeemed before the expiration of a month; but the practice is otherwise, as the most distressed persons frequently redeem the pledges within the week. It is a common habit to deposit some article of apparel on the Monday morning, which is redeemed on Saturday night, to enable the individual to make a decent appearance on the Sabbath. But as the lowest charge of interest by that act (and the amendment thereof, 28th Geo. III. c. 29) is for *a month*, and as it is the habit to redeem in *a week*, the charge, including the price of the duplicate (without calculating compound interest, or the interest on a shilling where only a *fractional* part is given, and for which interest is charged as if the entire shilling had been lent), will amount in the cases of those in the greatest want, to L.650 per cent. per annum, and for every L.100 lent by the pawnbrokers in shilling loans, redeemed in the week, at compound interest, it will amount to the almost incredible sum of L.45,690, 7s. 0½d.!! per cent. per annum, which is paid by the poorest and most wretched class."

Mr Barrington proceeds to describe the condition of the charities in Ireland, and their means of support, with a view to the establishment of charitable loan or pawn offices throughout the country. We cannot afford room to follow him through his tabular statements, but give the result of his calculations, which is, that the sum of L.163,911 is expended annually on all the charitable establishments of Ireland—hospitals, infirmaries, poor-houses, dispensaries, lunatic asylums, &c. He next estimates the number of pawnbrokers in Ireland to be 700, each of whom, at the lowest calculation, realises L.900 of profit from his business.

700 at L.900 each, is . . .	L.630,000
Deduct expenses of charities .	163,911
	L.466,089

Here is," he continues, "a surplus of nearly half a million, which may be applied in extending the benefits of these useful institutions, and establishing convalescent hospitals, besides saving to the public a large annual grant, to the counties and towns a heavy tax, and relieving from the unequal burthen of their subscriptions the charitable persons by whom (though not always the most wealthy) those establishments are at present chiefly supported.

But if to this surplus be added the amount of all fines, penalties, forfeited recognisances, &c., which are now almost unproductive in this country (and which on the continent are applied to the support of the poor), the amount, if properly collected, may fairly be estimated at L.33,911, making the whole L.500,000. After supporting, as is seen, all the medical charities, this sum would go far in preventing the necessity of poor-laws, by supporting the aged and infirm, and affording employment to a large portion of the labouring population of the country."

From what follows on the subject of the Mont de Piété, or Charitable Loan Bank, established in Limerick, it appears that the required capital for the institution has been raised by debentures, varying in amount from five to one hundred pounds each, bearing interest at six per cent. "The profits of the establishment (he proceeds to state) shall, in the first instance, after defraying the expenses, be applied in paying the interest of the capital lent, and the surplus profits to be divided in equal shares, *one* in paying off the debentures, and the *other* (and when the debentures are paid, the *whole*) in the maintenance and extending the benefits of the hospital, the funds of which would be thus so much increased, that the governors could enlarge the sphere of its utility, not only in giving relief and comfort to the sick and indigent, but in assisting them after their recovery or during their convalescence. It cannot have escaped the observation of those who attend a public hospital, that there occur many circumstances of distress to be relieved besides the cause for which patients are admitted. Many persons are obliged to relinquish their trades, having consumed what they possessed in the hope of relief, and run into difficulties from which they are unable to extricate themselves; and how frequently does it happen that they are unavoidably dismissed from the hospital in a weak and infirm state, to return (perhaps to a large and wretched family) without the means of support or strength to seek employment, and often without a home, and thus frequently causing a relapse, or establishing a diseased and weak constitution! No small proportion of our commonest, and eventually most fatal diseases, are caused by the insufficient nutriment of convalescents. Dropsies, scrofulous diseases, and scurvy, are all imputable to the same predisposing cause. The benefits which may be insured by affording more wholesome diet to the sick and convalescent, are incalculable.

These are not speculative refinements, but truths drawn from experience and reality, and it is obvious that they must be felt with accumulated severity by such as have families dependent on them for support. Is not then the power of affording relief to such objects most desirable?

By the means proposed, benevolent persons will assist in a work of charity, without any injury to themselves, as the rate of interest is greater than they could receive in the public funds; the profits of such an establishment will insure ample security; and being merely lenders of the sums for which they take debentures, they incur no responsibility, nor have they any share in an establishment conducted under the direction of the governors of the hospital, who are a corporate body, and not individually responsible. Tradesmen and other persons may take debentures of even five pounds, and receive nearly double the amount of interest now received in the Savings' Bank, and be at all times enabled to raise money on such debentures, as they will be received as pledges, and money lent thereon.

The advantages of this establishment will be:—

1st, The raising a capital by small debentures at a certain interest, and lending it on a greater interest, and applying the profits to the purposes of charity.

2dly, Receiving the debentures in pawn, thus giving to the depositors an advantage which they do not possess in the savings' bank.

3dly, Lending money at interest to poor persons of unimpeachable character and industrious habits, on personal security, as is done by the loan-banks.

4thly, Lending money on goods, as is now done by the ordinary pawnbrokers.

5thly, In case of deserving objects, to restore the article, such as implements of trade pawned in the hour of *real* want, without interest or charge.

6thly, Using every precaution against receiving stolen goods in pawn."

Such was this benevolent man's exposition of the objects designed to be accomplished by the Mont de Piété of Limerick. The idea seems to have been approved of, for already the capital has reached to the sum of L.15,350, 3s. 10½d., which has been gradually subscribed by the local gentry, or deposited by humble persons, for the laudable purpose of accommodating the industrious classes at half the expense to which they have heretofore been accustomed. The profits realised by the infant institution since its commencement, amount to the considerable sum of L.1736, 10s. 2½d., or about L.700 per annum.

The Dublin University Magazine,* whose notice of Mr Barrington's pamphlet has furnished us with the greater part of the particulars contained in the present article, makes the following justly deserved comment:—"We cannot conclude this brief and inadequate notice, without offering the tribute of our cordial admiration and respect to that true and exalted patriotism which neither dissolves in tears nor evaporates in sighs, but seeks, by acts of practical and singularly judicious benevolence, to *remove* the ills and sufferings which it deplores. It were faint praise to say that Mr Barrington has conferred upon his *native city* a great and a lasting benefit: he has done more—he has planted there the germ of a system which, sooner or later, *must* extend itself over the *whole of Ireland*—making the necessities of the poor subservient to their relief, and diffusing blessings wherever it appears."

* For December 1839.

THE GOOD OF GRUMBLING.

"GRUMBLE and get on," is the favourite maxim with John Bull; and, strange as it may seem, it is by close adherence to this maxim that the British people have become the foremost in the world. The maxim must, however, be taken in the right sense; for grumbling, like every thing else, has a good side and a bad. We may be said to see grumbling on its right side, when we see a man grumbling at himself—that is, never satisfied with his exertions in any good cause, or his attainments in any laudable or generous pursuit. We see grumbling, again, on its less favourable side, when we see it exercised regarding the rest of the world, or at supposed deficiencies of bodily appetites or their gratifications. The disposition is one which may be said to be born with our nation, and it depends in a great measure on the general direction which is given to the mind in youth, whether it is to be exercised chiefly in a right or a wrong way. Our meaning will perhaps be in some degree illustrated by what we are about to relate:—A lady of the south of England, who possessed a considerable estate in land, was very fond of getting a name for kindness and liberality. One means to which she had recourse was annually to collect all the little boys of the parish, between certain limits of years, upon a conspicuous part of the lawn which opened to the high road, and there to feast them with as much beef and pudding as they could eat. We say nothing about the tendency of this yearly stuffing with good things, given to those who, in general, were pinched and poorly off, both as to the quantity and the quality of their victuals. In some cases it may have done harm, by simply creating a desire for beef and pudding, and a disposition to grumble, because this sort of cheer could not be had at home. In other cases it may have produced a better desire—a desire in the boys to be able to earn beef and pudding for themselves; and thus may have given them that stimulus towards learning, and rising in the world, which is so characteristic of the British people. We do not decide as to which of these tendencies it was likely to have in the greatest number, or to the greatest extent—we merely tell the story. The good lady continued the practice year after year; and one time, towards the close of the entertainment, when she was walking round to see how all went on, and to ask how they were satisfied with her bounty, she found the greater part full and also content. But at last she came to a little fellow upon whose plate there was a large lump of the third helping to pudding, and he was blubbering and crying as piteously as though he had not had a meal for four-and-twenty hours. "What is the matter with you, my little man?" asked the lady; "has any of them dared to ill use you in my presence?" The urchin sobbed and blubbered more desperately than ever; and when he gained breath to speak, he faltered out, "I can't eat any more pudding!" which brought the cause of his misery upon him afresh, and he cried more bitterly than before. The good lady patted him on the head, saying, "Do not cry, my good little man; for if you are not able to eat your pudding, you can put it in your pocket." A still more violent burst followed this kindly advice, and at the end of it came out the words, "But my pockets are both full already."

This little story, which we know to be perfectly true, needs no commentary, and would indeed be spoiled by one; and so we shall mention, in contrast to it, another which happened in the family of a friend of our own the very day before the writing of this paper. A little girl, between five and six years old, and her brother, the next older, had got each a slate to exercise themselves in drawing, which, by the way, is an excellent occasional amusement of children, as it teaches them to judge of form and magnitude more readily and also more agreeably than any other means. They were young artists, and the copy set them by their father was the outline of a simple leaf very neatly drawn. The boy executed his task, or rather enjoyed his amusement, with great care and attention, some success, and also some apparent self-satisfaction. The girl continued much longer over hers, equally intent upon it, and perfectly silent. She was kneeling before a sofa, on which lay the slate, with her back to her parents; and after about fifteen minutes of perfect silence, they observed her little neck turn as red as scarlet, and saw that her chest was heaving with strong emotion. Still, however, she worked away till the agitation extended over her whole body; then she quitted the slate, buried her face in the cushion of the sofa, burst into crying, and sobbed out, "I can't make it nearly so well as papa, though I have made a whole line." This is an instance of that grumbling which comes to good.

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We may mention another instance which came under our own personal observation, though it is many years ago. There is at the present time a public character in the city of Edinburgh, who is one of its brightest ornaments, and whose name, though we shall not mention it, is known and honoured on both sides of the equator, who passed through his common school course with the rapidity of a little comet, and advanced forward to grapple with that most terrible of all elementary books, Euclid, while yet at a size at which few boys know their common multiplication table, at least in any other way than by rote, which is not knowing it at all. With very few exceptions, he was foremost, although some of his class-fellows were nearly double his height and size. On any occasion when he could not answer a question, he was truly dissatisfied with himself, and so miserable in consequence, that no one ever thought of rebuking him. On the dismissal of the class, home he went, bolted himself in his room, with his book and other requisite instruments, and neither would eat nor admit any body until he had mastered the difficulty. During his voluntary confinement, occasional fits of sobbing were heard for a greater or less time; and soon after these had ceased, he began to whistle, which was the trumpet-note of victory, similar in kind and not very different in degree from the celebrated "I have found it!" of Archimedes, when, descending into the bath, the mode of ascertaining the specific gravities flashed across his mighty mind, and revealed to him the means of detecting the quantity of base metal which the fraudulent goldsmith had mixed with the crown. Every one who knows any thing about geometry, as it is treated by Euclid, and all those who follow Euclid in rejecting motion as an element of geometry, are well aware that there is a flaw in the demonstration of the twenty-ninth proposition of the first book in the Elements, which pure geometry cannot make up, though of the young men who study the science there is perhaps not one in a hundred by whom this flaw is felt. It is, in fact, the stopping at this nice little break in the demonstration which shows that exquisite analytical tact which is the surest indication and the noblest property of minds of a high order. Such being the case, we are not to suppose that the party in question would fail to stumble at it. It formed part of the exercise given out before dismissing the class on Friday, and our young philosopher had Saturday to study it, as that was the weekly holiday; a far better plan, by the way, than giving two half holidays in the week, and thus marring both learning and play upon each of them. Upon ordinary occasions he to whom we allude was as fond and forward in his boyish sports as any of the rest; and as far as his strength went, he was not inferior to the best of them. In such cases the whole lessons used to be managed and all the exercises performed before breakfast, and then the rest of Saturday was his own. But in the case of the weary twenty-ninth proposition, breakfast or dinner on Saturday there was none. The room door was bolted the day long, and it was a day of sighing and lamentation, until, when it was far advanced, he made his appearance, hastily ate a little supper, and went to bed in moody silence. Sunday morning was the same, until nearly church time, when he came out of his room, restored to his wonted cheerfulness and tranquillity; and upon the assembling of the class on Monday morning, he went up to the teacher with his Euclid, laid his finger on the flaw, and very modestly asked whether that part was wrong printed, as he had never met with any such want of deduction from the assumed principles in any former proposition. The teacher, who was and who is an excellent mathematician and first-rate instructor, prophesied the future mental greatness of the little boy, and his prophecy has been amply fulfilled, notwithstanding the occasional occurrence of adverse circumstances.

These trifling anecdotes must suffice for illustrative examples, in as far as the rudiments of the Art of Drawing and the Elements of Plane Geometry are concerned, but the reader will easily see that the same principle applies not only to the acquisition of every branch of art and science, but to that of property, reputation, and every thing else worthy of being acquired; and if mankind would only all do their best upon every occasion, but never be satisfied with it, the advancement of society, rapid as is its progress at present, might be greatly accelerated. We have said that this, to be the foundation and stamina of the character, must be encouraged from a very early age; and we may now add, that this grumbling which leads to greatness should be confined entirely to one's self. Grumbling at the world is an idle waste of time, because no one man, whatever he may be, can make the world much different from what it is; and though he could, his grumbling would operate as a means of disqualification. In the case of one's self, too, the grumbling must not be expressed, because it is familiar to every body's experience that they who speak much about any thing never do it well, and often neglect doing it altogether.

Thus, we can readily understand that there are two sets of grumblers—those who grumble at particular things or at things in general, or who grumble aloud at themselves, and those who grumble at themselves inwardly and silently, and make the expression tell in doing better for the future. The British people, as every one knows, are more addicted to the first kind of grumbling than any other nation under the canopy of heaven; but though it often proves unpleasant to a bystander, we have no doubt that it has the effect of keeping the system of things alive, and is at once, in part at least, the foundation and defence of our national prosperity. But as the real greatness of a nation is only a general name for the total greatness of the individuals composing that nation, it is after all the silent grumbling of the individuals which is the vital principle. Thousands grumble upon precisely the same grounds as the boy grumbled, because he could not eat any more pudding after his stomach and his pockets were crammed. You shall hear a man whose house is a palace, whose wealth is a mine—and a singular sort of mine which works itself—whose table is loaded with every dainty, and by whose good management, whose inward grumbling, so to speak, things have all along gone well, and are in sure progress of going better—you shall hear this man, after he has feasted to the full, so that he can hardly quit his chair until his internal labour shall have so far advanced—you shall hear him complaining that the whole country is starving. As he takes his morning drive to the city, through streets and squares of handsome buildings which are rising up on each hand as if by magic, you shall hear him grumbling because the country is going to ruin and beggary. When he reaches his counting-house, where a single glance at the banker's book is the whole of the regular daily work which his well-trained clerks leave him to do, he takes up the newspaper, and reads of magnificent public works which are in progress in different parts of the country, such as a railway here, a canal there, in this place a harbour, in that a bridge, and so on, through the whole catalogue of those public-spirited undertakings, by means of which, taken in the aggregate, the extreme ends of the country are as it were brought together; and with respect to the transfer of man, and of merchandise, and information, a large country is actually brought into closer and easier contact than the different localities of a moderately sized parish were in former times. Reading these things, the man who is mournful in the utmost plenitude of abundance, simply because, like the boy, his pockets are full, and he "can eat no more pudding," takes up his lamentation like a very Jeremiah, and exclaims that the whole nation will be ruined in consequence of the enormous and most improvident expense of those speculations. With the actual cost or management of all or any of these, we have no concern, because it makes nothing for our point; nor are we called upon to condemn these projects, though the parties who embark capital in them may never receive an adequate dividend upon it, far less the capital itself. The great expense of all such works consists in labour, and in labour which, generally speaking, must be paid every week or every fortnight. Therefore, nobody, except a contractor who makes an injudicious bargain, can be ruined by any work of the kind; for the capital which they absorb is a surplus over what is necessary for the commercial and domestic purposes of the country; and as the works in question are always a public accommodation, whatever they may be to private individuals embarking money in them, the savings laid out in their construction are far better expended than if they were given in loans for enabling foreign quarrellers to carry on war against each other. Still, the man whom we have noticed grumbles at them; and though there may not be much philosophy or common sense in his grumbling, it is not without its use. It puts people on the alert, and thus leads them to canvass all measures of a public nature, and thus subjects them to the wholesome regulation of public opinion, without the formal, irritating, and expensive process of the collision of one small party with another. Indeed, in all public matters it is by grumbling that the British nation gets on; and were it not for this grumbling, the same fate would befall us which has befallen all passive nations, and we should retrograde even under favourable circumstances, instead of advancing under all circumstances, good or bad, as has been the case for many years, and more especially for the last seventy or eighty—since Watt and Arkwright, and a hundred others whom we could name, effected a far greater and more beneficial change upon society, and its accommodations and comforts, than all the swords that ever were drawn, or all the laws that ever were enacted.

A systematic history of grumblers, arranged into classes, families, genera, species, and varieties, just as the learned systematists arrange the productions of nature, animate or inanimate, would be a curious work, but it is one upon which for various reasons we cannot enter. There are, however, some general distinctions. There are grumblers at every thing; and these may be considered as the parties in whom the organ of discontentedness, which we believe no phrenologist has yet detected in the human cranium, must be most amply developed. Again, there are grumblers at nature, and grumblers at art—the former being more numerous in the country, and the latter in cities and towns. There are also positive grumblers, who complain because something is, and negative grumblers, who complain because something is not. In a word, there is scarcely any thing which can be done or not done, or any word which can be said or not said, but will afford food for a grumbler of one genus or another.

Now, although we have already said that this grumbling is in itself a waste of time, it all makes for usefulness, by keeping up the excitement of society. Thus, for example, we question if ever streets would have been paved, if citizens' wives had not grumbled at getting ancle deep in mud when they went a-shopping. We also question whether the present unprecedented supply of reading, in which the amusing and useful are so happily blended, would ever have been obtained, if people had not grumbled because they had no excitement after the great war was at an end, and the vast stimulus which it gave to the mind was withdrawn. In this view of the matter, grumbling is an excellent quality, and commendable in all parties, at all times, and under all circumstances; only, in order that it may produce its proper effects, we must observe the maxim with which this paper began—we must "GRUMBLE AND GET ON."

THE HEIR OF THE ST GERANS.

STORY FROM THE CAUSES CELEBRES.

THE Marshal de St Geran, a French noble of ancient family and great possessions, had by his first lady, Anne de Tournon, one son and a daughter. His second wife was Susanne aux Epaules, a lady who had one daughter by a preceding marriage with the Count de Longaunay. When the parties arrived at a fitting period of life, a matrimonial union took place between Susanne de Longaunay, the daughter just mentioned, and the young Count Claude de St Geran, the marshal's son by his first spouse. The marshal's daughter by the same lady was married in due time to the Marquis de Bouillé. Such was the origin and connection of the principal parties in the following remarkable cause, which agitated all France for a long succession of years.

The union of the young Count de St Geran with Susanne de Longaunay took place in the year 1619, before either of the parties had attained their majority. To the great grief of all their friends, and especially of the old marshal, who died in 1632, no offspring appeared, to inherit the combined honours of the houses of St Geran and de Longaunay. But at the close of fully twenty years, when the countess was still comparatively a young woman, she presented every symptom of approaching maternity, to the delight of all around her, and particularly of a large bevy of noble matrons and ladies, whose attentions to the countess on the occasion are very naïvely described by the writer of the Causes Celebres. As may be imagined from the rank and distinction of the parties, the utmost care was devoted to the countess, and, in consequence of an accidental fall, it was even thought prudent that she should latterly keep her chamber altogether, attended by a nurse, and by her mother, old Lady St Geran, who was yet living. While all was joy and expectation in the Chateau de St Geran (situated close by Moulins), two persons alone, inmates of the same mansion, were filled with malice and spite, and plotted a demoniacal overthrow of the general hopes. The Count de St Geran's sister, mentioned as having been wedded to the Marquis de Bouillé, had separated from her aged husband, and had been received as a resident in the Chateau de St Geran. There, also, resided the Marquis de St Maixant, a nobleman of very doubtful character, who had been entertained out of pity by his relative the Count de St Geran, when obliged to fly from his own home, on account of various heavy charges which his conduct had brought upon him. The Marquis de St Maixant and the Marchioness de Bouillé were thrown much together at the Chateau de St Geran, and the result was, that they projected an union of their destinies, to take place when the old Marquis de Bouillé should have left the world. But the announcement of the condition of the countess threw a cloud on their plans and prospects. The Marchioness de Bouillé, in default of other heirs to her brother, would have succeeded to all the family property, and St Maixant's proposals to her were chiefly founded on this prospective inheritance. Urged by her fears of being deserted by the object of her passion, the Marchioness of Bouillé forgot the character of a sister so far as to enter on a scheme of making away with the expected infant, or at least of carrying it off and concealing the birth. For this purpose, by large bribes and still larger promises, St Maixant and the marchioness corrupted the fidelity of Baulieu the house steward, of the nurse Louise Goillard, and of two sisters named Quinet, the chamber-women of the countess. Through these agents, St Maixant and the marchioness carried into execution, in the following manner, their base and most ungrateful conspiracy.

On the 16th of August 1641, the Countess de St Geran had gone to the family chapel to attend mass, and, while there, became aware that the event so much longed for was likely soon to occur. She was conveyed immediately to her chamber; and such was the interest taken in the prospects of this noble pair, that, on her situation becoming known, service was performed in the churches of Moulins for her safe recovery. According to the old custom in distinguished houses, all the friends of the family were assembled in a chamber adjoining that of the countess, and the females of the mansion were present with her. But this state of things did not suit the plotters; and, therefore, on pretence of anxiety for the safety

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of the countess, the Marchioness de Bouillé persuaded all to leave the vicinity of the chamber, with the exception of the nurse, and the two sisters Quinet, the bed-chamber women. The marchioness herself, of course, remained also; and thus the poor countess was left wholly in the hands of her enemies.

The illness of the countess was tedious, and the nurse, who in the accidental absence of a physician took charge of all things, declared that the lady's exhausted strength required repose. A prepared draught was given to her, which brought on a sleep like that of death, and which lasted from evening till morning. In that time the unfortunate lady was made a mother, and the child, a healthy boy, was immediately seized by the nurse, who at first treated it as if it was destined to live, but afterwards, thrown into terror by its first attempts to cry, enclosed its neck with her murderous fingers, and would have killed it on the spot. The house-steward Baulieu, however, was lurking near the room, and having been called in, he had reverence enough for his master's blood to save the child from her gripe; but, to its dying hour, it retained the marks of her cruel hand. Some persons afterwards thought that St Maixant wished the child preserved, to have a firm hold over the marchioness's future affections or fortunes. Perhaps—and this is the most likely conjecture of all—the marchioness could not consent to the death of the child, though she could ruin its prospects; and, besides, the murder was not, or did not seem, indispensably necessary. However this may be, Baulieu, according to instructions, put the half-clad child, at the risk of stifling it, into a basket, and conveyed it secretly from the castle by night. Whither he carried it, will be immediately related. In the meantime, let us proceed with the story of the countess.

Every quarter of an hour, inquiries were made at the door of the chamber by the anxious husband and his friends, and St Maixant also came and held stealthy conferences with the marchioness. To all interrogatories, the answer was returned that "all was well." In the morning the countess awoke. Instantly the poor lady asked for her child, assured that a change had taken place in her condition. She was assured of the contrary, and the conspirators now used all possible arts to convince her friends and herself that no particular event had taken place during the last twenty-four hours. It is needless to dwell on this part of the story. The plotters kept the lady still in expectance, and the farce was carried on for some days. The wretches kept her in their own hands entirely, to prevent others from detecting the truth.* The countess herself was totally unacquainted with such matters, yet she could not be quite convinced; and seeing this, the nurse barbarously resolved to sacrifice the lady to the maintenance of the secret, by ordering violent exercise out of doors in a carriage. Nothing but an excellent constitution could have made the lady, in such a situation, endure this treatment, in addition to violent medicines which the nurse administered to aid in completing the deception. The issue was, that, while still in a maze of doubt herself, the countess had the mortification to see all around her adopt the impression that the whole matter had been founded in error. She was obliged ultimately to be silent, and suppress her feelings, and betook herself, on her recovery, to the consolations of religion under her bitter disappointment.

The course of the steward Baulieu, after leaving the chateau with the child, was only discovered long afterwards. He spoke first for a time with the marquis, and then, using the private keys which were in his possession, issued into the park, and mounted a horse which he had placed in readiness. Upwards of two leagues from the chateau, he thought proper to rest for a moment at the cottage of a woman named Gautier, and made her act as a temporary nurse for the infant. After many further hours' travel, he did the same thing at the cottage of a peasant named Boucaud, giving always some plausible excuse for his journeying with such a burden. As the child was much incommoded in the basket, Baulieu entered a waggon, and sat down with the infant in his arms, tying his horse to the back of the vehicle. In this manner he journeyed till far on in the ensuing day, when he reached the village of Ché. At the lodging where he stopped, the child was again nursed, besides being washed, and receiving for the first time such other attentions as it stood in need of. Pursuing his journey in the waggon, Baulieu reached the neighbourhood of Riom, where he freed himself from the waggoner, mounted his horse again, and rode to the village of Descouteux, where the Marchioness de Bouillé had a chateau. A nurse named Gabrielle Moinoit was here found, but the child remained with her only seven days, for she had the honesty to insist on knowing who were the parents, that she might communicate with them about the infant's progress. The child was therefore taken away from her and from Descouteux. The particulars of its fate immediately afterwards were never known, but at the close of the same year, 1641, Baulieu placed a child in the house of a widowed sister-in-law of his own, named Marie Pigoreau or Baulieu, at Paris. She was in poor circumstances, and took charge of it readily, having received two thousand livres for its maintenance, through the hands of a Parisian grocer, Monsieur Raguenet. Being directed to use concealment about the child, Marie Pigoreau had it baptised, without giving the names of father or mother. She dressed it in the most handsome way, and placed it out at nurse in the village of Torcy-en-Brie, near the city. To the people with whom she placed it, she repeatedly boasted that it was the offspring of a great lord entrusted to her care, and Baulieu came frequently to visit it. When eighteen months old, Pigoreau took the boy home to Paris, and shifting her residence to a new part of the city, passed it off as her own son, she having had one born to her in 1639, but which had died immediately after.

Another year passed away, and the boy, who had been named Bernard, was two and a half years old, when Pigoreau, having expended all the money given to her, and finding no more forthcoming, threw the child upon Baulieu's hands. The colour for this was his relationship to it as uncle. Baulieu seems to have been left by this time much to his own guidance in the matter, the projected union between St Maixant and the Marchioness Bouillé having been given up. The steward, therefore, was in some measure obliged to bring the boy home, although he had a family of five children of his own. He boldly asked leave of the count and countess to bring up "his nephew Bernard" at the Hotel St Geran. They at first counselled him against taking on him such an additional burthen, but he pressed the matter, and they gave their consent. Either the resemblance to themselves—its parents—or the hidden sympathies of nature, caused the countess and her husband to feel an extraordinary attachment to this boy as soon as he entered their dwelling, although they never dreamed of his being aught but the nephew of Baulieu. The countess, in a short time, kept him constantly by her side, though her eyes filled with tears as she gazed on his fair regular features and large blue eyes. Such were the very characteristics which, being those of her own countenance and of her husband's, she had assigned in fancy to the child which she yet half believed herself to have borne! "Ah!" she would cry, "my child would have been now of this very age! and, perhaps, as beautiful!" The Marchioness de Bouillé, and her confederate St Maixant, trembled for the exposure of their guilt when they knew the son to be so near to his parents. But they could not remove him, since he had been brought there, without redoubling their danger. St Maixant, indeed, did not now reside with the St Geran family. Baulieu, however, was still more strongly moved on beholding the feelings inspired in the unconscious parents by the proximity of their child. He was filled with remorse for what he had done, and could not refrain from repeatedly uttering vague hints, which showed his wavering desire to undo the mischief. He often said to various persons that the count and countess had "more reason to love the child than they were aware of." He stated a case of conscience to a priest, asking, "if a person who had taken away a child from its parents had expiated the crime by restoring it to them, though they knew it not?" These and similar remarks were not understood or much noticed at the time, excepting by those who were cognisant of the mystery to which they applied. St Maixant and the marchioness, on some of these sayings being reported to them, came to the resolution of removing Baulieu by poison. The reader who is asked to credit such things must remember that this was an age in which a mortal poison was almost openly sold in Paris, under the title of the "Succession Powder," derived from its frequent use by impatient heirs. Baulieu was poisoned (says our authority) without scruple, to preserve the character of his guiltier confederates, and especially of the marchioness. Before he died, he prayed for an interview with his master and mistress, in order to "get their pardon for a great evil done to them." As yet wholly unconscious of the truth, they merely sent him some kind message in answer, and he died without having seen them, or revealed the secret. His decease took place in 1648, when the child was seven years old.

But the remorseful words of Baulieu were not thrown away. Conjoined with other circumstances, they had the effect of raising a whisper, in the district around St Geran, relative to the cruel conspiracy of which the countess had been the victim. By slow degrees the rumour gained strength, and at length it reached the ears of the count and his lady; but as the actors in the plot were not at first named, and as the count and countess little thought that their child was still living, and a favourite page in their own family, they were not stirred to any decisive inquiries, until on one occasion the countess, when residing at the springs of Vichi with her family, surprised the Marchioness of Bouillé in conversation with a female, whom the countess instantly recognised as the *nurse* who had attended herself many years before. The countess spoke to them, and the obvious confusion into which both parties were thrown, roused new and strong emotions in the lady's mind. She appears never before to have had a doubt of the friendly feelings of the marchioness, but now such a doubt arose, and with such strength, that the guilty lady could not bear the victim's eye, but hastily retired from the count's family to her own chateau at Lavoine, and never saw them more. The countess spoke to her husband, and, after much anxious consideration, it was resolved to bring the nurse from Vichi, where she dwelt, to the Chateau de St Geran, and subject her to an examination, as quietly as possible, before a magistrate. This was done, and the first words of the woman put the fact of a conspiracy beyond doubt. She admitted that the *countess had borne a child*, but that it was still-born. On being asked where it had been put, she said that she herself had buried it. When pressed further, she named a spot under a stone in the courtyard as the place of interment. This locality was minutely searched, but no vestige of stone or child could be seen.

In fact, at the subsequent investigations of the woman before the judges of Moulins, she soon altered her story. At a second investigation, she averred that the countess had not had a child; at the third, that a monstrous birth had taken place; and at the fourth, that the lady had borne a son, whom Baulieu carried away. She denied this again, but finally confirmed it by a letter which she dictated and signed. The cause of these prevarications was soon discovered. The nurse, on her first being apprehended, sent her son to the Marchioness de Bouillé, praying for support, which that lady promised to grant, and set agents at work to fulfil the promise. As the woman's hopes were raised or depressed, so did she confess or deny at her examinations. But in her letter she conclusively admitted the birth, and described its circumstances. An agent of the marchioness betrayed some of her messages and machinations, and thus strengthened the truth. But the guilty lady contrived by money to close the mouths of the girls Quinet, the chamber-women of the countess. Nevertheless, other minor points of testimony came out rapidly after the main fact was once disclosed by the nurse. One servant had met Baulieu with the basket; and all the witnesses of Baulieu's journey, formerly alluded to, came forward one by one to strengthen the cause.

The fact that a child had been born, and carried by the steward to Descouteux, was now established so clearly, that the nurse was condemned to death; she came to a natural end, however, in prison. At Descouteux the track was lost, but it may be imagined that the joyful suspicions of the count and countess were by this time turned upon the boy whom they had received at the hands of Baulieu, and had loved so dearly, though unconscious of his relationship to themselves. And witnesses ere long, being called forth by the growing publicity of the case, came forward to draw aside the veil from the rest of this cruel mystery, and permit the count and his lady to give the youth the title and the rank of a son, as he had long received the treatment of one. The fact of the nameless baptism by Marie Pigoreau was discovered, and the nurses whom she had employed identified the child, which was easily done by all who had ever seen him, on account of the indelible mark imprinted on the back of his head by the nurse's fingers. But the most important piece of evidence was that derived from a page of the Marquis de St Maixant, who had attended that nobleman when thrown into the Conciergerie at Paris, on account of certain crimes which he had been guilty of, and for which he was seized after quitting the St Geran family. He died in prison, but not until he had detailed the whole circumstances of the child's abduction to his page. Being allowed to leave prison occasionally under charge of an officer, the marquis had also taken the page with him to Marie Pigoreau's, where he pointed out the child as the one he had spoken of. When seized with a sudden illness, St Maixant had sent for a priest to make a full confession, but died before this took place. The page, however, identified the boy, and made the evidence complete. The death of the marquis took away the possibility of receiving the confession of one principal party concerned. The Marchioness de Bouillé also died soon after the first agitation of this cause. Vexation, shame, and fear, seem to have brought her to the grave. It required all the interest of her generous brother to prevent her being apprehended after the nurse's confession.

Without the evidence of the principals, nevertheless, one would have thought that no rational doubt could remain on the minds of any, after the testimony derived from the sources mentioned, and from many others which it is needless to recapitulate. The Count and Countess of St Geran, indeed, had no doubts. They and all their tenantry and dependents acknowledged the boy with great rejoicings, and gave him the title of the Count de Palice, that usually borne by the heir of the house of St Geran. But there were other parties not so easily satisfied. Immense property was at stake, and the next heirs of the Count de St Geran fought eagerly for the retention of their presumed rights. These heirs were the Duchess de Ventadour and the Countess du Lude, half sisters both to the Count de St Geran and his lady; or, in other words, daughters of the old Marshal de St Geran by his second lady. The main pillar upon which these ladies rested their claim was the evidence of Marie Pigoreau, an artful, interested, and determined woman, who, supported by them, and paid by them, averred the child to be hers, with an obstinacy worthy of a better cause. From between the years 1650 and 1660, up till the year 1666, this cause agitated the French tribunals, being moved from town to city, from court to parliament, and calling forth the skill and eloquence of all the ablest lawyers of the day.

* The original narrative admits the difficulty which arises here on account of the milk, which it would be necessary to conceal. There are two ways of explaining this point. It is possible that the case of the countess, happily for the plotters, was one in which the lacteal supply was naturally deficient; and it is also possible, as is suggested in the text, that the nurse may have been skilful enough to check it by the use of drugs, locally applied as well as internally. Had the countess called in a medical man, the trick must have been discovered. To account for her not doing so, we must remember that the poor lady believed all around her to be loving friends; and that their unanimous counsels, with the fear of ridicule, and perhaps some undefined dread of a monstrous birth, had all a tendency to force her into silence.

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Finally, the Countess de St Geran, who had in the mean time lost her husband, and who had maintained the contest with an unwearied perseverance, which in itself almost proved her to be a mother, was rewarded with the complete and unalterable decision of the law in her favour. When before the court, she made the affecting declaration to the judges, that if they did not recognise her son, she would go through the ceremonial of marriage with him, and thus assure him of all the wealth and estates of the house of Longaunay. But the youth inherited the estates of both his parents. He espoused Claude-Madelaine, a young lady of the noble house of Monfreville, in the year after the conclusive establishment of his rights.

Marie Pigoreau, in reward for her false-witnessing, was condemned to the scaffold. We have enough of pity for human aberrations to hope that the sentence was not carried into effect, but cannot speak with certainty on this point. One thing is certain, that the Duchess de Ventadour and the Countess du Lude were not hanged. The question as to their deservings is a different thing. Marie Pigoreau, indeed, *may* have deceived them, but this is not probable; and our most charitable supposition must be, that interest blinded them to the baseness of the line of conduct they pursued.

QUACK ADVERTISEMENTS.

We perceive that the Glasgow Constitutional has announced its intention of refusing the insertion of advertisements of quack medicines. This is a piece of good taste and self-denial on the part of a newspaper proprietary, which deserves to be made widely known.—*Chambers's Edinburgh Journal for October.*

WE are happy to acknowledge that there are other parties in Glasgow, besides ourselves (the Scotch Reformers' Gazette especially), equally well entitled to the praise here awarded—and it would afford us much pleasure to be able to say that it was deserved by every newspaper in the city. We are perfectly sure it would be for their benefit in the long-run, if it were so. On this subject we have always felt keenly, and have often been excessively astonished that some journals, otherwise as respectable as their neighbours, should, for any trifling pecuniary advantage, place themselves in the position of *socii criminis* to a parcel of vagabond quacks. The subject, in our opinion, is a very important one, involving, as we seriously believe it does, the interest and the health of a large portion of the most simple class of the community—that section of it which have the most need of protection and sound advice. We say nothing of the injury which the insertion of such advertisements as those alluded to must do to a reputable journal, because the fact of its being necessary, in every family, to put the papers containing quack advertisements out of sight, settles that point; but we speak of the misery, vexation, disease, and death, which are produced indirectly by the doses (so heartily recommended in some newspapers) administered by these reckless and unskilful empirics. We do not say that the pills and lotions of these fellows are always of the most deadly description—far from it. We believe that, *in general*, they are composed of dough and gamboge, and that the common excuse for taking the trash, "if they do no good, they can do no harm," is so far correct. This is all very well when a strong, healthy hypochondriac is the patient, but when a poor ignorant person applies for herself or her child, with a real disease, the consequence of a course of swallowing these *harmless* pills, while the complaint is going on in the system, without the check of active and proper medicine, must be dreadful. We hope these observations will be taken in the spirit in which they are offered, and that before long there shall not be an open paper in Glasgow for the reception of such abomination. The inconsistency attending the publication of these advertisements in some of the journals, is very ridiculous. Upwards of a year ago, we recollect the police of this city were very properly employed in apprehending and punishing a number of men, for distributing their objectionable handbills on the streets; yet while certain papers were loud in their praise of the authorities for acting as they were then doing, advertisements from the offending parties, far more liable to complaint, might have been found stuck into corners of their own sheet! It may be said, but proof it is not, because we know no real argument can be adduced in favour of the practice, that some of the London, and many of the provincial papers throughout England, give free admission to the most abominable of these productions. We acknowledge the fact; but "two blacks can never make a white," and the system has always been condemned, and considered as a disgrace to the press, by every right-thinking person. With the English press we have nothing to do, however. The practice is clearly wrong—and, in the opinion of many, a very serious evil. It cannot be defended; and were these advertisements repudiated in this city, it would at least be a beginning to a good custom, which we hope soon to see universal. It is needless to disguise our feelings on this subject. We consider the insertion of advertisements such as those complained of, a most dangerous imposture, and the persons who give in to it as little better than the more daring criminal. The quack and his newspaper agent are as necessary to each other, in order to dupe the unwary with complete success, as is the resetter to the thief. They act in concert, and they divide the spoil wrung from the pallid hand of poverty, disease, and death.—*Glasgow Constitutional.*

These observations on the subject of admitting advertisements of quack medicines—pills, elixirs, ointments, cosmetics, and other trash of a similar description—into newspapers, suggested as it will be perceived by a brief notice of ours in October last, are from the Glasgow Constitutional; and it affords us pleasure to know that other news sheets are entitled to the same credit for rejecting matter so objectionable on the score not only of public morality, but of public safety. Besides these papers instanced in Glasgow, we may mention, what we did not know until lately, that the Dublin General Advertiser regularly rejects all advertisements of this infamous nature. Perhaps a hint is all that is required to bring about a reform on this subject, and it is for no other reason that we make the present observations. Before concluding, however, we may as well remark that there is another evil perpetrated by certain newspapers, which likewise calls for reproach and amendment. We allude to the very paltry practice of admitting paid puffs of books in the form of editorial paragraphs. These puffs issue chiefly from two or three publishing houses in London, and are written with the express design of misleading the reader into the belief that they embody the impartial opinion of the editor of the paper on the works of which they purport to be a notice. We could point out a number of respectable newspapers which stoop to the meanness of inserting these deceitful literary puffs, to the exclusion apparently of news paragraphs, or matter of original remark; thus pocketing a few sorry shillings at the expense of the degradation of their pages. This practice, as well as that of inserting advertisements of quack medicines, is surely deserving of a speedy and effectual reform.

MONUMENTS OF THE PACIFIC ISLES.

THE general impression respecting the numerous isles of the Pacific is, that they exhibit the elements and materials of a new continent, rising in parts and patches out of the deep, and the foundations of which are created by the labours of myriads of coral worms. This view of the matter, which we believe to be the correct one, has been doubted by some observers, and that chiefly on account of some remarkable architectural relics visible upon several of these isles, and which relics appear not only to be of great antiquity, but to be of a kind which the present inhabitants of these isles are seemingly incapable of producing. Based upon this fact, a conjecture has lately been advanced, that the isles of the Pacific are rather the remains of an old and submerged continent, than of a new one just emerging from the waters. A few particulars on this subject may interest our readers.

On the Marianne Isles, lying in 14 or 15 degrees of north latitude, and about two degrees to the eastward of the Philippine Isles, various remarkable ruins are found. The island of Tinian, we are informed by a late circumnavigator, though but twelve miles long by six in breadth, contains an immense number of rude gigantic ruins. "The stone is composed of sand, consolidated by cement," and their general shape is that of immense walls, with archways in them, and with rows of massive pillars surmounting them, the whole forming great open edifices, called by the inhabitants the Houses of the Ancients. But it seems more probable that their character was that of temples, as some of these Tinian buildings appear to have been fully four hundred paces in length—a size very unlike that suited for the residence of human beings. In some places they are formed merely of long rows of rough pillars, half of them strewed on the ground. You cannot go any where without finding such monuments. "The whole island of Tinian seems to be but one ruin." The neighbouring island of Rota presents similar characteristics. "Fragments of pillars, three feet in diameter, are still lying on the earth which has been raised around them. They certainly formed only a single circular edifice, more than eight hundred paces in circumference." Altogether, in their general character these ruins are very similar to those which we find to have been erected by the northern European nations, and by various others, at a period when they had grown numerous and powerful, but were still altogether unacquainted, or nearly so, with the arts of civilisation. The Druidical remains are the very rudest of this order. The Vitrified Forts, again, which are common enough in Scotland, indicate a more advanced state of refinement, and we may suppose the Tinian monuments, which exhibit no traces of *sculpture*, to have been erected by a people much in the same condition as those who erected the forts—namely, powerful as regarded numbers, and consequently capable of erecting massive piles by a concentration of their physical energies, yet quite unable to give these the polish and perfection of art.

It is because the Marianne Islands do not at this day present a population of the kind in question, that some observers have been inclined to think that these islands have been the scene of some great convulsion of nature, which has swept its former inhabitants from the face of the earth, and left the islands themselves but a wreck of what they were. But this is an erroneous supposition. Tinian has now but *fourteen* or *fifteen* inhabitants, but the case was very different about a century and a half ago. Anson, who visited the place in one of his voyages, relates that the island, not above fifty years before, had contained *thirty thousand* inhabitants! The swords of the Spanish settlers, and the epidemics introduced by them, were the agents in converting Tinian from a well-peopled garden into a tenantless wilderness. This historical truth at once overturns the idea that the island has sustained any destructive convulsion of nature, and shows us that the immediate ancestors of the present race were a people quite capable, as regarded numbers, of erecting the monuments found there—and numbers, as has been observed, form almost the only creative agency required.

The same arguments apply to all the other Pacific isles, and the monuments upon them. There can be little doubt that these lands are literally the *newest* on the face of the globe.

DRAWING THE LINE.

Just as this change had been effected, there presented himself for shaving a big, burly, good-humoured coal-heaver, with a pipe in his mouth, who, drawing his hand across his chin, requested to know when a shaver would be disengaged. The journeyman to whom this question was put, looked doubtfully at the young proprietor, and the young proprietor looked scornfully at the coal-heaver, observing, at the same time, "You won't get shaved here, my man." "Why not?" said the coal-heaver. "We don't shave gentlemen in your line," remarked the young proprietor. "Why, I seed you a-shaving of a baker when I was looking through the winder, last week," said the coal-heaver. "It's necessary to draw the line somewhere, my fine feller," replied the principal. "We draw the line there. We can't go beyond bakers. If we was to get any lower than bakers, our customers would desert us, and we might shut up shop. You must try some other establishment, sir. We couldn't do it here." The applicant stared, grinned at Newman Noggs, who appeared highly entertained, looked slightly round the shop, as if in depreciation of the pomatum pots and other articles of stock, took his pipe out of his mouth, and gave a very loud whistle, and then put it in again, and walked out.—*Nickleby.*

WASHINGTON.

One of the most striking things ever said of him is, "that he changed mankind's ideas of political greatness." To commanding talent, and to success, the common elements of such greatness, he added a disregard of self, a spotlessness of motive, a steady submission to every public and private duty, which threw far into the shade the whole crowd of vulgar great. The consequence is, that his fame is as durable as his principles, as lasting as truth and virtue themselves.—*Daniel Webster's Speeches.*

PHYSICAL AND MORAL PURITY COMPARED.

Between physical and moral delicacy a connection has been observed, which, though formed by the imagination, is far from being imaginary. Howard and others have remarked it. It is an antidote against sloth, and keeps alive the idea of decent restraint, and the habit of circumspection. Moral purity and physical are spoken of in the same language. Scarce can you inculcate or commend the one, but some share of the approbation reflects itself upon the other. In minds in which the least grain of Christianity has been planted, this association can scarce fail of having taken root: scarce a page of Scripture but recalls it. Washing is a holy rite. Those who dispute its spiritual efficacy will not deny its physical use. The ablution is typical: may it be prophetic! Alas! were it but as easy to wash away moral as corporeal foulness! —*Bentham's Panopticon.*

A TALE OF ROMANCE.

After Elbœuf, which is about twelve English miles from Rouen by land, there is no town of much size until you arrive at Vernon; but the scenery on the route is pretty, particularly towards a ferrying-place called Pose, at which the traveller's attention is usually directed to a steep hill, called La Cote des deux Amants, respecting which the following tradition has been handed down:—It appears that formerly there was a strong castle on the top of this hill, the owner of which was a tyrannical baron, who was at once the envy and hatred of his neighbours. He was rich and powerful, but cruel and avaricious. He had an only and beautiful daughter, whose hand was sought by many of the rich barons of the neighbourhood, for one of whom the father had destined her; but this young lady, like many ladies of more modern days, thought she had a right to choose for herself, and responded to the affections of the son of one of her father's tenants, a youth possessing much attraction to a female eye, but who wanted the birth and fortune necessary in the mind of the parent. At first, the baron, when he had discovered the attachment, resolved to sacrifice the young man to his offended pride, but he contented himself afterwards by observing, that none but a knight at least should wed his daughter, as he little supposed that his tenant's son could ever arrive at this distinction. But he was mistaken: love prompts to enterprise, and surmounts great obstacles. The youth accompanied a neighbouring baron as his squire to the field of battle, and his own conduct there was of so daring a character that he was knighted by the sovereign. He returned to claim, as his bride, the object of his affections, but met with the most chilling reception from the baron. At length, in raillery, the baron said that if he could carry his daughter from the foot of the steep hill on which his castle was situated, to the castle porch, running the distance, and never stopping to recover his breath, he would not oppose his wishes. Desperate as the undertaking appeared, the noble youth accepted the offer. The story says that he arrived, with his lovely burthen, at the spot in question, but that nature was exhausted; and as he laid her down at her father's feet, he fell himself, and gave his last sigh. The maiden, frantic with grief, drew a dagger from her side, with which she stabbed herself, and immediately expired upon her lover's body.—*The Hand-Book to Paris.*

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CHAMBERS' EDINBURGH JOURNAL

CONDUCTED BY WILLIAM AND ROBERT CHAMBERS, EDITORS OF "CHAMBERS'S INFORMATION FOR THE PEOPLE," "CHAMBERS'S EDUCATIONAL COURSE," &c.

NUMBER 415. SATURDAY, JANUARY 11, 1840. PRICE THREE HALFPENCE.

OPPOSITE GOOD QUALITIES NOT TO BE EXPECTED.

SIR WILLIAM TEMPLE, in his Treatise on Ancient and Modern Learning, has the following remarks:—"Few men or none excel in all the faculties of the mind. A great memory may fail of invention; both may want judgment, to digest or apply what they remember or invent. Great courage may want caution; great prudence may want vigour; yet all are necessary to make a great commander. But how can a man hope to excel in all qualities, when some are produced by the heat, others by the coldness, of the brain and temper? The abilities of man must fall short on one side or other, like too scanty a blanket when you are a-bed: if you pull it upon your shoulders, you leave your feet bare; if you thrust it down upon your feet, your shoulders are uncovered." Allowing for the obsolete views as to mind which mark these sentences, they appear to us to express a very interesting truth—that all good intellectual and moral qualities are not to be expected in the same character, but that precisely as we have much of any one quality in any one character, so must we look for a deficiency of some other; an arrangement which, like all others in nature, must of course be intended for some end upon the whole beneficial. It is worth while to make some effort to impress this doctrine, because, from its not being sufficiently taken into consideration, very unreasonable expectations are sometimes formed, and very unreasonable complaints made, respecting individuals.

Respecting historical persons, for instance, we find these unreasonable expectations very frequently expressed. Some man has achieved great glory in war, and his military talents continue ever after to be readily allowed; but then, it is remarked, he showed, throughout his career, no true regard for the interests of his country, or those of his species. He was merely ambitious of personal distinction or power. His aims were purely selfish. Now, it is not wonderful that such a man should have displayed such features of character, for, though great military services are often rendered for patriotic and philanthropic reasons, the general case is otherwise. Desire of admiration is the ordinary motive of the hero, and this is generally the chief feature of his character. Accordingly, it is only what might be fairly expected, if, when his military services are crowned with splendid success, he endeavours to become the master of the liberties of his fellow countrymen. Such men first do great feats and endure great hardships for the sake of being admired, and then they are eager for high rank and great power, also for the sake of being admired. A desire of shining in the eyes of mankind alike prompts a Bonaparte to meet the shot-storm on the Bridge of Arcole, and to overturn the remains of representative government in the Orangery. It is comparatively rarely that such heroism is displayed for the sake of a great and good public cause; but when it is so, as it was in Wallace and in Washington, then we of course do not see the case end in mere personal aggrandisement, for the feeling which leads to the desire of such aggrandisement never was present, at least as a leading feeling, at any part of the career of the individual. He was animated by higher objects in his warrings, and he continues to be so when these are past. With respect to those who show in their triumphs a thirst of power and external marks of greatness, it may be concluded that their greatest doings and sufferings were prompted by motives chiefly selfish, and that for these, accordingly, a cooler praise should be bestowed.

There is a class of historical persons who are brought into notice as vigorous contenders with existing systems, and who continue afterwards to be revered by at least the party who sympathise in their views. Of such men we may cite Luther and Knox as notable examples. These men undertook respectively a tremendous task, and they certainly in a great measure accomplished it. We hear them often referred to with gratitude and admiration by persons who at the same time lament the rudeness of their character. Knox, in particular, is blamed for his uncourteous treatment of Queen Mary, and his encouraging the popular violences to which so many beautiful specimens of Gothic architecture fell a sacrifice. Those who bestow this blame do not reflect that perhaps, in such an age, no other than a man capable of beholding beauty's tears unmoved, and seeing temple and tower ruthlessly cast down, was capable of performing those public services which are now spoken of with so much gratitude. Gentleness of nature, politeness to the fair sex, and regard for elegant remains of antiquity, are agreeable and estimable qualities in their way; but had Knox possessed them, he would have been disqualified for the task which he undertook, and never would have undertaken it. There is no alternative. Either the rudeness must be taken for the sake of the necessary boldness, or the boldness must be wanted also, and the services remain unperformed. It is here as it is with those who perform the various offices called for in the ordinary world. We are not to expect butchers to be men of refined feelings, or carmen to have the delicacy of gentlemen. Those who bewail the want of soft and courteous qualities in a Luther, might as reasonably expect to see the hurricane pause in its tremendous but perhaps necessary mission, in order to waft a pleasure bark across some fairy lake, or fan the cheek of beauty in her rosy bower.

As Sir William Temple remarks, and, indeed, as remarked every day in the ordinary world, few individuals excel in all the departments of mental greatness. Where there is much aptitude for observation and the acquisition of facts, often we find there is little of that thought which comes from reflection and meditation. Where there is a great bent to mathematical science, there we are likely to find little imagination, and small powers of expression. One is a solid man, but not a shining one. Another is a shining man, but not solid. On the one hand, a senator is laughed at because his whole soul is absorbed in arithmetical calculations; on the other, we find several of his fellow-statesmen who never look for a moment at figures, but delight to launch out into declamations, for which there may not be the slightest foundation in truth. Now, it certainly does sometimes happen that a human being is endowed with so fair an assortment of the faculties, that he displays tolerable ability in most walks in which he may be called to appear; but these are rare cases. The rule seems to be, that each mind is endowed disproportionately with the various faculties, or has been reared in circumstances which have chiefly called out one set, and left the rest comparatively dormant. It is equally true, that, with most people, the frequent or habitual exercise of one set of faculties tends to make the rest laggard: thus a poet will scarcely be a mathematician, and a meditative sage will scarcely be found acting the part of a prompt and sprightly instructor of youth. The extremely active man will think little and do a great deal; the thinking man will do nothing but wish that something should be done. If these be truths in nature, as we think they are, it follows that we should be guilty of a certain absurdity in finding fault with any one person for not being something else, or exhibiting his powers in a different way from that in which he does exhibit them. We ought first to ascertain, as far as our knowledge of human nature enables us to judge, if that something else be compatible with what the individual at present is, or if it really be possible in ordinary cases to exhibit mental ability in two ways diametrically opposite.

It is always a critical matter to seek to excuse great faults. Yet of many persons remarkable for such blemishes, and at the same time eminent for intellectual ability, we shall find, on a candid view, considerable reason for believing that the two things were not separable. Alexander Pope, with exquisite powers as a moral poet, possessed a degree of irritability which certainly amounted to a fault, since it led him into a puny and unworthy warfare with the whole of the subalterns and privates of the literary corps. Yet who can say that this very irritability of temper was not something intimately allied to, if not absolutely identical with, the fine genius which we so much admire in the Rape of the Lock and the Essay on Man? The uncontrollable passions of Burns can never be thought of without regret, not only because we must deplore such things on their own account, but more particularly as clouding a name so brilliant, and helping to hurry their gifted possessor to a premature end. Yet it is not unlikely that the burning eloquence which shines in Burns's page, and the headlong fervours which hurried him over the brink of moral propriety, were one thing in his nature, or at least had some common root, so that, had we been spared the contemplation of his errors, we might have also lost the enjoyment of his powers. Scott was ambitious of baronial state and family honours, and ruined himself by his eagerness for these objects; yet this weakness clearly was the same peculiarity of mind which, by throwing the poetry of mediæval and feudal allusion into his writings, has rendered them the delight of the civilised world. He might therefore have been happier if he had wanted this ambition; but we, at the same time, might have been less regaled by his literary productions. We deplore the gloomy superstition of Johnson, as it rendered his own life miserable; yet had he been otherwise, it is odds but we should have never had occasion to follow him through that magnificent strain of melancholy music, the Vanity of Human Wishes. The faults of all literary men are not to be thus palliated, if palliation it can be called—for in most cases they possess their superior intellectual endowments without any such constitutional infirmity as seems to have existed in most of the persons here enumerated. Some careful discrimination is here necessary. A man of talent, whose nervous system is perfectly sound, is a very different being from one in whom there is a structural or functional infirmity. In the former, there can be no claim for a light consideration of errors, except where the exclusive devotion to some single pursuit may have, as in ordinary cases, led to a sort of unsoundness. In the latter, on the other hand, we must be content to take any beautiful or interesting results that arise, with the faults that seem equally to emanate from the same source. In the one case, we have a sound plate of glass, calculated to form a perfectly transparent medium in the window into which we fix it. In the other, we have a clump, which transmits prismatic rays of exquisite beauty, covering even the cottage floor with glory, but which only does so by virtue of a blemish, and could not do it otherwise.

The sense of these remarks, if they possess any, may be applied, we think, with good effect in the ordinary domestic world. When we feel disposed to condemn any one near us for a particular prevailing fault of character, let us consider if he could have

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been fairly expected, with his good qualities, to have been altogether free from the noxious one. We shall often find reason to conclude that he could not. Surliness and honesty are, for example, sometimes found together. When we encounter such a case, and experience the benefit of the honesty, let us ascertain, before condemning the surliness, if it be not in fact an essential element of the character of the individual, which could not have been absent without the other also. Do we again appreciate the benign nature of some one associated with us, but feel disposed to regret that it is attended by a certain want of vigour and activity, let us reflect if we could reasonably expect two good qualities so opposite to each other to be largely developed in the same character. By taking such calm philosophic views of our friends and fellow-creatures in general, we shall be apt greatly to increase our own peace of mind.

RECOLLECTIONS OF AN AUTHORESS.

BY A. OPIE.

THE COUNTESS DE GENLIS.

How pleasant it is, as one advances in life, to recal to remembrance the books in which we delighted in childhood, especially those in which instruction was blended with amusement! Foremost in my recollection amongst books of this nature are the early works of the Countess de Genlis.* I went to a French school at a very early age, and I was never tired of reading her Theatre of Education, and Tales of the Castle. At a later period, some of her subsequent works fascinated my attention, and gave me a strong desire to see a writer of powers so varied; but though I once received from her a flattering message by an American gentleman, I was not able to procure admittance to her presence when I visited Paris in 1829. In the succeeding year, however, I was more fortunate, and my kind friend Cæsar Moreau, the founder and secretary of the Societé Statistique Universelle, brought about a meeting between us, when I ventured to the French metropolis in the winter of 1830.

I was conducted one afternoon in a carriage to her residence, with the hope that she would accompany us to dinner to the house of my friend, but it was in vain that I tried to work myself up to my once exalted height of enthusiasm respecting this wonderfully gifted person, and it was not till we drove up to her door that I forced myself to remember nothing but that her first works had charmed and instructed my early days, and that the ardent wish of bygone years was about to be gratified. She received us very courteously, but said she could not go with us, as she had already dined; and as it was late, it was not worth while for her to put on her best gown. We, however, eagerly assured her that she would be welcome to us in any dress, and she at last smilingly consented to accompany us. Her arrangements were speedily made, and I soon found myself seated in the carriage with the object of my earliest admiration. She talked incessantly, but in so low a voice, and the carriage made such a noise, that I could not hear above half what she said; therefore, as I found that what she said required no answer, I amused myself in studying her person. At this period she was in her eighty-fifth year, and had therefore lost the graceful contour which she at one time possessed; but her face was attractive, and the still existing beauty of her hands struck me with surprise as well as admiration; youth evidently lingered there, as also in her dark expressive eyes; and I thought, as I sat beside her, that she was the prettiest old woman that I had ever seen. She looked the better from the total absence of pretension in her dress; she wore a slate-coloured silk gown, a white crape bonnet and frill, and the quilling round her cap did not come so low on her forehead as to hide the silver hair which faintly curled beneath it.

The party at the house of my friend was composed of a large number of gentlemen, a circumstance which neither Madame de Genlis nor myself had anticipated. However, my attention was entirely absorbed by the aged guest, and as I seated myself beside her in the attitude of an eager listener, she was willing to gratify the desire which she was flattered by exciting. She related anecdotes, and made observations, with a degree of graceful playfulness which I had never seen excelled. I was gratified to observe the simple dignity with which she replied to the many compliments paid to her, and to the flattering speeches made by several of the gentlemen present when her health was given, followed by that of the king. This health was accompanied by earnest wishes from the gentleman who gave it, that Louis Philippe might act up to those correct principles which had been instilled into him by the noble lady then present.

When the dinner party broke up, and we returned to the drawing-room, we found a large company rapidly assembling, and in a short time my companion and myself saw ourselves surrounded by a crowd of new comers. I am here tempted to present some extracts from an account of this evening, given shortly afterwards in the Morning Post, but omitting certain passages which I think were too flattering to myself.

"Leaving politics and parties for a while, I cannot resist describing to you a scene which afforded me an evening of most unmixed gratification. I have already made you acquainted with the *Société Française de Statistique Universelle*. A few days ago occurred the first anniversary of its establishment. On this occasion, Monsieur Cæsar Moreau, the founder, entertained a party of friends, for the most part members of the society. Many individuals from various countries were present; among whom I may cite Count Mikorski, deputy of the nobles of the Polish diet, and his son the Marquis de St Croix, the Count de Bouillé, General Baron de Bardin, Colonel Amoros, &c., all men esteemed for their literary and other acquirements. Our countrywoman Mrs O——, arrayed in all the primitive simplicity of Quakerism, and contrasting singularly and pleasingly with the fashion reigning about her, formed one of the party; not, I assure you, the least delighting or delighted. But the great attraction over all was the celebrated Madame de Genlis, looking like the venerable representative of the literary remembrances of a byegone age.

At the age of about eighty-five, Madame de Genlis does not look more than seventy; her sharp angular visage, relieved by dark sparkling eyes, and her attenuated form, making up a figure and features which were never otherwise, probably, than slight, or 'petite.' Her white, delicate, and even plump hands, viewed apart from herself, would never have been believed to belong to a person of more than forty years of age.

These vividly recal to recollection the days of which we have read, of which few perhaps of her contemporaries remain to testify, when, full of youth and beauty, and conscious accomplishments, she was the grace and ornament of admiring circles, as those waxen fingers swept the strings of her harp, or aided the soft breathings of her lute, in that polished era when the lovely Marie Antoinette and the Graces presided over the court of France. This was, I am informed, the first time for many years that Madame de Genlis had appeared in public society. She sometimes quits her seclusion to visit her royal pupil, King Louis Philippe, and his family, at the Palais Royal. Her industry is still surprising. She had finished only the day before, she said, her popular History of France, in one volume, commenced originally, as I understood, at the instance of Prince Polignac, with a laudable view to have a pure elementary work on the national history, that the morals of the youth of the respectable classes of society might be guarded by it from the contamination incident upon contact with the works which the French Revolution produced in deleterious abundance. Madame de Genlis has also in manuscript a romance of real life, founded on a princess of the illustrious house of Bourbon Condé, by all accounts a most beautiful, talented, as well as amiable personage, who died somewhere about the revolution, at thirty years of age."

From four until eleven o'clock, when she retired, Madame de Genlis supported, with great vivacity and an extraordinary physical energy, an uninterrupted and animated conversation, with by turns almost every individual in this crowded assembly; an exertion demanding certainly, as it exhibited, colloquial talents and powers of memory of a vigorous and varied order. On my taking leave of her for the night, she expressed a wish that I should again see her, an invitation which I was not slow to profit by. I called on her next day, and found her reading her Book of Prayers; but she assured me I did not disturb her, and that she was very glad to see me again. The conversation that morning had quite a graphic power; the scene and persons whom she described were before me. She possessed *l'art de raconter* (the art of relating) ascribed to Bonaparte, but I was surprised at the want of sweetness in her tones; her voice was deep, and what the French call *rauque*, of which the term "croaking" will be a fair translation; but perhaps this was in some measure owing to her advanced age. She was full of the praises of Mademoiselle d'Orleans (now called Madame Adelaide), her beloved pupil of former times. She told me that in a recent illness of hers, which had lasted six weeks, Madame Adelaide had been her daily attendant. She also spoke with much gratitude and affection of the king of the French himself, but did not seem unbecomingly elated by the exaltation of her pupil to the throne. She assured me that since his elevation he had offered to make her a duchess, but that she had refused his kindness; "for what," said she, "under my circumstances, would an increase of worldly titles be to a woman on the verge of the grave?"

She had great apparent pleasure in relating the following anecdote of her royal pupil:—"When the people in the month of October," said she, "paraded the streets of Paris as in the Reign of Terror, with torches in their hands, and crying aloud for the blood of the ex-ministers, they went at length to the Palais d'Orleans, and surrounding the gates, demanded to see the sovereign, shaking their torches, as if in menace, and exclaiming, 'Justice! vengeance!' Their frightful cries soon reached the ear of the king, who was at dinner with the queen and his family. Instantly, disregarding the earnest solicitations of his beloved wife and children, he persisted in going out to the intruders, and in going alone. Accordingly, he presented himself to them, and demanded to know their business. Again were the torches waved, as if in threatening, over their heads; again they renewed their cry for 'Justice,' and for 'Vengeance!' 'Justice toujours!—vengeance jamais!' replied the undaunted Louis Philip, and slowly re-entered the palace; while the angry multitude retired in silence from the gates, awed, no doubt, by a display of that moral dignity, and that unshaken courage, which the lowest of men are capable of appreciating, and which, even while it disappoints and defies them, they in their hearts admire."

This was my last interview with Madame de Genlis.

I was intending to go to her apartments, as usual, on my way from the house in the Champs Elysées, where the few Friends who were in Paris used to meet together on the Thursday, as well as on the Sabbath morning, when that day's post brought me news from England, which unfitted me for going any where. I heard of the sudden death of the dearest of my surviving friends, the friend of my childhood and of my whole life, and I desired my servant to say to all visitors that I could see no one. I had been thus denied three days, when, to my surprise, on the evening of the third, my friend Cæsar Moreau, unannounced, entered the room! He told me that he had ventured in in spite of my prohibition, because he came to inform me that his revered friend the Countess de Genlis had been found that morning dead in her bed! M. Moreau was surprised and hurt at my being so little affected, though I owned I was shocked by his intelligence, and I therefore hastened to tell him that my cup of grief was so full already, I had no tears for any new affliction; on which he kindly left me to myself, but not before he had made me reluctantly promise to go with him the next day but one, to see his lamented friend in her coffin. And I went with him to the Fauxbourg du Roule at the appointed time. The coffin was standing in the court-yard, and not screwed down; but nothing was visible, save the sawdust, copiously heaped up over the body, as it was so changed, and the face so disfigured, that it was necessary to hide them as soon as possible from the view. This was, I own, no disappointment to *me;* and with rather a relieved heart I accompanied my companion to the apartments of Madame d'Anquetil, and her daughter the Countess Helena, Chanoinesse de Baviere, who lived under the same roof with Madame de Genlis, and were her friends and companions.

From the Chanoinesse I learnt the following particulars:—Madame de Genlis had, as was her custom, sat up dictating to her amanuensis till three in the morning. She then went to bed, apparently in perfect health. At six she called her servant to her; and when she dismissed her again, she said, "You may call me at eleven o'clock as usual!" The servant did so, but could not awake her; she therefore called the Countess Helena into the room, saying, "If Madame would be so good as to wake my mistress, she will not be angry; but if I do, perhaps she will scold me;" and the countess complied with her request. She found her leaning on her hand in an easy position; and taking her in her arms, she spoke caressingly to her, and kissed her yet warm cheek—but in vain; when, seeing a physician pass the door, she called him in, as by this time she was in considerable alarm. He desired that the curtains should be undrawn, and light let into the room. He was obeyed, and saw immediately that death had stolen on her sleep, and that all efforts to restore her would be fruitless! However, all possible means were tried for her recovery, but without effect. Thus, at the age of nearly eighty-five years,* the Countess de Genlis passed, unconsciously perhaps, from time into eternity!

Before I quitted these ladies, I was informed that, in consideration of the regard which Madame de Genlis had expressed for me, I was to be invited to her funeral. As I am "an inquisitive and sentimental traveller," I considered it so far fortunate for me that this distinguished lady died while I was at Paris, as the event enabled me not only to see the funeral of a French lady of high birth, but also to make one of the cortège. I was therefore gratified to receive in due time the long printed paper usually sent on such occasions, inviting me in the name of the relatives of the deceased to the mournful ceremony. While I read, it seemed as if I was in a dream. The little girl who used to think of this extraordinary lady with such humble admiration, and at so great a distance, in the beginning of life, was, in comparatively her life's decline, invited as a favourite friend to unite with that lady's friends and relations in paying her the last duties!

We found the coffin standing in the doorway, surrounded by tapers, and covered by a black velvet

* Felicite Stephanie Duerest de St Aubyn was born January 25, 1746, at the estate of her family in Burgundy. At an early age she married the Count de Genlis; and a few years afterwards she became an inmate of the family of the Duke de Chartres, and took charge of the education of his children, one of whom is the present Louis Philip, king of the French. At the outbreak of the revolution she took refuge in England, and her husband, who had become Marquis de Sillery, perished by the guillotine. After this period, the Countess de Genlis experienced many vicissitudes, for an account of which I beg to refer to her Memoirs.

* Dec. 31, 1830.

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pall embroidered and fringed with silver. On one end of it stood some silver cups, or vases, and at the other there was, I think, a crucifix, but the rapid manner in which we passed prevented me from taking an accurate survey. We were ushered into the apartments of Madame d'Anquetil, as those of the deceased were not large enough to receive the company. I am unable to give the names of all the persons who composed the funeral train, but the Marechal-General Gerard, he who had distinguished himself by his conduct during "*the three days*," was one of the chief mourners, as the husband of the grandaughter of the deceased lady.

He wore the ruban rouge (the red ribbon) and other decorations over his dress. I was made known to him, but he had only just been led up to me when we were summoned to proceed to the church of St Philippe du Roule. The corbeillard which contained the body was covered by a black velvet canopy, fringed with silver, and we followed it, to my surprise, *not* in procession. No women attended besides myself, except the Countess Helena, and the two demoiselles Ducrest, the great-grandaughters of Madame de Genlis. The church, as she was a lady of rank, was hung with black; the coffin was placed in the middle aisle on which the door of entrance opened, and we stood around it behind the priests and the acolyths (or boys who officiate at the altar). Both priests and acolyths held lighted tapers, and sang a mournful chaunt. Half way up the aisle was what is called a catafalque, which lofty erection was of black velvet and silver, over which hung draperies of white crape, ornamented with silver embroideries; and when the chaunt and other ceremonies over the coffin had ceased, it was carried under the catafalque, and disappeared from our sight. We then went to the seats prepared for us near the altar, which were covered with black cloth; and by this time the church was full of well-dressed persons, probably friends of the deceased, or who wished to pay her the last tribute of respect. After a long mass had been performed, and some ceremonies gone through at the altar—such as an offering of money, by General Gerard and another chief mourner, as I believe—the coffin was drawn out from under the catafalque, and sprinkled with holy water by those who passed by it. We then entered our carriages and followed the corbeillard in procession, to the mountainous hill called Mont Calvaire (Mount Calvary), about three miles from Paris. I had visited it before in the autumn of 1829, in what was called the week of the Pilgrims. During that week devout Catholics went, some barefooted, as I have been told, up its steep and sometimes rocky sides; and Charles the Tenth, with the dauphin and dauphiness, had been there on a pilgrimage a few days before I visited this beautiful spot, which was, however, disfigured in my eyes by the three crosses on the top of it, representing the Saviour and the two thieves, as big as life, and painted the *colour* of it. As the ascent to Mount Calvary is very steep, we were obliged to alight when we reached the foot of the hill. The first carriage, which was the king's, contained the king and queen's aide-de-camps, and Madame Adelaide's gentleman; the next was General Gerard's; and by the time each carriage had set down its occupants, we were a large assembly; and when in procession, winding up the hill then glittering with frost, we formed, I may say, a beautiful show. First went the acolyths in their scarlet and white robes; next the priests in their black and white ones; then followed the splendid corbeillard, surrounded by men in mourning habits, carrying lighted torches, which, dropping flame as they went along upon the white and frozen ground, strewed our path, as it were, with burning crocuses; then came the chief mourners, noblemen whose names I have forgotten, and General Gerard; the green and gold uniforms of the former adding to the variety of the colouring which the scene exhibited, while over our heads was a bright blue wintry sky. Beneath us lay the lovely valley of the environs of Paris, covered with a soft reddish mist, by which every thing was *embellished* rather than veiled, and whence the outlines of the white buildings below us came out more beautifully defined, while the Seine flowed transparently along, sometimes reflecting the red tints of the atmosphere, and adding to the loveliness of the view. I forgot the dead in contemplation of the living objects, if hill, vale, and water, may be so called; and was secretly rejoiced that the will of the deceased, who had desired to be buried at Mount Calvary, had ensured me a second visit to this my favourite hill. We had to go more than half way down the other side of the mountain to reach the grave; and as we stood there, grouping as we best could on its steep sides, it seemed to me a scene fit for a painter. But there was no solemnity; the service was hastily muttered to the accompaniment of directions from the assistants how the body was to be lowered, and there were no tears but those shed by the poor Chanoinesse, who in Madame de Genlis seemed to lament a second mother.

In turn, the relatives and friends (myself excepted) took the brush offered by the priest, dipped in holy water, and sprinkled the grave with it. But when I thought all was over, three gentlemen stept forward, and severally paid a tribute to their departed countrywoman. The first, after justly eulogising the deceased, read a letter which she had recently written to Cæsar Moreau, in which she expressed her approbation of the late political changes, and avowed her intention to write a History of the last Revolution, and the events of "THE THREE DAYS." The second observed, that it was unnecessary to praise the noble and celebrated lady whom we had just interred, "because," said he, "son éloge est sur le trône de France!"* The third speaker repeated some extempore verses in her praise. I remarked that not one of the three introduced a single reflection of a religious character.

We then resumed our lovely walk; and as I wandered on before my companions, slowly descending the precipitous though winding path, I could not help comparing the interment which I had witnessed with the simple solemn funerals of Friends; but as this comparison awakened in me too powerfully the remembrance of the interment which had so recently taken place in our grassy grave-yard in my native city, I was glad to take refuge from painful regrets in the contemplation of the scene before me; for the descent from Mount Calvary was rendered as beautiful as its ascent, by the deepening tints shed by the declining sun over the valley of the Seine, which made it every moment increase in loveliness, and I was sorry when we re-entered our carriages.

Two days only after the Countess de Genlis had been buried on Mount Calvary, it was notified in the public papers, that the government had resumed to itself the land granted on Mount Calvary to the Priests and the Society for Missions, and forbade any future interments there; and that, instead of being called Mount Calvary, it was to resume its original name of Mont Valerien. I conclude it was out of respect to the wishes of the highly gifted instructress of his youth, that the king did not issue this order sooner. A considerable part of this hill is full of white marble monuments, picturesquely arranged, while willows and acacias profusely wave their graceful branches over them. Perhaps a monument is by this time erected to the memory of the Countess de Genlis, by the hand of affectionate gratitude; but be that as it may, she has, in my opinion, an enduring monument already in her works; and some of them at least will, I trust, always be considered as an ornament to the literature of her country, and endear her name to future generations.

* Her eulogy is on the throne of France.

SKETCHES OF SUPERSTITIONS.

ALCHEMY.

ALCHEMY, like many other chimeras and superstitions, had its origin in the fanciful imaginations of the ancient Egyptians, and other African as well as Asiatic sages. It was introduced into Europe, as is believed, by the Arabians during their residence in Spain; the prefix *al* is at least Arabic, and, with the Greek term *chemia*, signifies *the chemistry*, or process of analysing the properties of matter. The modern and respectable science of chemistry had thus no other origin than in the researches of a set of impostors or self-deceived dupes, who pursued the craft of alchemy in quest of some mysterious and highly valued qualities in nature.

The ancients, as we have seen in the preceding sketches, had no just knowledge of the laws which regulate the phenomena of the universe. To them, every thing was a result of direct supernatural agency—the whole earth, and the starry firmament around it, were supposed to teem with spiritual essences, invisible to the eye of man, but yet serving as the immediate cause of every appearance in nature, and of almost every event of public or individual interest. The notion that these spiritual essences could be roused from their latent or hidden state, and be coaxed or compelled to alter the appearances and course of nature, was the foundation of innumerable superstitions, and among the rest that of alchemy. This delusion, also, like some others, was united with religious veneration, and long held its place as one of the qualities of a pious mind.

Two things from the earliest ages were anxiously sought for by mankind—gold, and the means of protracting life to an indefinite limit. Seeing the high estimation set on gold, and not reflecting that its value was chiefly an accidental circumstance in commerce, arising from the scarcity of the article, it was held as a sublimation of certain hidden excellences in nature, and therefore an object which could be made by a particular process in art, provided it pleased the Deity or some of nature's attendant spirits to favour the pursuit. The doctrines by which philosophers reasoned themselves into the belief that gold, as well as the elixir vitæ, or elixir for extending the duration of life, could be elaborated from the common materials around them, were exceedingly abstruse. According to Paracelsus, "philosophy is nothing but the study of wisdom considered in a created nature, as well subject to sense as invisible, and, consequently, material; and wisdom's central body is the shadow of wisdom's central essence; and the moral interpretation can never exclude the real effects from ocular demonstration: but when reason hath experience, faith hath no merit; and without faith there is no knowledge of any excellent thing; for the end of faith is understanding." By this piece of learning we suppose it is meant that to obtain the treasures in nature we must patiently investigate and have faith in the result. But what was to be investigated? Why, nature, and for the following reason:—The whole universe (according to the alchemists) at first consisted of molecules, or atoms, partaking of body, soul, and spirit, under the control, more or less, of certain spiritual agency. Creation was the determination or arrangement of these elementary atoms by certain established laws; and the grand arcanum was, by the investigation of these laws, to ascertain the features of this primitive organisation, and imitate nature by the perfection of art. In other words, it was believed that philosophers, by close application, would be able to come at the elementary molecules of nature, and to re-arrange them in the form of the two best things that fancy could suggest, gold and the elixir vitæ. This elixir of life came indeed to be identified with gold, because, as gold was the most valuable substance in nature, it was most suitable to preserve that which we set a high value upon, namely, health, or the principle of life; tincture of gold, therefore, was long esteemed a cure for all bodily diseases, and an elixir for the extension of life beyond the ordinary limits of mortality.*

Pursuing these philosophic reveries, many men of otherwise sagacious understanding devoted years and years of their existence to delusive investigations into the nature and quality of the animal, mineral, and vegetable kingdoms. Shut up in laboratories, they pored over crucibles and retorts, analysing all kinds of substances with the hope of at last hitting upon the great secret. During the thirteenth, fourteenth, and fifteenth centuries, the study of alchemy was steadily pursued by several eminent practitioners; among whom were Roger Bacon, an English monk; Raymond Lully; Hollandus; Peter John Faber; Michael Sandovigius; Paracelsus; Basil Valentine, a German monk; and Van Helmont. The shrewdness and industry of some of these men were the means of eliciting several chemical principles of great value, and it is difficult to believe of such persons, that they could seriously entertain the notion that gold, either in the form of its own substance, or as a tincture, could be produced from matter of an entirely different quality; yet their respective writings prove beyond a doubt that they spent no small part of their time in searching for this illusive material.

The alchemists in general regarded three things as above all others containing the essential element they were in quest of; these were salt, sulphur, and mercury, which they alleged were invested with a mystic character, having a relation to "the calorific or vivifying spirit" of matter. Take, for instance, the following jargon from Sandovigius in explanation of this mystic relationship between spirit and substance:—"Sal (or salt) is the key and beginning of this sacred science, is that which openeth the gates of justice, and is that which hath the keys of the infernal prisons, where sulphur lies buried. * * The sun and moon are the parents of all inferior bodies and things. The sun's motion and virtue doth vivify all inferior bodies, and those things which come nearest in virtue and temperature are more excellent; and the pure form of the terrestrial sun is said to be all fire, and, therefore, doth the celestial sun communicate most virtue; therefore, the incorrupted quality of pure sulphur being digested in eternal heat, hath also regal power over all inferior bodies, for the sun doth infuse his influence into all things, but especially into gold; and those natural bodies do never show forth their virtues till they be made spiritual." Lastly, as for mercury (continues this paragon of learning), it contains "in itself the perfections, power, and virtue of Sol, and runneth through the houses of all the planets, and in his regeneration acquireth the virtues of superiors and inferiors; and by the matrimony thereof appeareth clothed in their candour and beauty;" and being of gaseous origin, "crude mercury is originally a vapour from a clear water and air, of most strong composition, coacted of air itself, with a mercurial spirit by nature, flying etherial and homogenial, having the spirits of heat and cold; and by exterior and inferior heat doth congeal and fix." We do not for a moment imagine that any reader in the present dull age of the world can understand this very logical explanation of the properties of salt, sulphur, and mercury—at least we acknowledge that it is far past our comprehension. The general drift of the argument, however, seems to be, that in these materials are to be found the germs or seeds of metals, which, by being brought into union, are to form the philosopher's stone, or a substance which is to turn all baser metals into gold. Sandovigius alleges that "the first matter of metals is the humidity of the air, mixed with heat." Again, the "generation of metals is this: the four elements [fire, air, earth, and water] in the first operation of nature, do, by the help of the archeus [divine head] of nature, distil into the centre of the earth a ponderous or heavy vapour of water, which is the seed of metals."

With respect to the manner of imitating nature by an alchemical process, we are told to "take ten parts of air, one part of living gold, or living silver; put all these into thy vessel: boil this air first until it be

* Retrospective Review, vol. xiv, article Alchemy.

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water, and then no water. If thou art ignorant of this, and knowest not how to boil the air, without all doubt thou shalt err; seeing this is the matter of the ancient philosophers. For thou must take that, which is, and is not seen, until it be the artificer's pleasure; it is the water of our dew, out of which is extracted the saltpetre of philosophers." Having thus presented a recipe for boiling air, and turning it into water, and then manufacturing the water into saltpetre, he proceeds to speak of the art of making mercury out of sea-water, on which, however, he is particularly mysterious. "I have not (says he) so clearly showed the extraction of our sal ammoniac, or the mercury of philosophers, out of our sea-water, and the use thereof, because I had from the master of nature no leave to speak any further; and this only God must reveal, who knows the hearts and minds of men."*

The same learned writer, in the course of his expositions of the arcana of alchemy, makes the profound remark, which doubtless will be new to many of our readers, that, as all animals are produced from two sexes, so, to fulfil an universal and blessed scheme of the Creator, metals also must be produced in the same manner. Thus, the germinating principles of mercury deposited in mother earth remain for a thousand, five hundred, or one hundred years, till matured for birth, and then the said principles assume the appearance of gold, silver, or baser metal. On a similar principle diamonds are produced, for they are "the offspring of the vapours of nature, escaping from the fatness of sulphur, with pure salt water."

This, it will be said, was all very fine in the way of theory; but the question still remains, how was gold or the golden tincture of life to be produced by an operation in art? Unfortunately on this point the alchemists were more than usually dark. We can only learn from their vague jargon, that the main difficulty consisted in reducing metals to their elementary principles, or we may call it dissolving the body to find the spirit. In this grand art, fire was the purifying agent; and the process, after all, was to be lucky or unlucky according to the frame of mind of the operator. Seeking to dive into such a mighty mystery, it was indispensable to obtain the blessing of the Almighty on the undertaking. "Those, therefore," says Sandovigius, "that desireth to attain to this art, in the first place put thy whole trust in God thy creator, and urge him by thy prayers, and assuredly believe that he will not forsake thee; for if God shall know that thy heart is sincere, and thy whole trust is put in him, he will, by one means or another, show thee a way, and assist thee in it, and thou shalt obtain thy desire." Having on these grounds commenced the operation, and *at length* resolved the metallic and saline substances in the crucible to their primitive elements, all the rest was easy, and *so* the philosopher's stone was produced. Lully, in speaking of this sublime operation, observes, that by casting "no more but the quantity of a pea into a mass of metal, the mass shall be turned into the finest gold that may be in the world," and such will be its virtue, that it "heals all inconveniences of men's bodies, as one grain being drunk with wine, and taken hot, and then the party go to a warm bed, and to sweat like as though he did lie in water, in three days he shall be made whole of the sickness soever he have."

An account is given by Sandovigius of the mode of transmuting metals, which is of course quite unintelligible; and to show what efforts nature of herself will make to elaborate gold from mercury, we are presented with the following instance of a piece of that valuable metal being found between a man's teeth after death: it affords an instructive example of the manner in which facts are compelled to bow down and accommodate themselves to preconceived theories. "Now," proceeds the narrative, "the reason why gold was found and generated betwixt the teeth of the dead man, is this, because in his lifetime mercury was by some physician conveyed into his infirm body, either by unction or by turbirth, or some other way, as the custom and manner was, and it was the nature of mercury to go up to the mouth, and through the pores thereof. If, therefore, in time of such a cure, the sick man dyed, that mercury, not finding any egress, remained in his mouth betwixt his teeth, and that carcass became the natural vessel of mercury, so, being shut up fast for a long time, was congealed into gold by its own proper sulphur being purified by the natural heat of putrefaction; but if mineral mercury had not been brought in thither, then could gold never have been produced. And this is a most true example, that nature in the bowels of the earth doth of mercury alone produce gold and silver, and other metals, according to the disposition of the place or matrix."

How the rogue who put the piece of gold into the dead man's mouth must have secretly laughed at this blast of learning!

The early race of alchemists, who laboured conscientiously in the vain endeavour to find the philosopher's stone, were followed by numberless imitators, who by their pretences and tricks imposed on all classes of persons. A belief in the tincture of gold, or elixir vitæ, was universal throughout Europe in the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries. "The common people in some countries, particularly Italy, Germany, and France, often denied themselves the common necessaries of life, to save as much as could purchase a few drops of the tincture of gold, which was offered for sale by some superstitious or fraudulent chemist: and so thoroughly persuaded were they of the efficacy of this remedy, that it afforded them in every instance the most confident and only hope of recovery. These beneficial effects were positively promised, but were looked for in vain. All-subduing death would not submit to be bribed with gold, and disease refused to hold any intercourse with that powerful deity [Mercury], who presides over the industry and commerce of all nations."*

M. Geoffery, in the Memoirs of the Academy of Sciences for 1772, published an account of the various modes in which the frauds of the alchemical adepts were carried on. "He observes, that, instead of the mineral substances which they pretended to transmute, they put oxide of gold or silver at the bottom of the crucible, the mixture being covered with some powdered material and gum-water or wax, so that it might look like the bottom of the crucible. On other occasions they made a hole in a piece of charcoal, filled it with powdered gold or silver, and closed the hole with wax: or they soaked charcoal in a solution of these metals, and threw the charcoal, when powdered, upon the material to be transmuted. They used, also, small pieces of wood, hollowed at the end, put filings of gold or silver into the cavity, and stopped it with fine sawdust of the same wood, which, on burning, left the metal in the crucible. Sometimes they whitened gold with mercury, and made it pass for silver or tin; and the gold, when melted, was exhibited as gold obtained by transmutation. They had a solution of nitrate of silver, or of muriate of gold, or an amalgam of gold and silver, which being adroitly introduced into the crucible, furnished the necessary quantity of metal. A common exhibition was to dip nails into the liquid, and to take them out apparently half converted into gold: these nails consisted of one half iron, neatly soldered to the other half, which was gold, and covered with something to conceal the colour, which the liquor removed. Sometimes they had metals made of gold and silver soldered together; the gold side was whitened with mercury, dipped into some transmuting liquid, and then heated; the mercury being dissipated, the gold portion of the metal appeared."† By these various tricks the pretended discoverers of the philosopher's stone induced individuals to employ them, and to venture sum after sum on the chance of realising unbounded wealth.

Alchemy, as a professed art, latterly sank with astrology into contempt, and has long since been abandoned as an absurd and positively vicious delusion. Fortunately the experiments of the philosophers, and the quacks who succeeded them, were not utterly valueless. Inasmuch as astrologers in endeavouring to read the stars made discoveries in the planetary system, so did alchemists, in the equally vain attempt to resolve metals and salts, or their supposed elementary principles, into gold, discover a number of acids and preparations, now used in medicine and in various useful arts, which might otherwise have remained for a time unknown, "As the alchemists," observes Dr Thomson,‡ "were assiduous workmen—as they mixed all the metals, salts, &c., with which they were acquainted, in various ways with each other, and subjected such mixtures to the action of heat in close vessels, their labours were occasionally repaid by the discovery of new substances, possessed of much greater activity than any with which they were previously acquainted. In this way they were led to the discovery of sulphuric, nitric, and muriatic acids. These, when known, were made to act upon the metals; solutions of the metals were obtained, and men were thus gradually led to the knowledge of various metalline salts and preparations, which were introduced with considerable advantage into medicine. Thus, the alchemists, by their absurd pursuits, gradually formed a collection of facts, which led ultimately to the establishment of scientific chemistry." It is also undeniable that modern views in chemical science in some degree favour certain of the theories on which the errors of the alchemists proceeded. Their theory of molecules is a dream-like prediction of the atomic theory of the revered Dalton, now universally received. Their notions as to the possibility of converting one substance into another by tracing it back to its constituent elements, and reconstituting these in a different way, in like manner almost appear revived as serious and sober truth, when we hear of the hypotheses of modern chemists as to the nature of the simple substances. That the fifty-five of these now discovered are not the elements of material nature, but are likely yet to prove only various compounds of a smaller number, may be almost concluded upon from facts which have been observed. It is therefore not impossible that results which were sought for on mere supposition, or under the influence of roguish imposition, in the sixteenth century, may, in the nineteenth or twentieth, be the objects of serious philosophical investigation—but not, we hope, for so paltry a purpose as the conversion of the ordinary into the rarer metals. We conclude with the remarks which Gibbon made on the alchemists: "Congenial to the avarice of the human heart, it was studied in China as in Europe, with equal eagerness, and with equal success. The darkness of the middle ages insured a favourable reception to every tale of wonder; and the revival of learning gave new vigour to hope, and suggested more specious arts of deception. Philosophy, with the aid of experience, has at length banished the study of alchemy; and the present age, however desirous of riches, is content to seek them by the humble means of commerce and industry."

* A New Light of Alchymie taken out of the Fountaine of Nature, and Manual of Experience, by Michael Sandovigius; translated from the Latin; London, 1650.

* Thaumaturgia. † Penny Cyclopædia. ‡ History of Chemistry.

LAST CENTURY ANECDOTES.

FOOTE THE COMEDIAN.

In the 341st number of the Journal, appeared a notice of Samuel Foote, as one of the odd London characters of a former age. The article contained an original anecdote of the mimic, respecting his detention by a snow-storm at Moffat, when travelling from Dumfries to Edinburgh. This anecdote had been picked up in conversation by the author of the article, and, though generally correct, was not so in every circumstance. We have been supplied with the following more minute and curious, as well as correct particulars, by a gentleman whom advanced age and family connections could alone have made acquainted with circumstances of so private a nature, and so far removed from our own time.

In the winter of 1775–6, Mr M'Culloch of Ardwell, in the stewartry of Kirkcudbright, who held a situation in the Leith Custom-house, visited his country mansion, in company with a friend named Mouat, in order to be present at an election. Mr M'Culloch was a man of joyous temperament, and a good deal of wit, and used to amuse his friends by spouting half-random verses. He and his friend spent a week or two very pleasantly in the country, and then set out on their return to Leith; Mr M'Culloch carrying with him his infant son David, familiarly called *Wee Davie*, for the purpose of commencing his education in Edinburgh. To pursue the narrative of our correspondent:—"The two travellers got on pretty well as far as Dumfries; but it was with difficulty, occasioned by a snow-storm, that they reached Moffat, where they tarried for the night.

Early in a January morning, the snow having fallen heavily during the preceding night, they set off in a post-chaise and four horses, to proceed on their perilous journey. Two gentlemen in their own carriage left the King's Arms Inn (then kept by James Little) at the same time. With difficulty the first pair of travellers reached the top of Erick-stane, but farther they could not go. The parties came out of their carriages, and, aided by their postilions, they held a consultation as to the prudence of attempting to proceed down the vale of Tweed. This was considered as a vain and dangerous attempt, and it was therefore determined on to return to Moffat. The turning of the carriages having become a dangerous undertaking, Wee Davie had to be taken out of the chaise, laid on the snow, and wrapt in a blanket, until the business was accomplished. The parties then went back to Moffat, arriving there between nine and ten in the morning. Mr M'Culloch and his friend then learnt, that of the two strangers who had left the inn at the same time, and had since returned, one was the celebrated Foote, and the other either Ross or Souter, but which of the two favourite sons of Thalia I cannot remember at this distant period of time. Let it be kept in mind, that Foote had lost a leg, and walked with great difficulty.

Immediately on returning, Foote had entered the inn, not in good humour, to order breakfast to be got under way. His carriage stood opposite the inn door, in order to get the luggage taken off. While this was going on, a paper was placarded on one of the panels. The wit came out to see how all matters were going on, when, observing the paper, he in wrath exclaimed, 'What rascal has been placarding his ribaldry on my carriage?' He had patience, however, to pause and read the following lines:—

> While Boreas his flaky storm did guide,
> Deep covering every hill, o'er Tweed and Clyde,
> The north-wind god spied travellers seeking way;
> Sternly he cried, Retrace your steps, I say;
> Let not *one foot*, 'tis my behest, profane
> The sacred snows which lie on Erick-stane.

The countenance of our wit now brightened, as he called out, with an exclamation of surprise, 'I should like to know the fellow who wrote that; for be he who he may, he's no mean hand at an epigram.' Mrs Little, the good but eccentric landlady, now stept forward, and spoke thus:—'Trouth, Maister Fut, it's mair than likely that it was our *frien'* Maister M'Culloch of Ardwell that did it; it's weel kent that he's a poyet; he's a gude eneugh sort o' man, but he never comes here without poyet-teasing mysel', or the gudeman, or some ane or other about the house. It wud be weel dune if ye wud speak to him." Ardwell now came forward, muttering some sort of apology, which Foote instantly stopped by saying, 'My dear sir, an apology is not necessary; I am fair game for every one, for I take any one for game when it suits me. You and I must become acquainted, for I find that we are brother poets, and that we were this morning companions in misfortune on "the sacred snows of Erick-stane."' Thus began an intimacy, which the sequel will show turned out to be a lasting one. The two parties now joined at the breakfast table, as they did at every other meal for the next twenty days.

Foote remained quiet for a few hours after breakfast, until he had beat about for game, as he termed it, and he first fixed on worthy Mrs Little, his hostess.

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By some occult means he had managed to get hold of some of the old lady's habiliments; particularly a favourite nightcap, provincially, a *mutch*. After attiring himself *a la* Mrs Little, he went into the kitchen and through the house, mimicking the garrulous landlady so very exactly in giving orders, scolding, &c., that no servant doubted as to its being the mistress *in propria persona*. This kind of amusement went on for several days for the benefit of the people in Moffat. By and bye, the snow allowed the united parties to get on as far as the Crook, upon Tweed, and here they were again storm-stayed for ten days. Nevertheless, Foote and his companion, who was well qualified to support him, never for a moment flagged in creating merriment, or affording the party amusement of some sort. The snow cleared away at last, so as to enable the travellers to reach Edinburgh, and there to end their journey. The intimacy of Foote and Ardwell did not end here, but continued until the death of Foote.

After this period, Foote several times visited Scotland; he always in his writings showed himself partial to Scotland, and to the Scotch. On every visit which he afterwards made to the northern metropolis, he laid aside a night or two for a social meeting with his friend Ardwell, whose family lived in the second house from the head of that pretty row of houses more than half way down Leith Walk, still called Springfield. In the parlour, on the right-hand side in entering that house, the largest of the row, Foote, the celebrated wit of the day, has frequently been associated with many of the Edinburgh and Leith worthies, when and where he was wont to keep the table in a roar.

The biography of Foote is well known. However, I may add that Mr Mouat and Mr M'Culloch died much lamented in the year 1793. David M'Culloch (Wee Davie) died in the year 1824, at Cheltenham, much regretted. For many years he had resided in India. In consequence of family connection, he became a familiar visitor at Abbotsford, and a favourite acquaintance of Sir Walter Scott.* Mr Lockhart tells us, that, next to Tom Moore, Sir Walter thought him the finest warbler he had ever heard. He was certainly an exquisitely fine singer of Scotch songs. Sir Walter Scott never heard him sing until he was far advanced in life, or until his voice had given way to a long residence in India. Mr Lockhart also tells us that David M'Culloch in his youth was an intimate and favourite companion of Burns, and that the poet hardly ventured to publish many of his songs until he heard them sung by his friend. I will only add, that the writer of this has more than once heard Burns say that he never fully knew the beauty of his songs until he heard them sung by David M'Culloch."

We have only to add, with reference to this pleasant chat of our respected correspondent, that, after all, we have some doubt of the correctness of his date. No election took place in the stewartry of Kirkcudbright at the time specified, but one did at the close of 1774, which is probably the true date. Besides, Foote died in October 1777, which leaves too little space for his several times visiting Scotland, though he might have done so after 1774.

ROBERT BURNS.

The following is an original anecdote of Burns, related, like the above, by a gentleman whose years enable him to recollect the circumstances, in which indeed he himself bore an important part:—

"In the month of September 1787, my native town of Banff was honoured by a visit of the illustrious poet of our country, Robert Burns. He and his friend William Nicol, then one of the teachers in the High School of Edinburgh, had been enjoying a jaunt of pleasure in Nicol's vacation time through the Highlands. Returning through the province of Moray eastward, they had spent the day previous to their arrival in Banff at Fochabers and Gordon Castle, where Burns at least had been most hospitably entertained and greatly courted by Jane Duchess of Gordon, who then was the presiding deity of the castle.

On reaching Banff, Mr Nicol called on Dr George Chapman, then rector of the Academy of Banff, well known as a distinguished classical scholar, and an eminent and successful teacher of the learned languages, as well as author of several works on educational subjects. The worthy doctor had for several years, at an antecedent period, been rector of the High School or Academy of Dumfries, where his friend Mr Nicol had, as one of his ushers, commenced his career as a teacher. Like all who had ever been in a similar situation under the fostering guidance of Dr Chapman, Mr Nicol looked up to him with almost filial veneration.

Mr Nicol and his interesting travelling companion were invited to breakfast next morning with Dr Chapman, at his house in Banff; and the writer of this, then a youth about thirteen years old, and a scholar in the doctor's morning Greek class, was asked by his revered teacher to stop to breakfast, as being rather a pet scholar, and dux of the class, which got a *drill* on their 'Homer' from Mr Nicol until the breakfast bell rang. During breakfast, Burns was playing off some sportive jests at his touchy *compagnon de voyage*, about some misunderstanding which took place between them at Fochabers, in consequence of Burns having visited the castle without him; and the good old doctor seemed much amused with the way the poet chose to smooth down the yet lurking ire of the dominie. After breakfast, Dr Chapman sent me to the bookseller's shop for a new copy of the 'Antiquities and Scenery of the North of Scotland, by the Reverend Charles Cordiner, Minister of the English Chapel in Banff,' which he presented as a mark of his regard to Mr Nicol, and for a useful guide-book to the travellers in their progress. As they were to visit Duff House, the splendid mansion of the Earl of Fife, and drive through the park on their way south, after delivering the book to Mr Nicol I accompanied the two gentlemen from the town to the house, carrying a note to the steward there from my father, that they might see the interior of the house, the paintings, and valuable library. In driving through the park, Mr Nicol, while engaged in looking at the plates of the book, asked me whether I was aware that the gentleman who was speaking to me about the park was the author of the poems I had no doubt heard of. 'Yes,' I replied; 'Dr Chapman told me so when he asked me to breakfast.' 'Then have you read the poems?' 'Oh yes; I was glad to do that,' was my reply. 'Then which of them did you like best?' Nicol asked. I said 'I was much entertained with the Twa Dogs and Death and Dr Hornbook; but I like best by far the Cottar's Saturday Night, although it made me *greet* when my father had me to read it to my mother.'

Burns, with a sort of sudden start, looked in my face intently, and, patting my shoulder, said, 'Well, my callant, I don't wonder at your *greeting* at reading the poem; it made me *greet* more than once when I was writing it at *my* father's fireside.'

I recollect very well that while Mr Nicol loitered in the library, looking at the fine collection of old classics there, Burns, taking me with him for a guide, went a second time through some of the rooms to look at the old paintings, with the catalogue in his hand, and remarked particularly those of the Stuart family in the great drawing-room, on which he seemed to look with intense interest, making some remarks on them to his *boy*-guide, which the *man* fails to recollect. But the face and look of Robert Burns were such as, either boy or man, he never could forget. He may add, that he has never seen them so forcibly pourtrayed or brought so fully to his mind's eye, as by Flaxman's noble statue of the poet in the monument in Edinburgh, especially when viewed in a particular way."

* Sir Walter's brother Thomas was married to a sister of Mr M'Culloch.—Ed.

BIOGRAPHIC SKETCHES.

M. TURGOT.

When Mr Canning, in 1827, spoke in the House of Commons of M. Turgot, as "the model of a statesman," there was a general expression of surprise: scarcely any one remembered having ever before heard the name. It was nevertheless true that M. Turgot, comptroller-general of the finances of France in 1775, was one of the most enlightened and well-aiming statesmen who ever lived, and fully entitled to be held up as a model for that class of men. His administration lasted only twenty months; his views were appreciated in his own day only by an enlightened few; he also died early. These are probably the reasons why he is little known in England, and perhaps not much even in France. His history, however, is one which cannot be made known without general benefit. M. Turgot was not a reformer of the authoritative part of government, which few thought of touching in his day. He took the less questionable walk of an administrative reformer, in which capacity he never perhaps had his equal. His great mind had ascertained, almost for itself, the few simple fundamental principles on which national wealth, and the social happiness of states, depend; and these he applied, first to the concerns of a little district, and afterwards to those of the whole kingdom, with that success which right principles never fail to command. His whole life, indeed, is an exposition of the irresistible tendency of just philosophical maxims to the diminution of evil and the creation of good. Having happened lately to obtain a perusal of the biography of this excellent man, we were strongly impressed with the idea that an abridgement of it might be an acceptable present to our readers, as tending to give them just views on many points in political economy and arrangement. We have therefore applied ourselves to the task, not using the French original, which we have never seen, but an English translation published in 1787. The author of this work was the eminent but signally unfortunate Marquis of Condorcet.

M. Turgot was born at Paris, May 1727, in a respectable grade of society, his father, who was descended from a line of Norman noblesse, being for a long time at the head of the corporation of merchants. He received the best education which the country and age could afford. A little anecdote of his school days shows that the benevolence, governed by good sense and a regard to useful ends, for which his mature years were remarkable, was a principle implanted in his nature from the beginning. The little allowance of money which his parents made him when at school, repeatedly disappeared as soon as it had been received, without any one being able to guess the manner in which it had been employed. At last they discovered that he distributed it to some poor scholars, to enable them to purchase books. As the youngest of three sons, and in consideration of his studious, simple, and somewhat pensive character, he was designed for the church, and he actually proceeded so far in the proper education for that profession as to be elected prior of the Sorbonne. But scruples respecting the propriety of making engagements and professions in which he might not be able to persevere, had already beset his mind, and he finally resolved to adopt a different course. At this time, though only about twenty-three years of age, he was not only a proficient in the belles lettres, but had studied the elements of every science, had made himself master of many, and had drawn out a list of a great number of works which he had planned, including poems, tragedies, philosophical romances, and extensive treatises on natural philosophy, history, geography, politics, ethics, metaphysics, and grammar. Such of the plans of these works as survived to fall into the hands of his biographer, discovered, we are told, "information the most various and extensive, and views the most novel and profound."

In the choice of a profession M. Turgot was governed by but one consideration—how shall I make myself most useful, with the least sacrifice of conscientious principle? He chose the law, and besought the appointment of a master of requests, which he soon obtained. For this office, which was simply that of a provincial judge under the government, he prepared himself by particular application to those parts of science which are most connected with its functions and duties; namely, the study of natural philosophy as far as it relates to agriculture and manufactures, to the subjects of merchandise, and the execution of public works; as also the principles of legislation, politics, executive government, and commerce. One anecdote respecting this early part of his career will show the high sense of justice by which he was animated. He was commissioned to examine the cause of a person employed in the office of the farmers-general; and conceiving the man to be guilty, and feeling the necessity of rigour in such a case, he put off the investigation from time to time. At length, after long delays, taking the case under his cognisance, he found, unexpectedly, that the defendant was innocent. Immediately he felt himself obliged to repair the injury which might have arisen from the delay. He inquired into the amount of the appointments, of which the party had been deprived during the pendency of the cause, and paid the exact sum, taking care to make it appear an act, not of generosity, but of justice.

M. Turgot contributed to the celebrated Encyclopédie the articles "Etymology," "Foundation," and some others; but when the work was prosecuted for its liberal opinions, he ceased to support it, not from any timidity in assertion of the right of free discussion, but because he saw that the writers of the work had become a sect or party, as much as those who prosecuted them. He conceived that sound views, which, published by an independent person, would attract respectful attention, are apt to lose all force when they come out under the sanction of a party, for then they are confounded with whatever is erroneous or unpopular in the professions of that party, and accordingly are rejected without examination.

The friendship of M. Gournai, a merchant, and intendant of commerce, proved of great advantage to M. Turgot. Experience and reflection had shown to Gournai the truth of principles at that time little known in the administration of commerce. In the words of Turgot's biographer—"Gournai had learned, or rather he had seen, that the laws prohibiting the importation of foreign commodities, and the exportation of domestic raw materials, though having for their pretext the encouragement of national industry, in effect deranged its natural course; that the protection afforded to any particular species of commerce, is prejudicial to commerce in general; that privileged monopolies, whether for buying, for selling, or for manufacturing, far from giving vigour to industry, stifle it in all but privileged persons, and in them convert it into a spirit of intrigue. He went farther. He found that the regulations which are, or are pretended to be, formed, to prevent a scarcity of necessaries, to fix them at a moderate price, insure their goodness, or the excellence of manufactures, at once diminish and render uncertain their quantity, enhance their price, and almost always reduce their quality." All these views were adopted by M. Turgot, and thenceforward were acted upon by him, as far as he was enabled to put them in force.

In 1761, the subject of our memoir was appointed Intendant of Limoges—an intendant being a provincial officer under the government, designed to execute its orders, and carry out all its views, within his own particular district. At this time, although no one dreamt of an improved government for France, there was a disposition towards an improved administration of that which really existed. It had become, as it were, fashionable to adopt and favour measures which appeared calculated to improve the condition of the mass of the people. "Turgot profited by these dispositions to give activity to the society of agriculture established at Limoges; to direct their efforts to important objects; to open a mode of instruction by public lectures to the female professors of midwifery who were scattered about the country; to procure for the people the attendance of able physicians in epidemic diseases; and to establish houses of industry, supported by charity, the only species of alms-giving which does not encourage idleness, and which affords at once relief to the poor and advantage to the public. He introduced at the same time into his province the cultivation of potatoes, a very valuable resource for

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the poor. The people at first regarded this food with disdain, as beneath the dignity of the human species; and they were not reconciled to it till the intendant had caused it to be served at his own table, and to the first class of citizens, and had given it vogue among the fashionable and rich."

In due time, he extended his views to higher objects. The *taille*, or land-tax, had hitherto been levied in an oppressive manner, solely in consequence of the ignorance of administrators: Turgot made arrangements by which it was raised on correct principles, and consequently to the great relief of the parties concerned. His next object was the roads. These were formed and kept in repair according to a system called the *corvées*, the main feature of which was compulsory and unpaid labour exacted from the humbler classes. These persons having nothing but their wages to depend upon, were reduced to the greatest misery when forced for weeks at a time to labour at a distance from their homes, where their families were in the mean time left utterly destitute. M. Turgot proposed to those districts which bordered upon the principal roads, that they should execute the task imposed upon them, by means of hired labour, the cost of which was to be levied by a rate proportioned to the rate of the land-tax, an abatement being made in the latter corresponding to the amount they expended. The preservation of the roads was in like manner settled by smaller assessments. When about to introduce these reforms, M. Turgot found it necessary to take a step which must be regarded as strikingly illustrative of the condition of France at that time. He addressed minute explanations of the measure to the curates of the different parishes throughout his intendantcy, to be read by them to the people, who, he knew, would otherwise have regarded even the benefits he proposed to confer upon them with jealousy, having hitherto known their superiors only as oppressors. M. Turgot brought about some similar reforms in the militia, which had previously been nearly as oppressive to the people as the *corvées*.

During the administration of Turgot, Limousin experienced two successive years of scarcity. In his management on that occasion within a limited district, we see him acting upon the same great principles which he afterwards exemplified on a wider theatre. He was convinced that "unrestrained liberty, and protection to magazines and to the speculations of commerce, were the only means to prevent or repair the evil." To pursue the language of his biographer—"The scarcity of provisions, by raising their price, augments the interest which each proprietor has to carry them where the scarcity is greatest; while laws of police, forced sales, and regulations of price, only oppose barriers to this natural impulse, and deprive the public of this resource. Besides the evil they produce of themselves, they contribute to expose the trader to the vexations of petty officers, and to the violence of the populace, whose terror and disquietude are excited or kept up by the spectacle of a restless and turbulent legislation. They falsely impute the calamity to the dealers, who come to the public succour; because they regard them as the agents of government, or because they see them to be the objects of suspicion to the magistrates. They ascribe their distresses to their chiefs, because the conduct of those chiefs proclaims that they believe themselves to have the power of repairing it. M. Turgot knew likewise that these fatal precautions in times of scarcity have the more lasting, the more general, and the equally mischievous effect of preventing the establishment of a regular commerce in grain, and by that means rendering the subsistence of the people for ever precarious.

His only object therefore in this period of calamity was to give every extension in his power to the freedom of trade with respect to provisions. He took care not to discourage that trade, by supplying the wants of the people from any other source, and employed the powers of government for no other purpose than that of protecting that trade from the prejudices of the populace. He had accordingly the consolation to see this commerce, thus abandoned to itself, provide for the public subsistence, in spite of the obstacles which the situation of the province opposed to his operations.

But the freedom that was requisite was not yet complete. The custom of fixing the price of bread was established in the towns. M. Turgot perceived that the bakers, who possessed an exclusive privilege, and who were subject to this regulation, took advantage of it to raise the bread to a price beyond what it ought to bear, compared with that of corn. He suspended the exercise of their privilege, but allowed them *the liberty of selling bread at any price they pleased*. The price soon fell, and the country communities, even from the distance of five leagues, brought bread to the town, made under the auspices of liberty, and consequently sold at a cheaper rate."

These principles were in the present instance acted upon only on a small scale. Soon after, M. Turgot found an opportunity of explaining to the minister of finance that they were equally applicable to the whole kingdom; but the time had not arrived for their force being readily seen by statesmen. His anxiety that every one should have the free use of his property, was soon after exercised with regard to the laws restricting interest on money. It was criminal at this time in France to take more than five per cent.; yet to give and take more was so unavoidable from the existing condition of things, that the law was generally in a state of dormancy. It was nevertheless occasionally called into activity at the instigation of debtors; the consequence of which was, that, being exposed to this additional danger, money-lenders heightened, instead of diminishing, the rate of interest. Nor was this all. A single prosecution by a fraudulent debtor was sufficient, by the terror it created, to suspend the commerce of a whole town, or even a province. In 1770, some bankrupts at Angoulême, in order to escape a just condemnation, formed a plan of charging their creditors with the crime of usury; a number of debtors, of no better principles, followed the example, and threatened to inform against their creditors, if they did not remit their demand of interest, and even in some cases a part of the principal. The mercantile affairs of the province were consequently thrown into a state of complete disorder; its trade seemed at a stand-still; the alarm reached other parts of the kingdom; and the king's ministry were obliged to consult the intendant of the province where it began. Turgot returned to them a report, which his biographer describes as "a complete treatise on loans." "The liberty of making loans upon what terms men please, is a natural consequence of the establishment of property; and a very moderate share of understanding is sufficient to discover, that though the lender may, by exacting too rigorous conditions, show himself to be wanting in humanity, yet he cannot be guilty of a violation either of law or justice, by exercising his natural right of disposing of his own property upon what terms he pleases. But although the question of right in this business is so exceedingly simple, the paper of M. Turgot is only on that account the more calculated to display his genius and his character. He did not think he could degrade himself by combating seriously opinions the most absurd, when he considered them as dangerous. * * He presents us in this treatise with an idea equally perspicuous and novel, respecting legal interest, which is not and cannot be any thing else than *the average price of interest calculated, like that of any common commodity, upon actual observation*. The business of law, therefore, is the same in both cases; that is, to fix a price only where it has not been and could not be fixed by particular contracts."

M. Turgot held his intendantcy for thirteen years, during which, notwithstanding the great attention he paid to the duties of his office, and the efforts he made to introduce beneficial reforms, he never resigned his early habits of study. Towards the end of this period he composed a work on the "Formation of Wealth"—usually considered as the germ of Dr Smith's celebrated treatise on the Wealth of Nations—and also one upon Mines and Quarries, both being remarkable for the clearness with which the matters concerned are brought into relation to a few simple principles. The time was now arrived when Turgot was to bring his enlightened views into a wider field of operation. But our present paper is already of sufficient length, and the future history of this illustrious person must be reserved for another, which will speedily appear.

THE ABENCERRAGE,

A SPANISH TALE, BY WASHINGTON IRVING.

[From the Knickerbocker for June 1839.]

On the summit of a craggy hill, a spur of the mountains of Ronda, stands the castle of Allora, now a mere ruin, infested by bats and owlets, but in old times one of the strong border holds of the Christians, to keep watch upon the frontiers of the warlike kingdom of Granada, and to hold the Moors in check. It was a post always confided to some well-tried commander; and, at the time of which we treat, was held by Rodrigo de Narvaez, a veteran, famed, both among Moors and Christians, not only for his hardy feats of arms, but also for that magnanimous courtesy which should ever be entwined with the sterner virtues of the soldier.

The castle of Allora was a mere part of his command; he was Alcayde, or military governor, of Antiquera, but he passed most of his time at this frontier post, because its situation on the borders gave more frequent opportunity for those adventurous exploits which were the delight of the Spanish chivalry. His garrison consisted of fifty chosen cavaliers, all well mounted and well appointed: with these he kept vigilant watch upon the Moslems; patrolling the roads, and paths, and defiles, of the mountains, so that nothing could escape his eye; and now and then signalising himself by some dashing foray into the very Vega of Granada.

On a fair and beautiful night in summer, when the freshness of the evening breeze had tempered the heat of day, the worthy Alcayde sallied forth, with nine of his cavaliers, to patrol the neighbourhood, and seek adventures. They rode quietly and cautiously, lest they should be overheard by Moorish scout or traveller; and kept along ravines and hollow ways, lest they should be betrayed by the glittering of the full moon upon their armour. Coming to where the road divided, the Alcayde directed five of his cavaliers to take one of the branches, while he, with the remaining four, would take the other. Should either party be in danger, the blast of a horn was to be the signal to bring their comrades to their aid.

The party of five had not proceeded far, when, in passing through a defile overhung with trees, they heard the voice of a man singing. They immediately concealed themselves in a grove, on the brow of a declivity, up which the stranger would have to ascend. The moonlight, which left the grove in deep shadow, lit up the whole person of the wayfarer as he advanced, and enabled them to distinguish his dress and appearance with perfect accuracy. He was a Moorish cavalier, and his noble demeanour, graceful carriage, and splendid attire, showed him to be of lofty rank. He was superbly mounted on a dapple-grey steed, of powerful frame and generous spirit, and magnificently caparisoned. His dress was a marlota or tunic, and an Albernoz of crimson damask, fringed with gold. His Tunisian turban, of many folds, was of silk and cotton striped, and bordered with golden fringe. At his girdle hung a scimitar of Damascus steel, with loops and tassels of silk and gold. On his left arm he bore an ample target, and his right hand grasped a long double-pointed lance. Thus equipped, he sat negligently on his steed, as one who dreamed of no danger, gazing on the moon, and singing, with a sweet and manly voice, a Moorish love ditty.

Just opposite the place where the Spanish cavaliers were concealed, was a small fountain in the rock, beside the road, to which the horse turned to drink; the rider throwing the reins on his neck, continued his song.

The Spanish cavaliers conferred together; they were all so pleased with the gallant and gentle appearance of the Moor, that they resolved not to harm, but to capture him, which, in his negligent mood, promised to be an easy task; rushing, therefore, from their concealment, they thought to surround and seize him. Never were men more mistaken. To gather up his reins, wheel round his steed, brace his buckler, and couch his lance, was the work of an instant, and there he sat, fixed like a castle in his saddle, beside the fountain.

The Christian cavaliers checked their steeds, and reconnoitred him warily, loth to come to an encounter, which must end in his destruction.

The Moor now held a parley: "If you be true knights," said he, "and seek for honourable fame, come on, singly, and I am ready to meet each in succession; but if you be mere lurkers of the road, intent on spoil, come all at once, and do your worst!"

The cavaliers communed for a moment apart, when one, advancing singly, exclaimed: "Although no law of chivalry obliges us to risk the loss of a prize, when clearly in our power, yet we willingly grant, as a courtesy, what we might refuse as a right. Valiant Moor! defend thyself!"

So saying, he wheeled, took proper distance, couched his lance, and putting spurs to his horse, made at the stranger. The latter met him in mid career, transpierced him with his lance, and threw him headlong from his saddle. A second and a third succeeded, but were unhorsed with equal facility, and thrown to the earth, severely wounded. The remaining two, seeing their comrades thus roughly treated, forgot all compact of courtesy, and charged both at once upon the Moor. He parried the thrust of one, but was wounded by the other in the thigh, and, in the shock and confusion, dropped his lance. Thus disarmed, and closely pressed, he pretended to fly, and was hotly pursued. Having drawn the two cavaliers some distance from the spot, he suddenly wheeled short about, with one of those dexterous movements for which the Moorish horsemen were renowned; passed swiftly between them, swung himself down from his saddle, so as to catch up his lance, then, lightly replacing himself, turned to renew the combat.

Seeing him thus fresh for the encounter, as if just issued from his tent, one of the cavaliers put his lips to his horn, and blew a blast, that soon brought the Alcayde and his four companions to the spot.

The valiant Narvaez, seeing three of his cavaliers extended on the earth, and two others hotly engaged with the Moor, was struck with admiration, and coveted a contest with so accomplished a warrior. Interfering in the fight, he called upon his followers to desist, and addressing the Moor, with courteous words invited him to a more equal combat. The latter readily accepted the challenge. For some time their contest was fierce and doubtful, and the Alcayde had need of all his skill and strength to ward off the blows of his antagonist. The Moor, however, was exhausted by previous fighting, and by loss of blood. He no longer sat his horse firmly, nor managed him with his wonted skill. Collecting all his strength for a last assault, he rose in his stirrups, and made a violent thrust with his lance; the Alcayde received it upon his shield, and at the same time wounded the Moor in the right arm; then closing, in the shock he grasped him in his arms, dragged him from his saddle, and fell with him to the earth: when putting his knee upon his breast, and his dagger to his throat, "Cavalier," exclaimed he, "render thyself my prisoner, for thy life is in my hands!"

"Kill me, rather," replied the Moor, "for death would be less grievous than loss of liberty."

The Alcayde, however, with the clemency of the truly brave, assisted the Moor to rise, ministered to his wounds with his own hands, and had him conveyed with great care to the castle of Allora. His wounds were slight, and in a few days were nearly cured; but the deepest wound had been inflicted on his spirit. He was constantly buried in a profound melancholy.

The Alcayde, who had conceived a great regard for him, treated him more as a friend than a captive, and tried in every way to cheer him, but in vain; he was always sad and moody, and, when on the battlements of the castle, would keep his eyes turned to the south, with a fixed and wistful gaze.

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"How is this," exclaimed the Alcayde, reproachfully, "that you, who were so hardy and fearless in the field, should lose all spirit in prison? If any secret grief preys on your heart, confide it to me, as to a friend, and I promise you, on the faith of a cavalier, that you shall have no cause to repent the disclosure."

The Moorish knight kissed the hand of the Alcayde. "Noble cavalier," said he, "that I am cast down in spirit, is not from my wounds, which are slight, nor from my captivity, for your kindness has robbed it of all gloom; nor from my defeat, for to be conquered by so accomplished and renowned a cavalier, is no disgrace. But to explain to you the cause of my grief, it is necessary to give you some particulars of my story; and this I am moved to do, by the great sympathy you have manifested towards me, and the magnanimity that shines through all your actions.

Know, then, that my name is Abendaraez, and that I am of the noble but unfortunate line of the Abencerrages of Granada. You have doubtless heard of the destruction that fell upon our race. Charged with treasonable designs, of which they were entirely innocent, many of them were beheaded, the rest banished; so that not an Abencerrage was permitted to remain in Granada, excepting my father and my uncle, whose innocence was proved, even to the satisfaction of their persecutors. It was decreed, however, that, should they have children, the sons should be educated at a distance from Granada, and the daughters should be married out of the kingdom.

Conformably to this decree, I was sent, while yet an infant, to be reared in the fortress of Cartama, the worthy Alcayde of which was an ancient friend of my father. He had no children, and received me into his family as his own child, treating me with the kindness and affection of a father; and I grew up in the belief that he really was such. A few years afterwards, his wife gave birth to a daughter, but his tenderness towards me continued undiminished. I thus grew up with Xarisa, for so the infant daughter of the Alcayde was called, as her own brother, and thought the growing passion which I felt for her was mere fraternal affection. I beheld her charms unfolding, as it were, leaf by leaf, like the morning rose, each moment disclosing fresh beauty and sweetness.

At this period I overheard a conversation between the Alcayde and his confidential domestic, and found myself to be the subject. 'It is time,' said he, 'to apprise him of his parentage, that he may adopt a career in life. I have deferred the communication as long as possible, through reluctance to inform him that he is of a proscribed and an unlucky race.'

This intelligence would have overwhelmed me at an earlier period, but the intimation that Xarisa was not my sister, operated like magic, and in an instant transformed my brotherly affection into ardent love.

I sought Xarisa, to impart to her the secret I had learned. I found her in the garden, in a bower of jessamines, arranging her beautiful hair by the mirror of a crystal fountain. The radiance of her beauty dazzled me. I ran to her with open arms, and she received me with a sister's embraces. When we had seated ourselves beside the fountain, she began to upbraid me for leaving her so long alone.

In reply, I informed her of the conversation I had overheard. The recital shocked and distressed her. 'Alas!' cried she, 'then is our happiness at an end!'

'How!' exclaimed I; 'wilt thou cease to love me, because I am not thy brother?' 'Not so,' replied she; 'but do you not know that when it is once known we are not brother and sister, we can no longer be permitted to be thus always together!'

In fact, from that moment our intercourse took a new character. We met often at the fountain among the jessamines, but Xarisa no longer advanced with open arms to meet me. She became reserved and silent, and would blush, and cast down her eyes, when I seated myself beside her. My heart became a prey to the thousand doubts and fears that ever attend upon true love. I was restless and uneasy, and looked back with regret to the unreserved intercourse that had existed between us, when we supposed ourselves brother and sister; yet I would not have had the relationship true for the world.

While matters were in this state between us, an order came from the king of Granada for the Alcayde to take command of the fortress of Coyn, which lies directly on the Christian frontier. He prepared to remove, with all his family, but signified that I should remain at Cartama. I exclaimed against the separation, and declared that I could not be parted from Xarisa. 'That is the very cause,' said he, 'why I leave thee behind. It is time, Abendaraez, that thou shouldst know the secret of thy birth; that thou art no son of mine, neither is Xarisa thy sister.' 'I know it all,' exclaimed I, 'and I love her with tenfold the affection of a brother. You have brought us up together; you have made us necessary to each other's happiness; our hearts have entwined themselves with our growth; do not now tear them asunder. Fill up the measure of your kindness; be indeed a father to me, by giving me Xarisa for my wife.'

The brow of the Alcayde darkened as I spoke. 'Have I then been deceived?' said he. 'Have those nurtured in my very bosom, been conspiring against me? Is this your return for my paternal tenderness!—to beguile the affections of my child, and teach her to deceive her father? It was cause enough to refuse thee the hand of my daughter, that thou wert of a proscribed race, who can never approach the walls of Granada; this, however, I might have passed over; but never will I give my daughter to a man who has endeavoured to win her from me by deception.'

All my attempts to vindicate myself and Xarisa were unavailing. I retired in anguish from his presence, and seeking Xarisa, told her of this blow, which was worse than death to me. 'Xarisa,' said I, 'we part for ever! I shall never see thee more! Thy father will guard thee rigidly. Thy beauty and his wealth will soon attract some happier rival, and I shall be forgotten!'

Xarisa reproached me with my want of faith, and promised me eternal constancy. I still doubted and desponded, until, moved by my anguish and despair, she agreed to a secret union. Our espousals made, we parted, with a promise on her part to send me word from Coyn, should her father absent himself from the fortress. The very day after our secret nuptials, I beheld the whole train of the Alcayde depart from Cartama, nor would he admit me to his presence, or permit me to bid farewell to Xarisa. I remained at Cartama, somewhat pacified in spirit by this secret bond of union; but every thing around me fed my passion, and reminded me of Xarisa. I saw the windows at which I had so often beheld her. I wandered through the apartment she had inhabited, the chamber in which she had slept. I visited the bower of jessamines, and lingered beside the fountain in which she had delighted. Every thing recalled her to my imagination, and filled my heart with tender melancholy.

At length a confidential servant brought me word that her father was to depart that day for Granada, on a short absence, inviting me to hasten to Coyn, describing a secret portal at which I should apply, and the signal by which I would obtain admittance.

If ever you have loved, most valiant Alcayde, you may judge of the transport of my bosom. That very night I arrayed myself in my most gallant attire, to pay due honour to my bride; and arming myself against any casual attack, issued forth privately from Cartama. You know the rest, and by what sad fortune of war I found myself, instead of a happy bridegroom, in the nuptial bower of Coyn, vanquished, wounded, and a prisoner within the walls of Allora. The term of absence of the father of Xarisa is nearly expired. Within three days he will return to Coyn, and our meeting will no longer be possible. Judge, then, whether I grieve without cause, and whether I may not well be excused for showing impatience under confinement."

Don Rodrigo de Narvaez was greatly moved by this recital; for, though more used to rugged war than scenes of amorous softness, he was of a kind and generous nature.

"Abendaraez," said he, "I did not seek thy confidence to gratify an idle curiosity. It grieves me much that the good fortune which delivered thee into my hands should have marred so fair an enterprise. Give me thy faith, as a true knight, to return prisoner to my castle within three days, and I will grant thee permission to accomplish thy nuptials."

The Abencerrage would have thrown himself at his feet to pour out protestations of eternal gratitude, but the Alcayde prevented him. Calling in his cavaliers, he took the Abencerrage by the right hand in their presence, exclaiming solemnly, "You promise, on the faith of a cavalier, to return to my castle of Allora within three days, and render yourself my prisoner?" and the Abencerrage said, "I promise."

"Then," said the Alcayde, "go! and may good fortune attend you. If you require any safeguard, I and my cavaliers are ready to be your companions."

The Abencerrage kissed the hand of the Alcayde in grateful acknowledgment. "Give me," said he, "my own armour and my steed, and I require no guard. It is not likely that I shall again meet with so valorous a foe."

The shades of night had fallen when the tramp of the dapple-grey steed resounded over the drawbridge, and immediately afterwards the light clatter of hoofs along the road bespoke the fleetness with which the youthful lover hastened to his bride. It was deep night when the Moor arrived at the castle of Coyn. He silently and cautiously walked his panting steed under its dark walls, and having nearly passed round them, came to the portal denoted by Xarisa. He paused, and looked round to see that he was not observed, and then knocked three times with the butt of his lance. In a little while the portal was timidly unclosed by the duenna of Xarisa. "Alas! senor," said she, "what has detained you thus long? Every night have I watched for you; and my lady is sick at heart with doubt and anxiety."

The Abencerrage hung his lance and shield and scimitar against the wall, and then followed the duenna, with silent steps, up a winding staircase, to the apartment of Xarisa. Vain would be the attempt to describe the raptures of that meeting. Time flew too swiftly, and the Abencerrage had nearly forgotten, until too late, his promise to return a prisoner to the Alcayde of Allora. The recollection of it came to him with a pang, and suddenly awoke him from his dream of bliss. Xarisa saw his altered looks, and heard with alarm his stifled sighs; but her countenance brightened when she heard the cause. "Let not thy spirit be cast down," said she, throwing her white arms around him; "I have the keys of my father's treasures; send ransom more than enough to satisfy the Christian, and remain with me."

"No," said Abendaraez; "I have given my word to return in person, and, like a true knight, must fulfil my promise. After that, fortune must do with me as it pleases."

"Then," said Xarisa, "I will accompany thee. Never shall you return a prisoner, and I remain at liberty."

The Abencerrage was transported with joy at this new proof of devotion in his beautiful bride. All preparations were speedily made for their departure. Xarisa mounted behind the Moor, on his powerful steed; they left the castle walls before daybreak, nor did they pause until they arrived at the gate of the castle of Allora, which was flung wide to receive them.

Alighting in the court, the Abencerrage supported the steps of his trembling bride, who remained closely veiled, into the presence of Rodrigo de Narvaez. "Behold, valiant Alcayde!" said he, "the way in which an Abencerrage keeps his word. I promised to return to thee a prisoner, but I deliver two captives into your power. Behold Xarisa, and judge whether I grieved without reason over the loss of such a treasure. Receive us as your own, for I confide my life and her honour to your hands."

The Alcayde was lost in admiration of the beauty of the lady, and the noble spirit of the Moor. "I know not," said he, "which of you surpasses the other; but I know that my castle is graced and honoured by your presence. Enter into it, and consider it your own, while you deign to reside with me."

For several days the lovers remained at Allora, happy in each other's love, and in the friendship of the brave Alcayde. The latter wrote a letter, full of courtesy, to the Moorish king of Granada, relating the whole event, extolling the valour and good faith of the Abencerrage, and craving for him the royal countenance.

The king was moved by the story, and was pleased with an opportunity of shewing attention to the wishes of a gallant and chivalrous enemy; for though he had often suffered from the prowess of Don Rodrigo de Narvaez, he admired the heroic character he had gained throughout the land. Calling the Alcayde of Coyn into his presence, he gave him the letter to read. The Alcayde turned pale, and trembled with rage on the perusal. "Restrain thine anger," said the king; "there is nothing that the Alcayde of Allora could ask, that I would not grant, if in my power. Go thou to Allora; pardon thy children; take them to thy home. I receive this Abencerrage into my favour, and it will be my delight to heap benefits upon you all."

The kindling ire of the Alcayde was suddenly appeased. He hastened to Allora, and folded his children to his bosom, who would have fallen at his feet. The gallant Rodrigo de Narvaez gave liberty to his prisoner without ransom, demanding merely a promise of his friendship. He accompanied the youthful couple and their father to Coyn, where their nuptials were celebrated with great rejoicings. When the festivities were over, Don Rodrigo de Narvaez returned to his fortress of Allora.

After his departure, the Alcayde of Coyn addressed his children: "To your hands," said he, "I confide the disposition of my wealth. One of the first things I charge you, is not to forget the ransom you owe to the Alcayde of Allora. His magnanimity you can never repay, but you can prevent it from wronging him of his just dues. Give him, moreover, your entire friendship, for he merits it fully, though of a different faith."

The Abencerrage thanked him for his generous proposition, which so truly accorded with his own wishes. He took a large sum of gold, and enclosed it in a rich coffer; and on his own part sent six beautiful horses, superbly caparisoned, with six shields and lances, mounted and embossed with gold. The beautiful Xarisa, at the same time, wrote a letter to the Alcayde, filled with expressions of gratitude and friendship, and sent him a box of fragrant cypress wood, containing linen, of the finest quality, for his person. The valiant Alcayde disposed of the present in a characteristic manner. The horses and armour he shared among the cavaliers who had accompanied him on the night of the skirmish. The box of cypress wood and its contents he retained, for the sake of the beautiful Xarisa; and sent her, by the hands of the messenger, the sum of gold paid as a ransom, entreating her to receive it as a wedding present. This courtesy and magnanimity raised the character of the Alcayde Rodrigo de Narvaez still higher in the estimation of the Moors, who extolled him as a perfect mirror of chivalric virtue; and from that time forward there was a continual exchange of good offices between them.

GRAVE LITERATURE.

London, as is perhaps known to some of our readers, is now furnished with at least two extensive out-of-town cemeteries, one in the north and the other in the south-western part of the environs; they are the property of joint-stock companies, and should, we think, "if properly supported," relieve the metropolis of some part of that pressure of mortality which Mr Walker has lately been so pathetically bewailing. As mercantile concerns, these cemeteries are of course managed with that business-like nicety which governs all such things in the great city. They have each a handbill, in which all desirable particulars are given, both as to accommodation and pecuniary charges. The odd association of commercial and sepulchral ideas thus produced has given occasion to an amusing commentary on the bill of the "North London Kentish Town and Highgate Cemetery Company," in a late number of *The European*, a new weekly journal of British and Continental literature, which has already been quoted in these pages. The following is a part of this whimsical paper:—

'This singular piece of Cemeterial literature teems with passages of the most captivating kind. It tells us of "Public Vaults" where the "adult" dead may rest sociably and orientally ("in the Eastern") at an eternity price of six guineas, and centrally ("in the Centre") at that of ten; and the infant departed at the respective rates of five pounds twelve shillings and six pounds six: of "Terrace Catacombs," where "Private Vaults," capable of from one to one score coffined inhabitants, may be had, by family folk, at prices humble as fourteen, and ambitious as one hundred and ninety-nine pounds sterling: of "Cedar of Lebanon Circle Catacombs," and "Egyptian Avenue Catacombs," where "Private Tombs" are to be appropriated by those disposed to everlasting loneliness for the very moderate consideration, more or less, of a twenty-pound note: of the "Open Ground," where "Family Vaults," "Pecu

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liar Vaults," "Peculiar Brick Graves and Flat Stones," and "Private Graves, seven feet deep," in brickwork cemented, and brickwork mortared, are to be purchased at cash-prices of all sorts, according to length, breadth, depth, finish, and number: of "Common Interments," which the unambitious "adult" may enjoy for one pound five, and the adult in embryo for seventeen shillings! But beware of being "embowelled" in the "mother earth" of Highgate Cemetery "before three o'clock P.M.," or "after sunset;" it will cost you, else, an additional seven shillings and sixpence. Funeral officials are asleep, or busy, betimes in the morning, and after "sundown" they catch cold. If there be a keen north-easter astir, you may have the "use of a large Weather-Screen" for the small charge of half a sovereign and one sixpence. If you want "*extra Ground*," "beyond the size" of your vault or your grave, or are desirous of revelling in the "Privilege of placing a Head and Foot Stone to a Grave" (our quotations are exact—italics, capitals, and all!) you must see after the vampire "powers that be," and with them mutually sign, seal, and deliver, "*a Special Agreement*." In a line of very small letters you are told that

"Flat Stones are Better and Cheaper---"

and immediately after, in larger type, that for the "Privilege of putting a Flat Stone to a Grave" you must cash up seven shillings! If you desire to have a "Copper-cramp'd" Monumental Tablet stuck against the wall—mind, a *copper-cramped* one—it will cost you a dozen shillings "per foot:" you will, therefore, do well not to employ a *very* voluminous poet for your epitaph. There is the item—"Hanging the Chapel and Gallery with Black Cloth;" but no price is appended to it, which leaves it an *ad-libitum* affair with the Directors, and should be approached with caution by those dying in the pleasures of but a limited income. If you want your grave to be "maintained," you may have it fed at the rate of a three-and-six-penny expenditure "*per annum*," or for four guineas "in perpetuity;" but if you wish its food to be delicate and romantic—"flowers," in short—you will not be able to achieve the epicurianism under an additional four shillings yearly, or an extra three guineas on the "perpetuity" point. If you be of the profane, and prefer an "unconsecrated" ceremonial, "the Company" kindly pledge themselves to "provide" you with "a Dissenting Minister, if required." If you entertain any special craving, arising from some unaccountable idiosyncrasy, of eternally reposing in lead, a "Vault" or a "Catacomb" *must* be your place of permanent residence; because in "Common Graves" *Wooden* coffins "only are used"—an evidence of foresight most remarkable in men who are for ever witnessing the blank and black results of the past and the present. The "common graves" are designed for generation *upon* generation. Wood decays as kindly almost as the flesh of "us sinners." Lead is *quasi*-perdurable. The conclusion is self-evident. If you have any fear of being posthumously pilfered, the "Company" assures you that "armed retired soldiers, approved by the Horse-Guards (!) guard daily the Cemetery," and that at night you have the additional security of "Dogs"—of the identical breed, perhaps, which hunted down the rebel slaves of Jamaica, and of which the human sympathies must, consequently, be inherited, and to manhood most comfortable.

But it is not for the dead alone that the "Company" shows its concern. The living *pay* for the dead, and for themselves. To say nothing of the friendly information as to "distances," how to avoid "hills," and of the precise minutes at which "Kentish Town" and "Holloway" Omnibusses depart from the regions of life towards those of death, which the Directorial Circular contains, it tells us, in the divinest Christian spirit of a sympathising mortality, that "the use of a large secluded Room, opening into a Private Gallery of the Chapel during the Funeral Service," is "reserved for infirm Mourners and Invalids," who may feel "unequal to the fatigue and excitement of a long Funeral procession to the Cemetery;" or, "for Ladies or Friends wishing to attend the Funeral service only in the Chapel, without joining any procession"—and all this for the mere *masquerade*-price of a guinea! The sense of charity which this last-mentioned instance of the Company's benevolence fills us with, is overpowering. The "grave" is no longer "cruel;" seraphic clouds veil the "Skeleton;" the Sexton's spade becomes an enchanter's wand; and the coffin a roseate bower of poetic immortality!

We have done. The Highgate Cemetery and its "literature" have but made us more in love with the pleasant grave of the "Country Churchyard." Better, far better, to be warmly "tucked up" in the earth, with the sweet flowers and "the glory of the grass" springing and breathing incense, and the merry birds singing above us, than to be caged and denned in vaulted "catacombs"—dark, damp, and silent; where the voice and the smile of nature never comes, and nothing ever audibly or visibly speaks to us of life that dies not and joy which endures for ever.'

TRUE WISDOM.

Though sometimes small evils, like invisible insects, inflict pain, and a single hair may stop a vast machine, yet the chief secret of comfort lies in not suffering trifles to vex one, and in prudently cultivating an undergrowth of small pleasures, since very few great ones, alas! are let on long leases.—*Newspaper paragraph.*

LABOUR NOT HOSTILE TO MENTAL IMPROVEMENT.

Are labour and self-culture irreconcileable to each other? In the first place, we have seen that a man in the midst of labour may and ought to give himself to the most important improvements, that he may cultivate his sense of justice, his benevolence, and the desire of perfection. Toil is the school for these high principles; and we have here a strong presumption, that in other respects it does not necessarily blight the soul. Next, we have seen that the most fruitful sources of truth and wisdom are not books, precious as they are, but experience and observation; and these belong to all conditions. It is another important consideration, that almost all labour demands intellectual activity, and is best carried on by those who invigorate their minds; so that the two interests, toil and self-culture, are friends to each other. It is mind, after all, which does the work of the world; so that the more there is of mind, the more work will be accomplished. A man, in proportion as he is intelligent, makes a given force accomplish a greater task, makes skill take the place of muscles, and, with less labour, gives a better product. Make men intelligent, and they become inventive; they find shorter processes. Their knowledge of nature helps them to turn its laws to account, to understand the substances on which they work, and to seize on useful hints, which experience continually furnishes. It is among workmen that some of the most useful machines have been contrived. Spread education, and, as the history of this country shows, there will be no bounds to useful inventions.—*Dr Channing's Pamphlet on Self-Culture.*

LIEUTENANT LUFF.

All you that are too fond of wine,
Or any other stuff,
Take warning by the dismal fate
Of one Lieutenant Luff.
A sober man he might have been
Except in one regard—
He did not like *soft* water,
So he took to *drinking hard*.

Said he, let others fancy slops,
And talk in praise of tea,
But I am no *Bohemian*,
So do not like *Bohea*:
If wine's a poison, so is tea,
Though in another shape;
What matter whether one is killed
By *canister* or *grape*?

According to this kind of taste
Did he indulge his drouth,
And being fond of *port*, he made
A *port*-hole of his mouth!
A single pint he might have sipped,
And not been out of sorts;
In geologic phrase, the rock
He split upon was *quarts!*

To "hold the mirror up to vice"
With him was hard, alas!
The worse for wine he often was,
But not "before a glass!"
No kind and prudent friend he had
To bid him drink no more:
The only *chequers* in his course
Were at a tavern door!

Full soon the sad effects of this
His frame began to show,
For that old enemy the gout
Had taken him in *toe!*
And joined with this an evil came
Of quite another sort,
For while he drank, himself, his purse
Was getting "*something short.*"

For want of cash he soon had pawned
One-half that he possessed;
And drinking showed him *duplicates*
Beforehand of the rest.
So now his creditors resolved
To seize on his assets,
For why, they found that his *half-pay*
Did not *half pay* his debts.

But Luff contrived a novel mode
His creditors to chouse,
For his own *execution* he
Put into his own house!
A pistol, to the muzzle charged,
He took devoid of fear,
Said he, "This *barrel* is my last,
So now for my last *bier*."

Against his lungs he aimed the slugs,
And not against his brain;
So he blew out his *lights*, and none
Could blow them in again!
A jury for a verdict met,
And gave it in these terms:
"We find as how as certain *slugs*
Has sent him to the *worms*."

—*Hood's Comic Annual*, 1830.

PRIVATE FORTUNES OF SOME OF THE GREAT PERSONAGES OF ANCIENT TIMES.

Crœsus possessed in landed property a fortune equal to L.1,700,000, besides a large sum of money, slaves, and furniture, which amounted to an equal sum; he used to say, that a citizen who had not a fortune sufficient to support an army or a legion, did not deserve the title of a rich man. The philosopher Seneca had a fortune of L.2,500,000. Lentulus, the soothsayer, had L.3,500,000. Tiberius, at his death, left L.23,625,000, which Caligula spent in less than twelve months. Vespasian, on ascending the throne, estimated all the expenses of the state at L.3,500,000. The debts of Milon amounted to L.600,000. Cæsar, before he entered upon any office, owed L.2,995,000; he purchased the friendship of Curio for L.500,000, and that of Lucius Paulus for L.300,000. At the time of the assassination of Julius Cæsar, Anthony was in debt to the amount of L.300,000; he owed this sum in the Ides of March, and it was paid before the Kalends of April; he squandered L.147,000,000 of the public treasures. Appicus expended in debauchery L.500,000; and finding, on examination of the state of his affairs, that he had no more than L.80,000 left, he poisoned himself, because he considered that sum insufficient for his maintenance. Julius Cæsar gave Servilia, the mother of Brutus, a pearl of the value of L.40,000. Cleopatra, at an entertainment, gave to Anthony, dissolved in vinegar, who swallowed it, a pearl worth L.80,000. Claudius, the son of Esopus, the comedian, swallowed one worth L.8000. One single dish cost Esopus L.80,000. Caligula spent for one supper L.80,000, and Heliogabulus L.20,000. The usual cost of a repast for Lucullus was L.20,000. Misalla gave L.40,000 for the house of Anthony. The fish from Lucullus's fish ponds were sold for L.35,000. Scarus's country-house was destroyed by fire, and his loss was estimated at L.850,000. Otho, to finish a part of Nero's palace, spent L.487,500.—*Newspaper paragraph.*

AN INFORMER'S LETTER TO A FRIEND.

London, May —, 1835.—DEER TOM, This kums opin you are Well as it leaves Us at present. We are kum to town from a most delicious trip to Cheltenham: can't say much for the Waters, and the brandy hat the Hinn, the —— was not the best as you and me ave had on the coste of Sussecks. However, thank God! things is turned up well on the Ole; i did the post-shayse touch agin primely. We tooke babby with us to give things a colour, my missus looked as delikate as she coulde, and, as luck wolde ave it, babby warnt very well. The Landlord thoughte me hinnocent as Milke, and so missus and me and gal lived like fitin cocks, and evry day, the old oman and childe and gal goes out in a po-shayse for, as i sayde, a hairing. Well, the two fust days the landlord gives the poste ticket, and I begun to thinke him two downe for Cannibal; howsumever, as he founde out that the chay never went as far as the turnpick, and that missus and babby only wanted a short hairing, he drops the ticket, and then, "Now I has him," says I, "downe as a ammer!" How we did putt bye the Shampayne that day a dinner. Well, tom, so we lives for aboutt six weaks, and God be praist for it, the hair did us alle a morte o' good; but now the fun's cumin. Six Weaks bein gone, the landlord walkes up one day at breakfast, and says, rubbin his ands, hand smilin like a streete door nocker, "My little bill, Sir," says he, "if quite konwenient." "To be sure," says I, brakein a hegg and a winkin at him, "two be sure—the bill." "ear it is, Sir," says he. i looks at it, and it mayde my hart beet for joy, it was sich a long un. "Wery eye prices ear," says i, lookin at the bill. "it's a eye hinn," says the landlord, tryin to kum grand; wherehupon i gets up, and givein him a office look, i says, says i, "mr landlord, do you love your kuntrey?" "i hope i do," says he. "Then," says i, "if you ave the buzum of a Patryot, how dare you think to rob and swindle his most greyshus mageste, God bless him?" "what do you meene?" says the landlord, turnin pailer than his nekkloth—"what do you meene?" "where's them tickets, the po-chayse, the dooty, eh?" and i looks at him terrible. "it was alle a mistake, sir," says he—"can't help it," says i, "the Xize prospers on mistakes." "i trust, sir," says bonniface, "i'm dealin with a gen'l'man," and then he looks very dowtful. "you are," says i, "but the hinstytewshuns of the kuntrey must be supported: what's to be kum of the krown, and the establisht Church, and tryal by Joory, and *abeas korpuss*, if there's no patryotism—if men shirk the Xise?" then he begins to knowe his customer, and says, "well, sir, you wont be ard with me?" "God forbid," says i; "so i tell you what, old fellar, write me a receat for this sixty pound, and, to make it all smoth, and us over a bit o' rag for twenty, to take us to lundun to our peaceful home." oh! tom, you should ave seen how he jumpt! and swore so, missus and babbye was forced to leave the roome. "well," says i, at last, "it's no matter," and i makes a fumblin in my pocket as if i was goin to take out my pus, "you know the penaltys," says i—and they was swingein, for we had the po-chayse often three times a-day—"you know the penaltys?" i repeats, when he says nothin, but takin out his pocket-book, black in the face, raps me out a twenty, rites a receyte, abooses me when he's on the stayrcase for a willainly informer; when, not chusin to be insulted in our owne hinn, we packt up our trapps and started for towne. i made two pounds out of a farmer on the roade: i askt him for a lifte in his cart, made him tak a shillin, and then frightent him with information for carryin passengers in a untaxt weicle.—yours, deer tom, till deth, EBENEZER CANNIBAL.

P. S. Mugs, the landlord of the Feythers, rides rusty, and is slo with the hush-money; i'm told he hadde a dance and two fiddlers on Friday—and in Lent, two—in his backe parlour. This must be seed into.—*Heads of the People.*

GRAHAM OF CLAVERHOUSE.

This singular person united the seemingly inconsistent qualities of courage and cruelty, a disinterested and devoted loyalty to his prince, with a disregard of the rights of his fellow-subjects. He was the unscrupulous agent of the Scottish privy council in executing the merciless severities of the government in Scotland during the reigns of Charles II. and James II.; but he redeemed his character by the zeal with which he asserted the cause of the latter monarch after the revolution, the military skill with which he supported it at the battle of Killiecrankie, and by his own death in the arms of victory. It is said by tradition that he was very desirous to see, and be introduced to, a certain Lady Elphinstoun, who had reached the advanced age of one hundred years and upwards. The noble matron, being a staunch Whig, was rather unwilling to receive Claver'se (as he was called from his title), but at length consented. After the usual compliments, the officer observed to the lady, that having lived so much beyond the usual term of humanity, she must in her time have seen many strange changes. "Hout na, sir," said Lady Elphinstoun, "the world is just to end with me as it began. When I was entering life, there was ane Knox deaving us a' with his *clavers;* and now I am ganging out, there is ane Claver'se deaving us a' with his *knocks.*" *Clavers* signifying, in common parlance, idle chat, the double pun does credit to the ingenuity of a lady of a hundred years old.—*Waverley Novels, new edition.*

LONDON: Published, with permission of the proprietors, by W. S. ORR, Paternoster Row; and sold by all booksellers and newsmen.—Printed by Bradbury and Evans, Whitefriars.

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CHAMBERS' EDINBURGH JOURNAL

CONDUCTED BY WILLIAM AND ROBERT CHAMBERS, EDITORS OF "CHAMBERS'S INFORMATION FOR THE PEOPLE," "CHAMBERS'S EDUCATIONAL COURSE," &c.

PRINTED BY BRADBURY AND EVANS, WHITEFRIARS, LONDON.

NUMBER 416. SATURDAY, JANUARY 18, 1840. PRICE THREE HALFPENCE.

ENGLISH INGENUITY AND ENTERPRISE IN A NEW POINT OF VIEW.

WE have often thought that British ingenuity and British enterprise are in nothing shown more conspicuously than in the advertising columns of our newspapers, and the similar sheets slipped under the covers of our magazines and reviews. There, if you give any attention to the matter, you see various mechanists, traders, and others, incessantly lifting up their voices before a we-fear-far-too-negligent public, in the hope of making the said public acquainted, as far as can be done "within the limits of an advertisement," with scores of ingenious inventions for human comfort and convenience, for the supply of natural defects, and the cure of natural ailments, or, what is of not less consequence, with places where clothes and other necessaries of life can be purchased on terms so extremely economical, that it would appear as if the humblest person would henceforth be quite inexcusable in not living and dressing like a gentleman. There is an ingenuity in the preparation of many of the articles advertised, an ardour and pathos in the diction of many of the advertisements, and an untiring perseverance in the act of advertising itself, which in our opinion reflect a strong light on the character of *la nation boutiquiere*, or shop-keeping nation, as Bonaparte, by way of ridicule, but in reality in compliment, called us. Advertisers are in their way enthusiasts. They are generally men who have taken up a strong prepossession in behalf of something, with the virtues of which they are determined to make mankind acquainted. To this purpose they devote their whole being. No obstacles daunt them. Whether a column cost three guineas or three shillings, it matters not. The John o' Groat Journal is as sure of their custom as the Times and Chronicle. They also go forth into the highways to proclaim the truths which burden their minds. Mr Warren has preached the virtues of his blacking through all Christendom—nay, even proclaimed it on the exterior of the Great Pyramid! Such a man may be considered as a kind of Peter the Hermit. It is, indeed, the same truly English ardour of mind which fought at Cressy, Poitiers, and Agincourt—which sent out Raleigh and Drake as explorators of a new world—which ranked up the Long Parliament against the king, and drove James II. into ignominious banishment—which now fills every newspaper, puffs up the sides of every magazine and review, and gives speech to every dead wall throughout the country. Such are simply the new shapes into which the same mental characteristic has been thrown, in accordance with the new forms of society. Strange that the same thing should at one time make a man cover his head with an iron pot and his breast with an iron corslet, that he might go out to fight his neighbours, and at another only induce him, perhaps, to placard the head and front of some poor fellow with the virtues of his cutlery or his silver goods, and send him forth to parade the Strand as a sign to the people.

Another curious consideration arises from a survey of English advertisements. Many of them refer to matters of such nicety, both in themselves and in their application to human comfort and convenience, as to mark very strikingly the highly advanced state at which we are arrived.

With respect to the very act in which we are at this moment engaged, how many curious appliances are now at our command! There the Perryian metal pens, "protected by five patents"—first "the Patent Perryian Under Spring Pen," then "the Double-Patent Perryian Pen," the flexibility of which is "so absolutely natural" that its action "cannot be distinguished from that of the goose-quill," and which moreover "accommodates itself to writers of all descriptions, to those who write fine, as well as to those who write coarse [we think we know one or two who could defy it], to the smallest character of the current, as well as to the largest of the text hand." There is also the "Patent Perryian Flat Spring Pen," the "India Rubber Spring Pen," and the "Patent Three-Pointed Pen," as well as the Drawing and the Mapping Pens, with many others. Well may Mr Perry head his advertisements with "Important to all who write!" Nor is he the only ingenious mechanist who has devoted himself to facilitate the act of writing. There is Mr Mordan, with his steel pens, so improved as to 'remove the almost universal complaint, the uncertainty of depositing the ink in rapid writing, and the want of firmness and smoothness at the point." The same gentleman has invented an "oblique steel pen," that is to say, one with a slit directed slantingly, or "parallel to the usual slope of writing, whilst the point is preserved central to the holder;" the result of which is that the pen "may be used freely." We would humbly submit that this is an object not desirable, and that it would be a great obligation to mankind, if at least the editors of party newspapers were furnished with a pen which could not be used without some restraint. Mr Mordan advertises "Portable Leather Travelling Ink," an article of which we can form no definite idea. If he means an actual liquid for writing in which leather is an ingredient, and which is particularly calculated for use in travelling, we would say that the name is decidedly one of evil omen, and that the article ought to be avoided in particular by all authors of travelling journals who wish their works to keep clear of the trunk-makers. Of improved inks there is now, however, no lack, as witness the compositions of Morison and many others. One manufacturer of this article announces a kind prepared on a scientific principle of great plausibility. The basis, he says, is manganese, which, on oxidising by exposure, becomes a jet black—a great improvement certainly on the rusty colour which the iron of most inks produces on undergoing the same change.

For personal comfort and general convenience, the inventions of English tradesmen are infinite. Nothing is too minute for their attention, if it promise the slightest relief from uneasiness or inconvenience, or make any thing answer its end in the least more patly. It would be worth while, as an illustration of the inventiveness of the nation, to inquire of how many patents the cork-screw has been the subject. We well remember the Nonpareil, which reigned a long time, to the great contentment of old gentlemen to whom rising from their chairs after the second bottle of port was more of a duty than a pleasure; but at length there was an *Improved* Nonpareil, which we suppose continues to be infallible. Mr Mordan has applied his genius to the kindred subject of stoppers, and produced an article which makes all kinds of bottles perfectly air-tight, "with scarcely any additional expense on the usual charge." Not even the strongest volatiles escape Mordan's Improved Stopper. Some years ago, there was a serious litigation before one of the supreme English courts, respecting the infraction of a patent for the improvement of hair-brushes—the improvement consisting of an arrangement of the little bundles of bristles, by which each bundle terminated conically, so that the whole took a better hold of the hair when applied to it. A patent Pedometer is advertised frequently, being, we presume, merely a thing for taking measure of the foot. On the single subject of domestic comfort and security, the number of inventions is very great. For the warming of buildings we have many plans—one being described as "founded on certain principles of natural philosophy, now first discovered," and attended with great advantages "in regard to economy, diminution of danger of fire, convenience, cleanliness, and the preservation of health." Another is the "Chunk Patent Stove," in the shape of a small upright cylinder, which requires no attention of any kind for twenty-four hours, which will not set gunpowder on fire even though in contact with it, and "may stand on the most delicate carpet without injuring it." There is also Pearce's Economical Radiating Stove, which "retains the heat for many hours after the fire is out," and "may be executed in any style of architecture, Grecian, Elizabethan, Louis Quatorze, or Gothic." Lastly, there is Perkin's and Heath's plan by hot-water pipes. For securing doors, chests, drawers, and so forth, we have various clever inventions besides Bramah's Locks. Here Mr Mordan again comes forward. He offers us a lock of seven guards, the key of which can be varied infinitely, and cannot be imitated, and which defies all tampering with other keys. Mr Charles Chubb, of St Paul's Churchyard, holds out an "Improved Patent Detector Lock, for all kinds of doors, iron-safes, drawers, desks, jewel-cases, dispatch boxes, &c.," and, like the above, not to be picked. One gentleman is extremely pathetic on the subject of locks. "Look to your locks!" he first cries at the head of the placard, and then he proceeds to show what fatal effects often arise from the imperfection of these articles. Not only is money abstracted, but valuable documents are removed, erasures made, and the documents then replaced, the evil not being discovered till it is too late to repair it, by which a whole family is perhaps involved in ruin! He follows up the appeal with a selection of police cases, detailing the particulars of successful attacks on plate-chests and jewel-cases. With regard to the lighting of houses, ingenuity has not been so prolific of expedients. We have, however, Palmer and Company's Patent Candle Lamps and Patent Metallic Wick Candles, the first being remarkable as a neater, more economical, and less troublesome way of burning candles, than the ordinary plan, while the candles themselves are described as of superior manufacture. We must confess, however, that we read with scepticism of "Night-Lamps with *Self-Extinguishers*," and "candles which must never be snuffed, but the wicks placed apart from each other, and they will then *snuff themselves!*"

And yet these phenomena are not more wonderful than one which apparently attends Mr G. Minter's Easy Chair, for this, we are told, "will recline and elevate, *of itself*, into an innumerable variety of positions, without the least trouble or difficulty to the occupier; and there being no machinery, rack, catch, or spring, it is only for persons sitting in the chair to *wish* to recline or elevate themselves, *and the seat and back take any desired inclination*, without the least assistance or exertion whatever, owing to the weight on the seat acting as a counterbalance to the pressure against the back by the application of a *self-adjusting lererage*." One word we would here object to most particularly. Has the Frankenstein-like mechanist ever heard of one who was

> "Lulled on the rack of a too-easy chair?"

Surely if any chair ever had such a "rack" connected with it, it must be this piece of inspired upholstery. When we read of such wonderful conveniences, we almost fear that things are now-a-days made too nice

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for us. Life seems threatened with an utter deprivation of the element of discomfort, the consequence of which will probably be something quite as fatal as would be that of an abstraction of the carbonic acid gas from the atmosphere, or a restraining of hens from picking up gravel. There, for instance, are Hall and Co.'s "Leather Cloth Shoes and India-Rubber Goloshes for Tender Feet." We tremble at the idea of the luxurious ease they must afford. "The Pannus-Corium, or Leather Cloth Shoe, combines with the appearance of leather the greatest softness, ease, and elegance; is light, elastic, and durable, and *will never draw the feet.* [An important assurance this, for one might almost expect that such shoes would go of themselves, a peculiarity which could not fail often to lead their wearers into scrapes.] The Patent India-Rubber Golosh resembles the finest morocco, is lined with the softest materials, namely, velvet, kerseymere, or kid, and, whilst thoroughly waterproof, is so light, that, when worn over the Cloth Shoe, no sensible addition is felt to the weight, both articles being as light as an ordinary shoe." The luxury of these articles is, we would say, decidedly dangerous. People will forget that they have feet at all. Besides, the chiropodists, having a vested interest in the corns of mankind, will have good reason to consider themselves aggrieved. Franks and Co. are, in our opinion, not less to blame, for they hold out hats not more than three and a half ounces in weight, and "so porous and elastic as to admit of a free circulation of air, thereby preventing the headache or pain consequent on the wear of ordinary new hats." Wearing such articles, people will forget that they have heads, and what is then to become of them? We have the same fault to find with the ingenious men who address themselves to the beards of the Christian world. In this matter, formerly, we had a thing eminently calculated to sadden and subdue the human heart. A man rose in a cold morning to a bad razor and an acre-breadth of intractable brush-wood, and knew that he was mortal. But now Mr Packwood comes in with his razor-strop, and Mr Rigge of Cheapside with his "Magnetic Razor Tablet, termed the Double Action, combining, in its late improvements, the properties of both hone and strop," and lo this trouble is removed from before the face of man; he kicks up the heels of his mind, and in his joy becomes open to all those temptations which so peculiarly beset the heart which is free from care.

This leads us to reflect how far, now-a-days, even the defects and blemishes which befall the human person are compensated and removed by the ingenuity of tradesmen. Loss of teeth is now scarcely a misfortune. We have the Mineral Succedaneum, "so universally recommended by the faculty of London and Paris;" also the "Improved Terro-Metallic Teeth," covered with "an enamel formed of metallic oxides, of every shade of colour, so as to match exactly with the teeth remaining in the mouth." Loss of hair is of less importance than loss of teeth; but there are not less anxious efforts to prevent the calamity from occurring, and repairing it when it has occurred. "Thine incomparable oil, Macassar," is now rendered classic by Byron, who, however, made a strange mistake in his allusion to it, seeing that Macassar is not the name of the inventor or preparer, but that of a place, from which the oil takes its name. The noble poet's mistake is a sad proof of the inattention of the public to even the most frequently-repeated advertisements. The honours of the oil are in reality due to a gentleman who is perhaps the most persevering of all British advertisers, though doomed like Cassandra to have his advertisements but little regarded. The oil, we are told, "nourishes the hair—prevents it from falling off or turning grey—changes grey hair to its original colour—and produces and restores hair." In children (hear, ye mammas!) it "*lays the foundation* for a beautiful head of hair." There are several other preparations equally mirific held out to the grey and bald; but should any gentleman not chuse to become the subject of so strange a phenomenon, he may take up with the "Improved Peruke," the inventor of which justly remarks—"The great dislike to perukes in general arises from the altered air they give the countenance, occasioned by makers paying no regard to the manner of the natural hair growing on the forehead, which, being different in every different individual, requires a corresponding difference in the peruke." He adds, that, by his system, "the peruke is made to describe exactly the same angle on the forehead as the natural hair; and being completely carried off from the temples, defies the closest scrutiny of the most proficient connoisseur to distinguish it from a natural head of hair." This advertiser is also one of those who err on the side of making mankind rather too comfortable. He offers a spring for perukes "weighing only three drachms!" His perukes, thus furnished, would be found, he says, by captains of vessels and settlers in warm climates, "less objectionable than even the natural hair!" This is too much—it is almost, we fear, profane. To put nature into her best trim is allowable; but to propose altogether to supplant one of her works with something pretendedly superior, is a kind of treason against her. Our perruquier should have the fate of Prometheus before his eyes. Defective hearing is another thing which modern ingenuity has made less of a misfortune than it used to be. There is a little utensil called the "Voice-Conductor," which "enables deaf people to hear conversation," and "can be put on and off like a pair of spectacles." There is also "the Otaphone," "formed from a correct model of the back of the ear," and designed, "by fitting all the irregularities of that very uneven and elastic surface," to gently "press forward the parts, so as to produce a more perfect orbit and fuller recipient of sound." Is it sight which is defective? then spectacle-makers innumerable start up with their wares, some professing to have their glasses "ground on a particular principle," others pluming themselves on presenting "frames peculiarly adapted to the face of the wearer, so that the centre of each glass is brought exactly opposite the pupil of the eye—which is of great importance, although entirely neglected by many opticians." Then as to personal beauty, how many expedients are at command for ensuring it, from the Baron Dupuytren's Tamrukeyhu, which "removes from the *rete mucosum* of the skin (that tissue upon which its colour depends) all sallowness, wanness, and tan; causes a circulation of blood in the minute capillaries of the skin; and gives to the countenance, neck, and arms, a beautiful clearness, softness, and healthy aspect;" to the well-known Liquid Bloom of Roses, an extract from the flower whose name it bears, calculated "to remove the injuries sustained by the use of deleterious compositions, and replace beauty on its native throne, the countenance!" There are still, we believe, a good many plain people in the world; but there is no reason why there should be any such any longer. Ugliness has evidently been for some time past altogether inexcusable.

There is another thing which we have stated at the beginning of this paper to be inexcusable: that is, being ill dressed. How any man of the most ordinary means, or the simplest regard to decorum, can now allow himself to be shabby, is totally incomprehensible. Under the cover of every review and magazine which meets his eye, he sees announcements from clothing houses, of habits ultra-cheap, with portraitures of specimen gentlemen such as might rouse a stoic to a desire of being equally well fashioned. There is an old superstitious notion that good clothes are dear, under the influence of which many gentlemen continue to make the old serve far longer than they ought to do. If they were only to pay a proper attention to the advertisements in question, they would discover that the maxim is now quite obsolete. A full superfine suit, "of superior style of cut," can be obtained in one house for only L.4, 5s.; in another, a suit of "Extra Imperial Saxony, the best that is made," is held forth at L.4, 4s. Gentlemen may contract for three suits per annum, giving back each at the end of four months, for twelve pound six; or for five suits, giving back the used garments every ten weeks, at seventeen pound ten; and so on in proportion. Nor let the fear of unfitting suits harass the mind of the child of Adam. He can be measured by an instrument, "on principles mathematically certain." This instrument, "simply taking for its standard the figure it is applied to, ascertains the real proportions of it, and *is enabled to make such additions as are necessary for improvement*, without the danger of their becoming distortions—while the universally adopted systems measure only the lengths and circumference of the body, without reference to its shapes or positions, then draw their proportions from an ideal figure, and therefore inevitably fail to fit all whose symmetry is not in accordance with that standard." With so considerate an instrument for measuring, tailoring has certainly reached its acme. To add another word, of remark or advice, would only diminish the impression which must already have been made.

We had a number of other curious appliances to bring before the notice of our readers, but our limits are exhausted; and if these are ever to be commented upon, it must be on another occasion.

BIOGRAPHIC SKETCHES.

M. TURGOT.

Second Article.

WE are now to behold our philosophical statesman in a field truly worthy of his abilities. To quote the words of his biographer—"So many labours—a love of justice ever accompanied by compassionate goodness—a mind incapable of yielding to seduction or fear—and a zeal for the public good, as distinct from the love of fame, and from personal ambition, as human nature can permit—entitled M. Turgot not only to the blessings of the people of his province, but gained him general approbation; and at the death of Louis XV., the public voice called him to the first offices of the government, as a man who, to all the improvements that study could procure, united the experience which results from habits of business." At this time the finances of the state were in the utmost confusion: there were great resources, but no credit. These were the natural consequences of a long-enduring system of error and oppressive exaction. It was in consequence of a general wish for reforming measures, that M. Turgot was called forward from his province, and made minister of marine.

This office, for which he had no special qualifications, was exchanged after a single month for that of comptroller of finances, the most difficult at that time, but the one for which M. Turgot was best qualified. He entered upon this function, under a decided understanding with the king, that there should be no national bankruptcy, no increase of taxes, and no new loans; and he immediately proceeded to explain, that, to make these objects practicable, the only resource was a rigid economy in every department of the state, in connection with regulations for improving agriculture and facilitating commerce, and a more equitable distribution of the taxes. He at the same time informed his majesty, that he was quite aware of the difficulties of the task he had undertaken, from the interested views of many, the prejudices of others, and even from the people themselves, who might misinterpret the very measures adopted for their express benefit.

In France, legislation in matters of finance had long had but one principle, a desire of augmenting the revenues of the sovereign, without exciting clamours dangerous to the minister. The consequence was, that the regulations which were made, bore hard only on the people, and principally upon the country people, who, being always scattered, could neither force an audience nor inspire terror. Commerce had been constantly sacrificed to views of revenue, or to the interests of petty corporations and powerful individuals. The industry of the nation was fettered by vexatious regulations and the privileges of particular bodies. The work upon the high-roads by the system of *corvées*, twice a-year brought slavery, misery, and despair, to the rural labouring class. The internal navigation of the kingdom languished in the midst of a thousand vain projects. The incomes of the towns were spent in selfish luxury by the richer citizens. The produce of the national taxes, small as its amount necessarily was in such circumstances, was further diminished by the enormous expense of collection; and the finance minister had often been obliged to have recourse to compulsory loans, and to the accommodation of private bankers, who profited greatly by his embarrassments.

"It was out of this chaos," says our authority, "that a new administration was to be created, founded upon justice, and directed to the good of the people. A virtuous man dared to undertake the task; equally convinced that to exterminate the evil, it was necessary only to pursue the simplest principles (which he was astonished to find were little known), and feeling also in the goodness of his heart an energy which enabled him to set outward obstacles at defiance, though he disguised none of them to himself."

M. Turgot readily saw that it was not so much by reducing burdens, as by enabling the people to bear them better, that he could, in existing circumstances, hope to attain his end. "His first regulations gave freedom to the commerce of corn within the kingdom. The benefit which this law was calculated to produce was that of giving new life to agriculture, by the encouragement resulting from the proprietors being sure of disposing of its produce at their own discretion. It tended to augment at once the quantity of the necessaries of life, and the net produce of the land; to prepare for the people the resource of such a stock of corn as commerce might provide against unfavourable seasons and local scarcity; and to render wages at all times sufficient for the support of those who received them, by making less frequent and less considerable the variations in the price of corn: in fine, by the establishment of a constant and certain commerce, to place the landlord and farmer, the government and people, out of the reach of a real decline of necessaries, of vexatious and oppressive laws, and of disquiet and intestine troubles; the cruel and infallible result of every kind of prohibitory system."

The freedom given by M. Turgot did not extend to the exportation of corn, for, strange to say,

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this was the subject of a strong prejudice among the French of that age, as it was amongst the English at a somewhat earlier period; and he moreover calculated, that, till internal commerce was on a right footing, that which was external could not be greatly improved, and was therefore the less to be regarded. He spared, however, no local restrictions. "The exclusive privileges of bakers, the assize of bread, the obligation to grind corn at particular mills, and the several market-dues upon corn when sold, were so many fetters which it was necessary to break. They were all abolished during the administration of M. Turgot, except indeed the manorial privileges as to mills, which he suffered still to subsist; because he was unwilling either to take away without compensation a claim founded on prescription, and sometimes even on a voluntary compact, or to make the nation purchase, at too high a price, rights which would never have been valuable, if fraud supported by power had not made them so." He also suspended the tolls exacted by corporations and individuals at markets, with the design of buying them up, for, though he looked on these not as property, but unrighteous privileges, which, having been given by the state, could be withdrawn by it, yet he was disposed to compensate the holders, from the consideration that they had in many cases been purchased as property. He at the same time afforded to the commerce in wine as entire a liberty as the defective mode of collecting the tax upon it would allow. He was to have given the same freedom to brandy, and to have abolished the regulations preventing that liquor from being distilled from the husk of the grape, and cider and perry from being sold out of the province where they were manufactured; but these improvements he did not succeed in effecting.

The direct advantage of all these proceedings was confined to such as had property to dispose of. He now addressed himself to a great measure for the direct benefit of the people. The regulations as to the making of roads which he had formerly introduced into his particular province, he now extended over the kingdom. The labouring class, who had formerly been compelled to make them without nominal remuneration, but who in reality became a burden upon the farmers, were now paid from a tax on land, which the landholders generally submitted to without impatience, reflecting that their lands must now bring higher rent, since the burden of supporting the labourers was taken off the shoulders of the farmers. Our minister was obliged, however, to exempt from this tax the lands belonging to the clergy, which at this time were a sixth part of the whole of the lands in France. By the new regulation, it was provided that land required for roads should be paid out of the fund raised by the tax, instead of being, as formerly, taken without remuneration.

M. Turgot now turned his attention to the industrious classes living in towns. Here, none "who had not been able to comply with certain formalities, frequently absurd, and always expensive, by which the title of *Masters* in the companies of tradesmen or artisans is acquired, were allowed to employ their strength and abilities as they pleased. These masters formed a little republic, the leaders of which, under the pretence of a police, had carried to a height that it would have been difficult to have foreseen, the art of rendering still more grievous the chains of the unhappy workmen, of loading the communities with useless expense, and of rendering even the rank of masters insupportable to those who had nothing but their industry to depend upon." When M. Turgot abolished this odious and ridiculous slavery, "the inhabitant of the towns at length found himself at liberty to use his limbs and his labour as he pleased; a right which at this time was enjoyed in no other country of Europe. * * This right, which is one of the first that nature has given us, and which may be considered as a necessary consequence of that of existing, seemed to have been effaced from the recollection and the hearts of men." From the unlimited freedom now given to artisans of all kinds, "there resulted a reduction in the price of bread, meat, and every kind of necessary, as well as of the productions of art: moreover, the practice of fixing the price of the necessaries of life disappeared with the exclusive privilege of vending them, which furnished the only specious pretext for the practice. M. Turgot, by means of a compensation, suppressed a multitude of petty offices, the very names of which were ridiculous and absurd, but which enjoyed privileges oppressive to the people. * * The manufactures of France were also rescued from the tyranny which Colbert* imposed upon them when he prescribed by law the size of different stuffs, and the modes of weaving and dyeing them, under pain of confiscation, penalties, and even corporeal punishments. Such regulations could only have been dictated to this minister by ignorant manufacturers, who considered their ingenuity and practice as the boundaries of the progress of the arts, and imagined that they could subject the necessities and the taste of all future ages to the fashion of their own. Some of these directions had even the inconvenience of being physically impracticable; though there was not on that account the less rigour in the punishments imposed. Finally, this edict of M. Turgot permitted industry, which had hitherto been almost wholly shut up in towns, or obliged to pay a tribute to their inhabitants, to establish itself at pleasure in the country, and to fix upon those places where the low price of subsistence, or the facility of procuring the materials, seemed to have marked out for its true residence.

* Finance minister of Louis XIV.

These general laws were accompanied with some particular ones, which had the same object. A law made under the pretext of the public good, compelled the butchers of Paris to borrow of a particular fund even money that they did not want, and the interest required for it was very exorbitant. Another law, still under the same pretext, which has been so much abused, and whose real object was the advantage of certain individuals, deprived the butchers of the free disposal of their tallow. They were delivered from these fetters, which forced them to sell dear; and at the same time the people were relieved from all the little exactions, of which the regulations put upon the butchers rendered them the victims, and obtained by the introduction of liberty and rivalship the advantage of having meat of a middling but wholesome quality, at a price proportioned to their ability.

Another law had given the Hôtel Dieu or Hospital of Paris the exclusive privilege of selling meat during Lent, that is, during an eighth part of the year. The people, unable to live upon fish on account of the duties that enhanced the price, were, for a similar reason, deprived of flesh provisions, and condemned to feed on unwholesome and disgusting food. M. Turgot abolished this privilege of the Hôtel Dieu, and substituted in its place a tax more than its equivalent. Thus he saved to the people the expense of an ill-administered regulation, at the same time that he encouraged the fisheries by suppressing the duties upon salt fish, and half of the duties upon fresh sea-fish; and introduced cheapness and abundance into the capital."

M. Turgot abolished the military *corvées*, a system by which individuals residing near roads were obliged to support the troops on their marches, and substituted a general tax for the same object. The tax called the *taille*, levied from the working-classes, was collected under favour of a peculiar arrangement. The collector for each little district, himself a compulsory agent, had a right to call upon the four persons of the district whose proportion of the tax was the greatest, to pay up all deficiencies. This oppressive regulation was now abolished. "The proprietors of woods in one of the districts of Franche Compté were subjected to a singular kind of slavery. They were not only obliged to supply the manufacturers of saltpetre with all the wood they wanted at a low price, but they were also prohibited from selling their wood to any persons except the farmers-general* for the use of the salt-works. This oppression had subsisted a long time, and individuals as well as communities had been prosecuted for having violated one or other of these laws, which could not both be obeyed at the same time. The first was abolished by an operation in the farm of gunpowder; and M. Turgot destroyed the privilege of the farmers-general by removing their manufactures into the midst of a forest belonging to the king, to which the waters of the salt-mines were conducted by a new canal."

Turgot increased the number of ports which were allowed to trade directly to the West India islands. He allowed a free vent to the oil of poppies, which had hitherto been forbidden, though it was sold under a different name. The glass-manufactories of Normandy had hitherto been under an obligation to furnish at a low price a certain quantity of glass to the towns of Paris and Rouen: they had thus no incentive to improve the article, but were on the contrary kept down at a certain point of mediocrity, in order to comply without injury with the regulation imposed upon them. This regulation was now abolished.

Of the many other lesser reforms of M. Turgot, we only can notice a few. He introduced new regulations respecting waste lands, for the protection of the people from the proprietors of tithes. He set apart a fund for the construction of canals, and commissioned three eminent geometricians to aid him in giving directions for such works. The public conveyances for passengers and parcels throughout the kingdom he put upon a new footing, in which they were comparatively subjects of fair competition. He did much to encourage the arts and sciences; but it was generally by the purchase of the things invented or made, which, being distributed judiciously by the government, proved of service to others. "He had formed a plan of substituting one direct tax, instead of that multiplicity of indirect taxes of every kind which are the scourge of industry and of commerce, and the prime source of the misery and poverty of the people;" but he was able to go but a little way in realising the scheme. The privilege of making powder, and the sale of saltpetre, had been leased to a company. The profits arising to government were reduced almost to nothing, in consequence of the many petty concessions exacted upon different pretexts. The farmers of the manufacture had many rights—for instance, that of taking wood wherever they chose at a low price. This was intended to encourage the making of powder in the country. In reality, it had the contrary effect. The farmers were more anxious to make money by what they wrung from land-proprietors, as bribes to induce them to spare their timber, than by furnishing the public with a good article. M. Turgot abolished the monopoly, and the instant effect was an increase in the manufacture to so great an extent, that the tax on the article produced a million livres more than formerly. Heretofore, in all disputes between the administration and the payers of taxes, it was an understood matter that the revenue was to have the benefit of every doubt. Accordingly, no one who felt himself aggrieved had the least chance of redress, without incurring more expense than the money in dispute amounted to. M. Turgot exactly reversed this cruel practice, and also favoured the private party in all cases where he had general and public laws on his side, and was only opposed by secret and surreptitious ones. The payment of pensions had been stopped for three years: M. Turgot now paid an arrear of two years on such as did not exceed four hundred livres (L.16, 13s. 4d.), that is, upon all those which, furnishing mere subsistence, had been given as a just reward, or at least as real charity. The payment of the others he accelerated as much as possible. The other and more important obligations of the state were also attended to; the revenue was increased; and so much was the national credit restored, that the stocks rose to par, and the minister was offered a loan in Holland of sixty millions, at the unprecedentedly low rate of something less than five per cent.

* Persons who at that period managed departments of revenue, on an agreement to pay a certain fixed annual amount, beyond which all was profit to themselves, or remuneration for management. Farm is properly a thing taken on lease, though now with us exclusively applied to a leased piece of ground.

All these reforms were the work of twenty months, during which Turgot had two severe attacks of gout, a disease hereditary in his family, and which usually cut off its members at a premature age. It cannot be matter of wonder that proceedings affecting the interests of many individuals in what they thought an unfavourable manner, raised up a large party against the philosophical minister. The season having been bad, these persons were enabled to make a great impression by their publications on the minds of the common people both in the capital and in the rural districts. They described M. Turgot and his friends as men employed in wild systems, who wished to govern from the recesses of the closet upon speculative principles, and who sacrificed the people to the experiments which they were desirous of making to ascertain the truth of their system. A great and dangerous riot took place in consequence, and was not put down without the employment of very vigorous measures.

This virtuous man had managed the immediate affairs of his office with great self-denial and the strictest regard to economy, and at the same time to justice. He diminished its appointments one-fourth, and asked nothing for himself. Pensions upon places were strictly prohibited. Many gifts extorted from the towns were restored. The deputies of a certain town, in giving him an account of their administration, spoke to him of some emoluments which had formerly been sold at a price, that, from their subsequent increase, had become much below their real value. The minister replied that "the differences should be made up." "But, sir, a part of these emoluments now belong to yourself." "The necessity," said he, "is so much the stronger." The owner of a new negro vessel proposed to call it after Turgot: he forbade the compliment, and publicly avowed his reprobation of the horrible traffic. Every person who cultivated literature, science, or the arts, who had talents and made a right use of them, was treated by Turgot with distinction. They were sure to be listened to, and cordially received, if they had any thing to propose that might contribute to the public welfare.

All these virtues failed to save M. Turgot from the effects of interested clamour, and early in 1776, the king, though he admired the man, was obliged to ask his resignation. Many of his edicts were also repealed, so as to shut out the hope that, though he was not himself in office, his plans would come into operation and benefit the people. He sustained the disappointment with magnanimity, and quietly betook himself to philosophical pursuits, as the next best means of rendering himself useful. He also amused himself by composing in verse, and it is not unworthy of notice that he was the author of the celebrated line respecting Franklin—

Eripuit cœlo fulmen, mox sceptra tyrannis:

That is, "He drew lightning from the sky, and took sceptres from kings." When war was declared between France and England, he saw how honourable it would be in the French nation that the vessel of Captain Cook should be treated with respect at sea. He composed a memorial, in which he proved that honour, reason, and even interest, dictated this act of respect for humanity; and it was in consequence of this memorial, the authorship of which was unknown during his lifetime, that an order was given not to treat as an enemy the common benefactor of every European nation.

"The friends of M. Turgot loved him as he deserved to be loved. The mildness of his nature made them excuse a superiority which they were obliged to acknowledge, though he did not intrude it upon them, but concealed it without labouring to conceal it. * * With employments so attractive and various; with the happiness of loving and being tenderly loved; with the testimony of an unsullied conscience; with the feeling so seldom experienced by a minister, of having never disguised the truth to his prince, and never subscribed his hand to one act of oppression or injustice; and, in short, of having never merited enemies, but by defending the nation against the prejudices and the interest of powerful individuals, and the public treasury against the avidity of intriguers of every kind; with enjoyments like these, that afford to a strong and comprehensive

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mind the pleasure of contemplating and enjoying truth, M. Turgot might have promised himself a happy career; his friends might have indulged themselves in the hope of enjoying for a time a man whose superior information, whose amiable society, whose tender friendship, were one of their first blessings." It proved otherwise. "Before his administration, his attacks of the gout had been merely painful. The forced application to which he gave himself up in the midst of these attacks, had changed their nature; and in his retirement repose could not repair the disorders which a zeal for his duty had occasioned. The attacks were more and more dangerous, and he became at last the victim of his patriotism and his courage. His last attack, which was long and painful, altered neither his mind nor his temper. Always employed, in the intervals of pain, sometimes with a work that one of his friends had published, and in which he took an interest, sometimes in the fate of a literary man who was at that time unfortunate, and sometimes in the pursuit of his own thoughts, and in collecting metaphysical observations upon the connection of our ideas with the state of our organs, his friends could perceive no other effect than that of a sensibility so much the more affecting, as it appeared to be excited merely by their cares for him; and his soul saw with tranquillity the moment approach [March 20, 1781], when, in conformity to the eternal laws of nature, he was going to fill, in another order of beings, the rank which these laws had destined to him."

REMARKABLE CASES OF CIRCUMSTANTIAL EVIDENCE.

THE SHOP BOY.

Cases exhibiting the precarious nature of circumstantial evidence, independently of the deep interest which generally attaches to them as mere narratives, are calculated to work so beneficial an effect on the public mind, that they cannot, it seems to us, be too frequently or too prominently brought forward in pages adapted for popular reading. By no other means can mankind be so strongly impressed with a salutary conviction of the necessity of making the strictest and most minute investigations, ere the life of a fellow creature be arbitrarily shortened, or guilt of whatever kind be decisively laid to any one's charge. The following cases of circumstantial evidence are collected from various sources. The first we find in the able notes to the new edition of Bentham (Tait, Edinburgh), and the authority adduced is one of the collections of French criminal causes, that have been published at various times. The case is given in the original French, of which the following is a literal translation.

Previously to the rebuilding of that long range of houses which line the Place St Michel at Paris, in front of the Rue St Hyacinth, an aged widow lived near that spot, being the occupant of a small shop, to which was attached a back-parlour where she slept. She was believed by the neighbours to have amassed a considerable amount of money. One young lad constituted, for a long time, her entire household. He slept on the fourth floor of the same building, but the staircase leading to his apartment had no communication with the dwelling of his mistress. The lad was obliged to go round by the street, when he had to enter the shop, and when he left it to go to bed, he shut the outer door, and carried away the key, of which he was the sole depositary. One morning, the shop door was noticed to be earlier open than usual, while at the same time no movement indicated that either the old shopkeeper or her assistant had arisen. This quietness alarmed some of the neighbours. On entering, they perceived no marks of violence about the door, but they found a bloody knife lying in the middle of the shop, and on her bed, in the back apartment, lay the shopmistress, dead—stabbed, to all appearance, by the weapon mentioned. The corpse held in one hand a small handful of hair, and in the other a cravat or neckcloth. Near the bed was the money-box, which had been forced and pillaged. The young shop-assistant was immediately seized, and he admitted that the bloody knife belonged to him. The cravat which the murdered woman held in her hand was his. They compared his hair with that grasped in the other hand; the two were the same, in colour and every other respect. Finally, the key of the shop was in his possession; he alone had the power, by means of that key, of entering the shop without resorting to force. On the strength of this accumulation of evidence he was put to the torture (*on lui fait subir la question*); under its agonies, he admitted the crime, and was broken on the wheel (*rompu*).

Shortly afterwards, a tavern boy was taken up for some crime of a different nature. In the declaration emitted by him after conviction and condemnation, he confessed that he was the sole actor in the assassination of the old woman in the Place St Michel. The tavern where he served adjoined her shop, and he was on familiar terms with her shop-boy. To the latter he acted as hair-dresser, so far as regarded the periodical arrangement of the lad's hair *en queue*; and always when he used the comb, he carefully gathered those hairs which the instrument detached. By little and little he had thus collected the handful which was found in the grasp of the murdered woman. The knife, and one of the cravats of the lad, he had procured without difficulty, and the terms of intimacy on which they were, enabled him with equal ease to take an impression in wax of the shop-key, for the fabrication of a false one. By these means he entered and committed the deed, leaving things in the state which has been related.

Such is the story as told by the French writer. Seldom has there been a piece of villany so coolly planned, and so ruthlessly executed, at the foreseen and expected cost of existence to two unfortunate beings. The succeeding two cases are of a similar order, exhibiting the fall of innocence before premeditated villany, and are from the Causes Celebres, first series, volume third (Amsterdam edition of 1775).

THE JEWS.

In a hotel or lodging-house at Milan, a Frenchman and two Jews were resident at one and the same time. The Jews occupied a chamber adjoining that of the Frenchman, who formed an acquaintance with them in consequence. He observed them to be very rich, as they often counted great bags of Spanish pistoles in his presence. This led him to the following guilty device. He cut or tore off a considerable portion of a night-wrapper or gown belonging to him, and contrived not only to leave it in the chamber of the Jews, but to watch the use which they made of it. They employed it to wrap up a parcel of one hundred pistoles. On the morning after observing this, the Frenchman, as soon as he arose, alarmed the house with cries of "robbery!" Every body ran to his chamber, and there heard him tell a melancholy tale of the loss of one hundred pistoles, which he had wrapped up in the front of his gown. He asserted that some one must have entered while he slept, and cut away the part of the gown with the money. The officers of justice were called in to examine the house. In the chamber of the Jews was found the portion of gown, and the Frenchman instantly called out, "There is my money!" The Jews were timorous men, and were thrown into confusion. This strengthened the case against them, and the consequence was, that they were executed. At an after period, the guilty author of their death confessed the conspiracy by which he had implicated them.

THE FLEMISH CURATE.

Another victim of a plot of this nature was a Flemish curate, who lived near the commencement of the eighteenth century. He was a man of remarkable piety, and exhibited in his conversation and deportment all the virtues which ought to adorn the character of him who assumes to be a teacher of others. In his parish resided a man of violent passions, who entertained a mortal enmity against another parishioner and neighbour, and resolved to assassinate him. Casting his eyes deliberately about him to discover a mode of doing this with safety, this wretch noticed a habit which the curate had of throwing off his walking-coat whenever he entered his own house, and of putting on a short cassock in its stead, leaving the coat carelessly in an outer room or lobby, which was open to friend or stranger at almost any time. Observing this custom, the man alluded to resolved upon taking a diabolical advantage of it. He fixed upon a time when he knew the curate to be usually engaged in composing the sermon for the following Sunday's service, and entered the lobby, whence he carried off the coat, and a neckerchief which he found also there. He knew that, immediately after this time, the person whose assassination he meditated would pass by a retired spot near the village. The villain had planned his time well. The victim came up to the spot as expected, and perished beneath the knife or dagger of his enemy, who afterwards returned, without delay, to the curate's house. Favoured by the dusk, he placed the coat, neckerchief, and dagger, in the lobby whence he had taken them, and then went off to the nearest magistrate, and denounced the curate as a murderer, declaring that he himself, from a little distance, had beheld the commission of the crime. The magistrate hurried to the reported scene of the deed, saw and recognised the body, and then proceeded to the house of the unfortunate and unconscious clergyman. Half hidden in the lobby were found the coat, the kerchief, and the dagger, all of them more or less stained with blood. The curate was arrested and thrown into prison.

When the matter sustained a judicial examination, the "bold, bad man" who had projected this double murder, adhered to his story, and as nobody was with the curate at the time in his dwelling, the accused had no exculpatory evidence to offer, excepting what was afforded by his simple protestation of innocence, and the sanctity of his former character. All his flock, and indeed all who knew him, believed him to be utterly incapable of such a crime; but the law, and the judges of the law, regarded the criminatory testimony as too strong to be doubted, and held it to be their duty to condemn the accused. The best of men, it was argued by the public prosecutors, have been known to be hurried by the violence of temporary passion into the commission of crime, and such was but too probably the case here. When the sentence was known, a great sensation was excited over the whole country. The whole community were in favour of the curate, but this could not save him from the *stake*, to which he was doomed. He died with a degree of calm resignation, which drew tears of admiring pity from all who saw him.

Four years after his execution, the villain who had caused his end, involved himself in another murder, and on this occasion the crime was brought home to him. He was condemned to be broken on the wheel —a death too horrible for even such a criminal as he was. Before he died, he confessed the whole facts of the curate's case. The memory of the latter was thenceforth honoured like that of the saints.

HAWKINS AND SIMPSON.

Cases have occurred, both where accusations have been established, and where they have been refuted, by the observation of some peculiarity in the *ink* with which documentary evidence was written. If the assertion has been made that all parts of a particular document were written at one and the same period, with the same ink, and if it is discovered that the ink has a different appearance at one place from that which it presents at another, judges and jurymen would be generally inclined to regard this as a strong proof of the falsity of the document, or at least of the assertion made regarding it. But the following case, which we find quoted in a little work entitled "The Theory of Presumptive Proof," shows how cautious people ought to be in running hastily to such a conclusion.

"John Hawkins and George Simpson were indicted for robbing the mail, on the 16th of April 1722. Hawkins, in his defence, set up an *alibi*; to prove which, he called one William Fuller, who deposed that Hawkins came to his house on Sunday the 15th of April, and lay there that night, and did not go out until the next morning. Being asked by the court, 'By what token do you remember that it was the 15th* of April?' he replied, 'By a very good token, for he owed me a sum of money for horse-hire, and on Tuesday, the 10th of April, he called upon me and paid me in full, and I gave him a receipt; and I very well remember that he lay at my house the Sunday night following.' The receipt was now produced. 'April the 10th, 1722. Received of Mr John Hawkins the sum of one pound ten shillings, in full of all accounts, per me William Fuller.' Upon inspecting the receipt, the court asked Fuller who wrote it; he replied, 'Hawkins wrote the body of it, and I signed it.' *Court*—'Did you see him write it?' *Fuller*—'Yes.' *Court*—'And how long was it after he wrote it, before you signed?' *Fuller*—'I signed it immediately, without going from the table.' *Court*—'How many standishes do you keep in the house?' *Fuller*—'Standishes?' *Court*—'Ay, standishes; it is a plain question.' *Fuller*—'My lord, but one; and that is enough for the little writing we have to do.' *Court*—'Then you signed the receipt with the same ink that Hawkins wrote the body of it with?' *Fuller*—'For certain.' *Court*—'Officer, hand the receipt to the jury. Gentlemen, you will see that the body of the note is written with one kind of ink, and the name at the bottom with another very different; and yet this witness has sworn that they were both written with the same ink, and one immediately after the other. You will judge what credit is to be given to his evidence!'

Thus the authenticity of the receipt, and the credit of the witness, were overthrown by the sagacity of the court! But while the judge, Lord Chief Baron Montague, was summing up the evidence, he was interrupted by the following occurrence:—The person who reports the trial was then taking notes of the proceedings; his ink, as it happened, was very bad, being thick at the bottom, and thin and waterish at the top, so that, accordingly as he dipped the pen, the writing appeared very pale or pretty black. This *circumstance* being remarked by some gentlemen present, they handed the book to the jury: the judge perceiving them very attentively inspecting it, called to them—'Gentlemen, what are you doing? What book is that?' They told him that it was the writer's book, and that they were observing how the same ink appeared pale in one place and black in another. The judge then told them—'You ought not, gentlemen, to take notice of any thing but what is produced in evidence;' and, turning to the writer, demanded 'What he meant by showing that book to the jury?' And being informed by the writer that it was taken from him, he inquired, 'who took it, and who handed it to the jury?' But this the writer could not say, as the gentlemen near him were all strangers to him, and he had not taken any particular notice of the person who took his book.

That a jury ought not to take notice of any thing but what is produced in evidence, has been said to be law; but, on the contrary, it has been held, and surely very properly, that a juryman may find from his own knowledge; indeed, what evidence can convince a person that that *is* which he knows *not* to be!

Hawkins and Simpson were convicted and executed; indeed, the evidence against them was very strong; but had the fate of Hawkins depended upon the single testimony of Fuller, he would, but for this occurrence, have fallen a sacrifice to the acuteness of the *judge!* who appears to have been much displeased at the accidental confutation of his remarks on the receipt, although it was an accident in favour of life."

THE BARBER'S APPRENTICE.

In an earlier number of the present periodical, a sketch of a humorous kind appeared, under the title of the General Face, in which an individual is made to deplore the annoyances arising from the peculiar conformation of his countenance, which seemed rather to have the blended characters of the whole *genus* man, than the distinct lineaments of an individual variety thereof. He was incessantly mistaken for somebody else, and suffered frequently for the peccadilloes of

* The robbery was committed about two o'clock on the morning of the 16th.

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somebody else. The subjoined anecdote would lead one to suppose that this case of the General Face was less fanciful than the writer of the sketch himself most probably imagined it to be. "September 14, 1772, came on, at the sessions in the Old Bailey, the trial of one Male, a barber's apprentice, for robbing Mrs Ryan of Portland Street, on the highway, on the 17th of June last. The witnesses swore positively to the identity of the lad, and the whole court imagined him guilty. He said nothing in his defence, but that he was innocent, and his evidences would prove it. His evidences were the books of the court, to which reference being made, it appeared that on the day and hour when the robbery was sworn to be committed, the lad was on his trial at the bar where he then stood, for another robbery, in which he was likewise unfortunate enough to be mistaken for the person who committed it; on which he was honourably acquitted."

In another number we shall present a few more cases of circumstantial evidence. Those now given, we hope, will have had sufficient interest in the eyes of our readers to make the promise of an early continuation acceptable.

POINTS OF ETIQUETTE.

A SMALL volume entitled "The Laws of Etiquette," of American authorship (Philadelphia, 1838), having fallen under our notice, we propose to make a selection of a few passages from it, with observations on their purport.

In the Introduction, the author favours us with the following view of the gradations of rank in the States, which will be new to many of our readers. "There is perfect freedom of political privilege; all are the same upon the hustings, or at a political meeting; but this equality does not extend to the drawing-room. None are excluded from the highest councils of the nation, but it does not follow that all can enter into the highest ranks of society. In point of fact, we think that there is more exclusiveness in the society of this country than there is in that even of England —far more than there is in France. There being *there* less danger of permanent disarrangement or confusion of ranks by the occasional admission of the low-born aspirant, there does not exist the same necessity for a jealous guarding of the barriers as there does here. The distinction of classes, also, after the first or second, is actually more clearly defined, and more rigidly observed in America, than in any country of Europe. Persons unaccustomed to look searchingly at these matters, may be surprised to hear it; but we know from observation, that there are among the respectable, in any city of the United States, at least ten distinct ranks. We cannot, of course, here point them out, because we could not do it without mentioning names. Every man is naturally desirous of finding entrance into the best society of his country, and it becomes therefore a matter of importance to ascertain what qualifications are demanded for admittance. A writer, who is popularly unpopular, has remarked, that the test of standing in Boston is literary eminence; in New York, wealth; and in Philadelphia, purity of blood. To this remark we can only oppose our opinion, that none of these are indispensable, and none of them sufficient. The society of this country, unlike that of England, does not court literary talent. We have cases in our recollection, which prove the remark, in relation to the highest ranks, even of Boston. Wealth has no pretensions to be the standard any where. In New York, the Liverpool of America, although the rich may make greater display and *bruit*, yet all of the merely rich will find that there does exist a small and unchanging circle, whether above or below them, 'it is not ours to say,' yet completely apart from them, into which they would rejoice to find entrance, and from which they would be glad to receive emigrants." The writer in this paragraph seems to infer that "literary talent" is courted in England; which is true only in a limited sense. It is notorious that neither men of science nor literature are courted or held in esteem in this country, to the same degree as men possessing hereditary or naval and military rank. If we substitute France for England, the inference is correct.

The passages on dress are good. "What style is to our thoughts, dress is to our persons. It may supply the place of more solid qualities, and without it the most solid are of little avail. Numbers have owed their elevation to their attention to the toilet. Place, fortune, and marriage, have all been lost by neglecting it. Your dress should always be consistent with your age and your natural exterior. That which looks outré on one man, will be agreeable on another. As success in this respect depends almost entirely upon particular circumstances and personal peculiarities, it is impossible to give general directions of much importance. We can only point out the field for study and research; it belongs to each one's own genius and industry to deduce the results. However ugly you may be, rest assured that there is some style of habiliment which will make you passable. If, for example, you have a stain upon your cheek, or are afflicted with a nose whose lustre dims the ruby, you may employ such hues of dress, that the eye, instead of being shocked by the strangeness of the defect, will be charmed by the graceful harmony of the colours. Every one cannot indeed be an Adonis, but it is his own fault if he is an Æsop. If you have bad eyes, which have lost their lashes, and are bordered with red, you should wear spectacles. If the defect be great, your glasses should be coloured. In such cases emulate the sky rather than the sea; green spectacles are an abomination, fitted only for students in divinity. Almost every defect of face may be concealed by a judicious use and arrangement of hair. Take care, however, that your hair be not of one colour and your whiskers of another; and let your wig be large enough to cover the *whole* of your red or white hair. It is evident, therefore, that though a man may be ugly, there is no necessity for his being shocking. When we speak of excellence in dress, we do not mean richness of clothing, nor manifested elaboration. Faultless propriety, perfect harmony, and a refined simplicity, these are the charms which fascinate here. It is as great a sin to be finical in dress as to be negligent."

The rules for bowing come next. "The salutation, says a French writer, is the touchstone of good breeding. According to circumstances, it should be respectful, cordial, civil, affectionate, or familiar; an inclination of the head, a gesture with the hand, the touching or doffing of the hat. It is a mark of high breeding not to speak to a lady in the street, until you perceive that she has noticed you by an inclination of the head. Some ladies *curtsey* in the street, a movement not gracefully consistent with locomotion. They should always *bow*. If an individual of the lowest rank, or without any rank at all, takes off his hat to you, you should do the same in return. A bow, says La Fontaine, is a note drawn at sight. If you acknowledge it, you must pay the full amount. The two best bred men in England, Charles II. and George IV., never failed to take off their hats to the meanest of their subjects. If you have any thing to say to any one in the street, especially a lady, however intimate you may be, do not stop the person, but turn round and walk in company; you can take leave at the end of the street." This last sentence contains a good advice. Standing to talk with an acquaintance in the street, is one of the most likely means for catching cold, and therefore, independently of other reasons, ought if possible to be avoided.

There is some agreeable chit-chatty matter on the subject of visiting. "Of visits there are various kinds: visits of congratulation, ceremony, condolence, and friendship. To each belong different customs. Upon the appointment of one of your friends to any office or dignity, you call upon him to congratulate, not him, but the country, community, or state, on account of the honour and advantage which it derives from the appointment.

Visits of condolence are paid within the week after the event which occasions them. Visits of ceremony should be very short. Go at some time when business demands the employment of every moment. In visits of friendship, adopt a different course. If you call to see a friend who is staying at lodgings, however intimate you may be with him, wait below until a servant has carried up your name and returned to tell you whether you can be admitted. If you cannot find any one to announce you, you should knock gently at the door of his chamber, and wait a little while before entering. If you are in too great a hurry, you might find the person drawing off a nightcap. These decent formalities are necessary even in the most unreserved friendships; they preserve the 'familiar' from degenerating into the 'vulgar.'

The style of your conversation should always be in keeping with the character of your visit. You must not talk about literature in a visit of condolence, nor lecture on political economy in a visit of ceremony. After a ball or a dinner, you visit during the week.

If you should happen to be paying an evening visit at a house, where, unknown to you, there is a small party assembled, you should enter and present yourself precisely as you would have done had you been invited. To retire precipitately with an apology for the intrusion would create a *scene*, and be extremely awkward. Go in, therefore, converse with ease for a few moments, and then retire. Take care to let it be known the next day, in such a way as that the family shall hear of it, that you were not aware that there was any company there. Likewise, if you are intending to enter one house, and find that you have got by mistake into another—a blunder very easily and very often committed in Philadelphia, in consequence of the singular uniformity of the houses—it is better, provided you have fairly entered the parlour before perceiving your error, and provided, also, that you are not an utter stranger to the family—it is better, I say, to remain for a short time as if you had intended to pay a visit there, and say nothing whatever about the matter; but your visit should not be quite as long, nor your manner so confused, as this sentence.

During the administration of General Washington, Mr Jefferson was one evening invited to a dance at the house of a distinguished military officer in Philadelphia. At about eight o'clock he got into his carriage, and gave the coachman what he thought was an accurate direction as to the place where he was to be driven. By mistake he was set down at the door of the house directly opposite, which happened to be the residence of a member of Congress, whom he had never visited, and who was very warmly opposed to him in politics. It was not until the Secretary of State was in the middle of the drawing-room that he discovered that he was, as it has lately been expressed, quite 'in the wrong box.' The lady of the house chanced to be sitting there alone, the gentleman being ill. The person of Mr Jefferson was of course known, and under that assurance he presented himself with admirable ease and self-possession, and sat down. He conversed, making himself very agreeable, drank tea, and staid till half-past nine o'clock, when he took leave. Inquiring from the servant at the door where he should find the house to which he *had* been invited, he made his way thither, and communicated to the ladies the error into which, through the stupidity of his coachman, he had been led; and they, the next day, informed their neighbours. This anecdote may be relied upon; and if there is no other on record respecting Mr Jefferson's manners, there is enough in it to convince us that he was a high-bred gentleman."

It is the height of vulgarity to say, on taking your departure after a visit, that you "have spent a happy evening," or to make any similar remark; for it is presumed you could not have been otherwise than happy.

"In leaving a card for a stranger, do not forget to add your address; and do not omit it, if you leave a card for another in a city where you are a stranger." It is reckoned improper to put your address on a card which you leave at the house of an inhabitant of the same town, for it is presumed that your place of residence is known to your friend. "The card of a man should be small, plain, unglazed, and ungilt. A gilded and glazed card is agreeable only as belonging to a woman. I should be glad to exhibit to the host of American *parvenus* their own broad, glittering cards —bearing upon them names reeking with plebeianism, gewgawed with some paltry title, the synonyme and passport of insignificance—in contrast with the plain and modest cards of some of the highest peers of the British realm." The author concludes with a useful admonition, "A visit and an umbrella should always be returned."

On the subject of epistolary correspondence, the following hints occur:—"Wafers are now entirely exploded. A letter of business is sealed with red wax, and marked with some common stamp. Letters to gentlemen demand red wax, sealed with your arms." Every body knows that these are correct enough rules as respects England, but who could have expected to see an American recommending the use of *arms!* These relics of a barbarous age continue in use only to mark family distinction, and, therefore, as things purely aristocratic, can have no proper place in the social customs of a republican people. Are we to understand from the recommendation to use heraldic emblems, that the Americans are democratic only in their political relations, and aristocratic in the common concerns of life? Have they a heralds' college with a king-at-arms to grant armorial bearings? or do they seize hold of any arms that suit their fancy? The subject is involved in mystery.*

A few more "points" will be given at the first opportunity.

SPECULATIONS ON WORDS.

SECOND ARTICLE.

To drive at, To treat of.—There is one peculiarity in the style of our old writers, which makes it sound very rugged to modern ears, and certainly cannot always be admired, although it is strictly idiomatic. We refer to the placing of the preposition at the end of the clause, instead of before the relative. For example, South says, "As to the matters which he is here to treat of," &c. Now, we should say, *of which he is here to treat.* He speaks of "a sordid and supine dullness, *which* they so much affect to distinguish themselves *by*, and *which* we by no means desire to vie with them *in*." The longer the clause, the uglier it sounds: here, for instance, *by which*, and *in which*, would greatly improve the sentence. The shorter the clause, the better it is: in fact, sometimes in very short clauses it is *necessary* to put the preposition at the end, to avoid stiffness or affectation. For example, "the book which you were speaking of, is not yet published:" *of which* would be stiff. Perhaps *mentioned* would be better; but the idea is not exactly the same. Better still to omit the relative altogether, and say "the book you were speaking of is not yet published." When we omit the relative, which we generally do in short clauses of this kind, the preposition *must* come at the end. Some object to the omission of the relative at all; but that is unreasonable. Our best writers omit it, and it is strictly idiomatic. For instance, South speaks of "the text we are upon." You cannot say "upon which we are." Again, he says, "is the grave a place to dress ourselves for heaven?" Try *in which to dress ourselves:* you spoil the sentence. It becomes Latin, not English. So Julius Charles Han says, "the first school I was *at:*" alter it, and you spoil it. You can't say *the first school at which I was*, unless you wish to be laughed at. But there are other cases in which the preposition must come last, if we would preserve the force of the sentence. South says, "This was the main point which they then drove *at;*" you cannot say, "at which they then drove." The phrase is to *drive at*, not to *drive*. It would not be recognised, if the *at* were removed from its place. Lord Brougham has very good instances of the retention of this truly English idiom: as, for example, in his speech at Dover, lately published; "then," he says, "would be seen—what God forbid I should live to witness the *occasion for*—Wellington coming forth a

* Captain Marryat alleges that the Americans who visit England apply at the heralds' college for coats of arms; but this wants confirmation.

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veteran warrior, and adding one bright superfluous page to the history of his imperishable renown." Perhaps this is the best rule to observe: if the preposition belongs to the verb, and forms one phrase with it, completing its sense, it should go with the verb: and if this make the sentence weak from the number and position of the little words, omit the relative.

An, A. Ladies. Y, ie.—The proper indefinite article in English is *an*; an book or an egg; an apple or an pear. When we say, as we do now, "a pear," we have lost the *n* in an. We do not add *n* when we say an apple. The grammars tell us *a* is made *an* before a vowel. It is not so. *An* is made *a* before a consonant. The *n* is dropt. *An* is the indefinite article, in German *ein*, and in the French *un*; in these languages the *n* is not dropt as it is in English. The numeral *one* is the same word; and *an apple* means *one apple*. We may often hear foreigners talk about giving *one shilling to a man*, for a shilling, or seeing *one play*, for *a play*. In the same way we are told that in forming the plural of *lady*, *y* is changed into *ie*. Now, this is not the right way of putting it. The old way of spelling *lady* is *ladie*, and the plural of course *ladies*. Well, in the plural the old way is kept; no change is made. But in the singular, the *ie* has been altered to *y*; so that it is the singular, not the plural, that has been changed. Now we spell the plural of *day*, *days*; but formerly it was *daies*, and the possessive singular *daies* also. The old writers were not always regular in the spelling, but that was the rule. Thus, in Fell's Life of Hammond, we have "two and fifty quarter-daies," and in the same page "a daies-work."

In the same way the nouns heaviness, hardiness, &c., and the adjectives plentiful, beautiful, &c., have not changed the *y* to *i*: they have lost the *e* from *heavie*, *hardie*, *plentie*, *beautie*; and *heavy*, *hardy*, *plenty*, *beauty*, have changed *ie* to *y*.

In the same way in the plural of *church*, *e* is not *added*; it is taken away in *books*. The old ending was *is* or *es*, and in *churches*, *classes*, it is retained, because the word cannot be pronounced without it. In *books* *e* is dropt.

Wilderness.—The word *wilderness* is rather a curious word in two ways. Words in *ness* generally denote a quality, as in *hardness*, *strangeness*, *fondness*, &c. But in a few instances it denotes a place, as in *fastness* and *wilderness*. This is curious. But the *er* in *wilderness* is more so. From *wild*, "wildness" is the word we should expect, and we have that word denoting "the being wild." The *er* is merely euphonic, like the *b* in number (*numerus*).

The *ness* in these words must not be confounded with the *ness* in Sheerness, Shellness, and Dungeness: this *ness* is in fact the same word as *nose* and the French *nez*, and denotes a point or nose of land. We speak of a neck of land and a tongue of land, and why should we not speak of a nose of land?* So the *naze* in Norway. Latin *nasus* "nose."

But to return to wilderness, and the insertion of *er*, &c. There is a verb *wilder*, and *bewilder*, but the *er* in wilderness is not likely to have come from these. *Wilder* seems to be a later word, and we find in old writers *wyldeness* used in the sense of *wilderness*. Another letter inserted in English to relieve the bluntness of the sound is *s*, as in huntsman, tradesman, seedsman. The *s* is merely euphonic. As in German, the wedding-day is not *hochzeittag*, but hochzeitstag.

Villain, Clown, Knave, Boor.—In many languages there is a transition, not altogether unnatural, from lowness of condition to lowness of character. It is so in Greek, and it is so in English. A *villain* was originally only a *villanus* or inhabitant of the ville, dependent on the great man or lord of the soil; now, a villain is a *knave*. But a knave was formerly only a *servant*, nay, before that, only a *boy*. The German *knaba* is now a *boy*, but the English, after becoming a servant (Wickliffe's Version of the Bible has "Paul, a *knave* of Jesus Christ," that is, a servant of, &c.), has now become a rogue. In the same way, though *colere* in Latin meant to till the land, and *colonus* a tiller of the land, the English *clown* means not merely a *countryman*, but a *countryfied* or rustic man. So, though the German *bauen* means to till the land, and *bauer* a countryman or peasant, the English *boor*, which is the same word, means more, and implies something of the clown, and the adjectives *boorish* and *clownish* are nearly synonymous. In the word neighbour, that is *nigh-boor*, the word has lost its peculiar meaning. Now, on the other hand, while *countryfied*, *clownish*, *bourish*, and *rustic*, imply something coarse, cityfied implies something polite, as we see in the word *urbane*, from *urbs* "a city," or civil, from *civis*, "a citizen."

Do.—The word *do* has undergone many curious changes. It is the same in origin as the Greek *do*, the Latin *da*, and the Sanscrit *da*; and the primary meaning is to put; hence the senses of *make*, *give*, &c. In English, *do* had the meaning of "to put" commonly, and still retains it in the compounds to *don*, to *doff*, and to *dout*, that is, to do on, to do off, and to do out, or, as we should say now, to put on, and put off, or to put out. In a passage in the New Testament, *do* is used just as we now use *make*: "I *do* you to wit," &c., that is, I *make* you to know, or I *give* you to understand, &c. But the usage most remote from the original meaning is the auxiliary, thus, I *do* think, &c., I *do* not believe, where the words think and believe are in fact in the infinitive mood equivalent to substantives, as if we were to say, "*I do the believing* that," &c.

The Germans had formerly the same phrase, which is now obsolete; for example, Ich *thue* glauben, Ich *thue* erwarten, &c. The modern phrases "to do a person," or "to be done for," &c., are only technical applications of the common meaning.

Chap, Cove, Fish, Phogy, &c.—It is curious to observe the terms which are commonly used to describe persons of whom we wish to speak. The ancients were content with their *homo* and *vir*, or when they wished to be indefinite, with their simple *quidam*; but moderns, and especially we believe the English, are not satisfied with so meagre a supply of synonymes. In the sense of person, we may find probably some scores of words employed every day of our lives. We hear a person described indiscriminately as a nice body, or a good old soul, or we are informed that there was not a *soul* in the house when some *body* broke in, and ran away with all the plate. We hear of a queer chap, a rum old codger, a strange cove, or my young covey, a clever fellow, an odd fish, a facetious bird, a dirty little urchin, a young rogue, a young Pickle, an eccentric being, a dear creature, a clever young monkey, an idle dog, a lazy young hound, a young buck, a young blade, a young blood, the old boy, old squaretoes, an old sobersides, an old joker, an old file, an old phogy, and half a hundred circumlocutions besides.

*Nish is the word in the island of Skye and other parts of the Western Islands and West Highlands. Thus Trotternish, Rossinish, &c.—Ed.

SKETCHES OF SUPERSTITIONS.

SCANDINAVIAN MYTHOLOGY.

THE superstitions of the European Northmen, or Scandinavians, under which term are included the early inhabitants of Denmark, Norway, Sweden, and Iceland, were of a kind remarkably accordant with the cold and stern character of the regions which they occupied. Like the ancient Greeks, the Scandinavians had seats of the gods and of the blest which they called Asgard and Walhalla (or Valhalla), and these bore the same relation, in their character, to the Olympus and Elysium of the Greeks, that the countries of the north, with their stormy climes, their icy mountains, and perilous waters, bore to the perfumed and verdant plains of Hellas, and the fair blue skies overhanging the smooth Ionian Sea. Nothing could afford better proof of the utterly fanciful nature of all these mythologies, than the fact, that they were thus modelled and modified in every case by the earthly habits, likings, territorial position, and ignorance of geography and astronomy of the individual tribes among whom they respectively originated.

The deification of one or more great princes or rulers seems to have constituted the basis of the Scandinavian as well as of every other pagan mythology. Odin, the supreme deity of the Scandinavians, and the ruler of heaven and earth, appears, like the Hellenic Jupiter, to have been a distinguished chief and warrior of early times. Although it is asserted by some that a divinity of the name of Odin was worshipped from the most remote ages, there is reason to believe that the worship of this personage, in the north at least, had its real origin a few centuries before the commencement of the Christian era, when a powerful chieftain of the name was driven by the Romans from his dominions between the Euxine and Caspian, and took refuge in Scandinavia, the whole of which he subjected to his sway. Like Mahomet, this chief appears to have established a new religion, of which he himself assumed to be the earthly head, as the servant or minister of a divine being of the same name. In the course of time, however, this distinction was entirely lost, and the persons and acts of the divine and earthly Odin became inextricably blended in the mythology and traditions of the north. The great records of the religious and legendary knowledge of the Scandinavians, are the Eddas and Sagas of Iceland, partly written in poetry and partly in prose. The oldest of the Eddas, a series of poetical fragments, was collected from oral tradition in the eleventh century, and the others are of later date. The acts of the deities and heroes of the north, the creation of the world, and prophetic revelations, form the general subject of these pieces.

The Scandinavians, like the Greeks, believed that the universe was originally a chaos, or mass of confused vapours, peopled by a race of Rimthursar, or evil spirits of gigantic bulk. A being of nobler nature sprang up among these, named Bure, from whom were descended Odin and his two brothers Vile and Ve. These younger divinities followed exactly the same course with the northern giants that was pursued by Jupiter and his brothers with regard to the Titans, or older and gigantic deities of Greece. Odin began to war with the Rimthursar, and having at last overcome their great chief Ymer, he created the world out of that giant's body. His flesh became the mould, his bones the rocks, his hair the vegetable tribes, his blood the ocean, and his skull the heavens, at the four corners of which were placed certain dwarfs, called North, South, East, and West, whose duty it was to sustain the celestial dome. After this, the luminaries of the sky were set in their places, and the order of the seasons appointed. Natt (night) wedded one of the Aser, or celestial family of Odin, and gave birth to Dag (day). These deities travel alternately round the world in cars, drawn by single horses. Every great body, as in the Grecian mythology, was represented by a divinity. Frigga, or the earth, was the daughter of Odin, and also became his wife. The inhabitants of the earth, or mankind, were created by Odin and his brothers. Two pieces of wood, the one of ash and the other of elm, formed the materials of the first pair of mortals, who were distinguished for personal beauty and intellectual ability.

The race of deities inhabited Asgard, a place supposed by some to have been the city in Asia whence the real or mortal Odin was expatriated. The fabulous Asgard was pictured as containing numerous palaces and halls, the largest of which was the Mansion of Joy, where Allfader (Odin) sat on his throne amid his divine family. This throne was named Lidskialfa, or the Terror of Nations, and from it he could overlook the whole earth. Two ravens, Hugin (Spirit) and Muninn (Memory), sat always at his ear, and communicated to him intelligence of all things that were going on in the universe. Among the deities who dwelt in Asgard, one of the most important was Thor, or Asa-thor, son of Odin by Frigga, and the Mars, or warrior-god, of the Scandinavians.

Thor is described as the god of thunder, and the strongest of beings, earthly or heavenly. He is the son of Odin and Frigga, or, in other words, of the Sun and the Earth. When he moves, the earth trembles. He holds in his hand a powerful hammer, called the Crusher (*miölner*), with which he annihilates all who oppose him, and who offend the gods. In battle Thor is always girt with a magic girdle, which has the power of inspiring him with a divine fury, and redoubling his strength. On his right hand he wears an iron gauntlet, with which he grasps and wields the formidable crusher. This latter instrument was forged by a dwarf, named Sindri, the prototype of the deformed blacksmith-deities of the Greeks, Vulcan and his Cyclops. The hammer possesses the wonderful power of never missing its aim, and when launched at any object, returns to the hand of Thor, after having destroyed his foe. Thor is sometimes called Aukistor, or Thor of the Car, from his riding on a chariot, drawn by two powerful he-goats, named Sangniostr and Tangrisner. His deity has a spouse named Sipia, famous for her beautiful hair.

After Odin, Thor was the most cherished deity of Scandinavia, and had statues and temples erected to him every where. The statues of him were usually formed of clay, and represented a tall figure, with a red-painted beard, indicative of the lightning, which he was supposed to wield. Bread and meat were supplied daily to the god by his worshippers, and at stated times, libations were poured out in his honour.

Balder, the second son of Odin, was the most beautiful and amiable of the Aser or gods. Unlike the rest of his brethren, he was fond of peace, and had the power of allaying tempests, and acting as a mediator, to avert divine wrath. His decrees were irrevocable. In some points he resembled the Apollo of the Greeks, but the general qualities of that personage found a closer representative in Braga or Bragi, the god of eloquence and poetry. Niord, the god of the sea, and his son Freys, the god of rain, were also important deities of the north. Every element, or important natural phenomenon, was under the guidance, in like manner, of some celestial personage. Frigga, the Scandinavian Juno, was the bestower of fertility and plenty. Freia, or Freya, the daughter of Niord, was the Venus of Asgard, and the patroness of matrimony. Freia was assisted in her duties by Siona and Sofna, the first of whom made lovers faithful, while the other reconciled them when they quarrelled. Eyra was the physician of the gods. There were various other minor divinities in the Scandinavian mythology, though not nearly so many as in the Grecian roll. The deficiency was made up among the northerns by the assignment of more multitudinous duties to the greater deities. Thus Odin, from the extent of his government, received as many as one hundred and twenty distinct names, each indicating some individual quality ascribed to him.

The great hall appointed for the reception of the spirits of the brave, when they left earth for the seat of the gods, was called Valhalla. Twelve beautiful yet terrible nymphs, named Valkyries (*choosers of the slain*), were the guides of the good spirits to the hall of Valhalla, and supplied them with mead. The occupation of drinking this northern nectar, and of eating the fat of the wild boar Serimner, which, after serving as the daily food of thousands, became whole again every night, filled up all those intervals of time in Valhalla that were not passed in fighting. None but those who had shown surpassing bravery on earth were admitted into this Scandinavian paradise, and when there, their daily amusement was to fight with one another till all or nearly all were cut in pieces. But little harm was done in this way, for the spiritual bodies soon reunited, and enabled the warriors to appear, entire in lithe and limb, at the feasts that

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followed these extraordinary engagements. The skulls of enemies were the drinking-cups used at the entertainments of Valhalla, and the guests are described as being almost perpetually in a state of inebriation. It was only when the cock announced the arrival of morning that these terrible heroes arose from table, to issue to the field of battle through the five hundred and forty gates of Valhalla, and hack each other to pieces anew. Such was the never-ending round of employment destined for the departed heroes of Scandinavia.

The conception of a paradise so gloomy and terrific as this, illustrates strongly the character of the Norsemen on earth, and the nature of their habits and enjoyments. Perpetual fighting and perpetual intoxication!—such were the highest delights they could imagine, for the filling up of the long ages of eternity; and such, doubtless, were their prime occupations in the forms of mortals. They assigned the same tendencies to their gods. Odin himself took no nourishment but wine, and the whole history of himself and his brethren exhibits but one continuous scene of battling with giants and demons. Of the latter class Loki was the head or chief, being in fact the Devil of the Scandinavians. He was remarkable for his cunning, with which he intermingled a sort of malicious trickiness, that made him resemble the Momus of the Greeks, or the Puck of the fairy mythology, though with a darker shade of evil in his character than was assigned to either of these frolicsome personages. Whatever of good Odin was either executing or projecting, Loki made it his constant business to countermine and undo the work. He figures in this light in every Scandinavian legend, with scarcely a single exception.

As a sample of the subject-matter of the Eddaic poems, and of the pure absurdity of the superstitions which they nourished, we offer the following account of Thor's expedition in search of his lost hammer, miölner.* "On awakening one morning, Thor missed his hammer: in a rage he shook his head and beard, and groped about after his implement; then calling to Loki, at that time his friend, told him his loss. They set out together for the abode of Freya, and asked her to lend her feather-dress to aid in the recovery of the hammer. Freya willingly consents.

> Give it would I unto thee
> E'en if of gold it were;
> And unto thee commit it
> E'en if of silver it were.

Loki put on the dress, flew away from Asgard, and came to Giant-land. Here he found Thrym, a prince of the giants, sitting on a hill, twisting gold collars for his dogs, and trimming the manes of his horses. He asks Loki how it goes with the Aser and the Alfs, and what has brought him to Giant-land. Loki makes answer that it goes ill with them, and asks him if he had hidden Hlorida's (Thor's) hammer. Thrym acknowledges having done so, and adds, that it is eight *rasts* (miles) under the ground, and that he will not restore it till they give him Freya for his bride. As Freya was the northern Venus, we need not be surprised that she was a favourite object of desire with the giants; and when we further consider that she was the moon-goddess, a very plain reason will appear why the dwellers of the sunless region of Giant-land or Utgard were so anxious to obtain her.

Loki flew back, and was met on the way by the anxious Thor. They went again to 'fair Freya,' and Thor abruptly bade her get on her bridal dress, and he would drive her in his chariot to Giant-land. Freya was incensed at this proposal; 'she snorted so loud that the whole Asa-hall shook under her;' her celebrated *Men-brisinga*, or jewel, burst; and she positively refused. A council of all the Aser, and all the Asynier, was forthwith summoned to deliberate how the hammer might be recovered. Heimdall, 'the whitest of the Aser,' proposed that Thor should put on him 'the bridal fine linen, wear the great Menbrisinga, have jingling keys fastened to his belt, women's clothes falling about his knees, broad stones on his breast, and handsome head-gear.' Thor strongly objects to this arrangement, lest the gods should hereafter regard him as a woman; but Loki reminds him that if he did not recover his hammer, the giants would make themselves masters of Asgard. Thor at length consents, dons his female attire, and Loki proposes to accompany him as his maid. The buck-goats are driven home and yoked to the chariot, and mistress and maid drive off for Giant-land; rocks burst, and the earth burns beneath their wheels. Thrym, descrying their approach, calls to his brethren to make ready to receive his lovely bride, to drive home his gold-horned cows and coal-black oxen, declaring that he abounded in treasure, and wanted only Freya.

Early in the evening the guests assembled; plenty of ale was there for the giants. The bride ate an ox, eight salmon, all the sweetmeats prepared for the ladies, and quenched her thirst with three huge measures of mead. Thrym is rather astonished at these feeding powers of his bride, and exclaims,

> Didst thou ere see a bride
> Bite more greedily?
> I ne'er saw a bride
> Bite more broadly,
> Nor more of mead
> A maiden drink.

The maid at once replied that Freya had tasted nothing for the last eight days, such had been her anxiety to reach Giant-land. Thrym now thinking himself privileged to kiss his bride, raised her veil, but instantly sprang back the length of the hall.

> Why are so fierce
> The eyes of Freya?
> Methinks that flame
> Flashes from her eyes.

Freya has had no sleep for the last eight nights, such had been her anxiety to reach Giant-land. The sister of the giant now comes in, and after northern fashion claims bride-money.

> Give me from thy hands
> Thy rings so ruddy,
> If thou wilt win
> My friendship all—
> My friendship all,
> My whole affection.

Thrym calls to bring forth the hammer, that the marriage may be performed over it. Miölner is laid in the lap of Thor, 'his heart laughs in his breast,' he grasps its well-known short handle, crushes first Thrym, then the rest of the giant race, finally the sister, who had ventured to ask him for bride-money.

> A stroke she got
> Instead of shillings,
> A blow of the hammer
> Instead of rings.
> Thus did Odin's son
> Regain his hammer."

Such was the trash sung by the skalds or bards, and incorporated in the Scandinavian Eddas, along with references to the domestic superstitions of the Norsemen. Of these wild and familiar delusions, it is unnecessary to offer any lengthened explanation. There was a common belief in the existence of an inferior order of supernatural beings, the more prominent of which were deformed dwarfs, called Dwärgs or Trows, who invisibly intermingled in the affairs of mortals. These stunted and grotesque demons were ugly and malicious, and had their dwelling-place in caves or rocks in the earth. The Scandinavians likewise believed in the powers of magical incantation, especially if performed by a particular kind of wand, and accompanied by the chaunt of Runic rhymes. In other points, also, the domestic superstitions of the northerns were of a wild and terrible character. To them we owe the original ideas of mermaids, seaserpents, and krakens, the belief in which is scarcely yet exploded. The kraken is described by Pontoppidan, in his History of Norway, as an animal of enormous bulk, often seen in the northern seas, and Milton gives a fine description of it, in all its imaginary size, in the lines,

> Him haply slumbering on the Norway foam,
> The pilot of some small night-founder'd skiff,
> Deeming some island, oft, as seamen tell,
> With fixed anchor in his scaly rind
> Moors by his side under the lee, while night
> Invests the sea, and wished morn delays.

The air, too, was peopled by the Scandinavians with gigantic demons. All their fancies of this order were dark, gloomy, and savagely grand.

The mythology of the Scandinavians survived till a much later date than any other system of heathen worship in Europe. It was not abolished till the eleventh century. St Olaf, king of Norway, and a zealous supporter of Christianity, usually receives the credit of having overturned this most barbarous form of religion. In the course of his efforts to Christianise his subjects, he ordered a statue of Thor, and the pedestal on which it stood, to be broken in pieces, and showed the people that the meat which had been laid down for the use of the god was not eaten by him, but by a host of rats and other vermin that had formed a lodgement about the foundation of the colossal image. Whatever might have been the influence of the mythology of the Scandinavians in Britain, it disappeared shortly after its overthrow on the continent of Europe, or only lingered in a kind of traditional existence amidst the remote islands of Orkney and Shetland, till finally banished by the progress of a more general intelligence. The dread names of Odin, Thor, and other deities of the north, who for centuries weighed down the human faculties, and kept up the reign of superstition, are now only perpetuated in the appellations affixed to some of the days of the week. Thus, our term *Wednesday* is derived from Odin's or Wodin's day, that being the day of the week in which the northern Jupiter or supreme ruler of the gods was most honoured and worshipped. *Thursday* is from Thor, the second in dignity among these fabulous deities; as this day was called Dies Jovis by the Romans, we have here a confirmation that Thor the thunderer was equivalent either to Mars, or the thundering Jove of the Grecian mythology. *Friday* takes its appellation from Freya, the daughter of Niord, and corresponds with the Dies Veneris, or Venus day of the Greeks and Romans. *Saturday* is derived in the same manner from the god Saeter of the Scandinavians, and Saturn of the Greeks. *Tuesday*, or anciently Tiesday (a pronunciation still preserved in Scotland), is supposed to be from Tisa, the wife of Thor, and the reputed goddess of Justice. *Sunday* and *Monday* were respectively named from the Sun and Moon, both by the northern and southern nations of Europe, from a remote period of time. The circumstance of there being such a marked resemblance between the characters of the deities whose names were employed to distinguish the same days of the week both by Greeks and Scandinavians, is not a little remarkable, and has never, as far as we know, been the subject of explanation by philologists or antiquaries. The fact is only certain, that the names of the days of the week now used by every civilised people, are based upon the mythological observances of either the Grecian or Scandinavian races.

* We use the translation of the story in the Foreign Quarterly Review, article Scandinavian Mythology, vol. iv.

SHIPWRECK OF THE MENTOR.

In the year 1831, the whale-ship Mentor, of New Bedford, in New England, sailed for the Indian Ocean, to prosecute the fishing in the southern hemisphere. The ship's company, officers and men, consisted of twenty-six persons, Edward C. Barnard master. The Mentor doubled the Cape of Good Hope, and traversed the Indian Ocean in safety, but adverse winds and currents then began to impede its course, and, on the 21st of May 1832, while running for the Ladrones, the vessel, after being tossed about at the mercy of the winds for three days, struck upon a coral reef, which afterwards proved to lie near one of the Pelew Islands. This group lies six or seven degrees north of the equator, in the middle of the numerous isles on the south-east of the Asiatic continent.

The mishap of the Mentor took place in the night. In the first impulse of terror, ten men left the wreck in a boat, and were never again heard of; the continuance of the storm renders it but too probable that they speedily perished. In attempting to put off in a second boat, another man was drowned. The survivors, eleven in number, remained on the wreck till daybreak, when they saw land at the distance of twenty or thirty miles. Collecting a few arms and a small stock of provisions, they left the ship in their only remaining boat, and, after sailing three or four miles, reached a rock, or islet, about sixteen rods in length, where they rested all that day and night to refresh themselves with food and sleep, preparatory to the attempt to make the land in sight. But, in the morning, they were visited by twenty-two natives in a large canoe, the wreck having been noticed from shore. These savages were entirely naked, and frightful in aspect, being fantastically tattooed, and having long coarse black hair hanging over their shoulders. They were well armed, besides, with battle-axe, spear, and tomahawk. Though not openly unfriendly, these savages robbed the sailors of the greater part of their rescued property, and, finally, made sail for the wreck, signing to the shipwrecked band to follow them. The Americans, however, wished to get rid of their visitors, and took this opportunity to launch their boat, and steer in another direction than that of the nearest land. Thirty canoes came in the way to interrupt them, but after a little skirmish they got past, and rowed on during the whole remaining part of that day and night. On the ensuing afternoon, they came to another island, on which, being exhausted and dispirited, they resolved to land. On entering a small bay or harbour, they were met by numerous canoes, and taken on shore in triumph.

The isle on which they now were, proved to be Barbelthouap, the largest of the Pelew group, and about 120 miles in length. The inhabitants, supposed to be about 2000 in number, held a solemn consultation on the case of the poor mariners whom fate had thrown into their power. They were brought before the great chiefs of the island, who were found seated on a platform between two buildings of considerable size, made of bamboo sticks and leaves, and which seemed to be the national places of council and carousal. On this occasion the deliberation continued for about an hour, in the midst of a great assemblage, male and female, young and old. The unfortunate captives had an ominous object, meanwhile, before their eyes. In front of the platform stood a beheading block, and the question under consideration obviously was, whether or not the instrument should now be put to its legitimate uses. At length the women began to wail and howl, and this seemed to decide the matter in favour of the strangers. A cup of peace or mercy was handed to them, containing sweetened water, rendered doubly sweet by the respite from death which it betokened. All this while, the natives behaved indifferently but not cruelly to them, and they were taken, at the close of the council, to a neighbouring village, where resided a prophetess, one of the women who had been chiefly instrumental in causing a verdict of mercy to be given. On the way to this village, the American seamen were equally delighted and surprised to meet a strange-looking old man, with long grey hair, and unlike the other natives except in the tattooing, who addressed them in tolerable English. "My God!" he exclaimed, "you are Englishmen!" The sound of his voice, uttering language so unexpected, excited the most lively emotions in the minds of the seamen. "This person," says the narrative of the survivors of this expedition, "was by birth an Englishman, and had been on the island about twenty-nine years. He told us that he had been a hatter by trade, and that his name was Charles Washington. He had been a private in the British naval service, on board of the Lion man-of-war." Some trifling offence led him to leave the ship in fear of punishment, and take up his abode on the island, where he had attained to great celebrity, and had become the sixth chief in the nation. He had adopted all their habits, and was quite content with

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his situation, having no wish ever to see his own country again.

The authority of this strangely-placed individual, whose friends in Britain have probably given him up long since as dead, made the situation of the mariners comparatively easy and comfortable. Indeed, the natives, though a very rude and primitive race, seem to have been of good general dispositions. They were of a light copper complexion, and the females only wore a sort of girdle of bark. They tattoed their bodies abundantly, and anointed themselves to excess with cocoa oil. The ladies were excessively fond of ornament, and one of their articles of this order deserves notice, as especially novel and ingenious. "In their noses they wear a stem of the kabooa leaf, which answers the double purpose of an ornament and a smelling bottle." At last, after a stay of several months with these people, a negotiation was entered into by the mariners for their release and departure. Upon the stipulation of sending to the island three hundred muskets, ten casks of powder, and various other lesser articles, they got a canoe built, and in this and their own boat, eight of the shipwrecked crew left the island, three being left behind as hostages. At the same time, three natives, two of them chiefs, accompanied the party, in the hope of bringing home the reward.

Perhaps never did men venture upon a great ocean in such miserable vessels as these two boats were, the one holding a crew of five, the other of six men. Their main hope lay in the chance of speedily finding, in the open sea, some vessel engaged in the China trade. Scarcely, however, were they fairly afloat, when bad weather came on; the boat was dismasted; the rudder of the canoe was unshipped; and the same boat sprang a leak, which was only kept under by constant baling. At the end of five days of fearful toil and danger, the canoe overset, and the whole party were driven into the single remaining boat. Their stores of water and provisions, too, were running low, yet they continued to stand out for four days more, when they unexpectedly came in sight of land, as well as of a fleet of canoes, which soon came up to them. A barbarous scene was then commenced by the savages contained in these canoes. "They attacked us with brutal ferocity, knocking us overboard with their clubs, in the meantime making the most frightful grimaces, and yelling like so many incarnate devils. They fell upon our boat and immediately destroyed it, breaking it into splinters, and taking the fragments into their canoes. While this was going on, we were swimming from one canoe to another, entreating them by signs to spare our lives, and permit us to get into their canoes. This they for a long time refused, beating us most unmercifully, whenever we caught hold of any thing to save ourselves from sinking." They were ultimately taken in, and were stript naked on the instant, though the sun was shining so vividly that their bodies were almost immediately blistered by exposure to it. On reaching the shore, a crowd of women and children met them, yelling like "Bacchanals or Bedlamites." Fights and quarrels immediately began for the ownership of the several captives, and in the contest the latter were sadly abused. At length, each man got a master, and was taken home by him.

This unpromising beginning was not belied by its end. The island upon which the mariners had unfortunately stumbled, was a low, barren, miserable rock, scarcely three-quarters of a mile long by half a one in breadth. From seamen it has received the names of Lord North's, Nevil's, or Johnston's Island, and has been believed to be uninhabited. The natives call it To'bee. They are of a light copper colour, and the men go almost entirely without clothing. They have high cheek-bones and flat noses, and are far more wild in appearance than the Pelew islanders. In character "they are cowardly and servile, yet most barbarous and cruel, combining in their habits, tempers, and dispositions, the most disgusting and loathsome features that degrade humanity."

The position of the poor Americans was dreadful under these savages. The only vegetable cultivated on this sandy coral rock was a species of the well-known *tarrow-root*; and for the growth of this, proper soil had to be gathered from all quarters and mixed up like a compost. The indolent natives threw the whole labour of doing this upon the poor captives. Nearly naked, they were kept constantly at work, under a broiling sun, at no time having a sufficiency of food, and at different times reduced to all but the last extremity of famine. To many other inflictions they were wantonly subjected. After being two months, indeed, on the island, two of the party succeeded in getting their release. An English ship came in sight, and the captain (Barnard), with Rollins, one of the crew, persuaded the islanders to put them on board, promising that iron and various other articles would be immediately given from the vessel in return. Only a small quantity of iron was sent, and the consequence was that the natives were highly dissatisfied, and increased their severity towards the remaining prisoners. Unfortunately, the English captain was not (as he afterwards alleged) in circumstances that permitted of further exertions to obtain the release of the rest, and he sailed away, leaving them to a worse fate than before. Among other incidental cruelties inflicted on them, in addition to their ordinary sufferings, they were compelled to undergo the tattooing process, which is thus described: —"We were in the first place securely bound down to the ground, and there held fast by our tormentors. They then proceeded to draw with a sharp stick the figures designed to be imprinted on the skin. This done, the skin was thickly punctured with a little instrument, made of sharpened fish-bones, and somewhat resembling a carpenter's adze in miniature, but having teeth, instead of a smooth sharp edge. This instrument was held within an inch or two of the flesh, and struck into it rapidly with a piece of wood, applied to it in such a manner as to cause it to rebound at every stroke. In this way our breasts and arms were prepared; and subsequently the ink, which was made of a vegetable found on the island, and called by them the *savvan*, was applied. The operation caused such an inflammation of our bodies, that only a small portion could be done at one time; as soon as the inflammation abated, another portion was done, as fast as we could bear it, till our bodies were covered. It was effectually done; for to this day the figures remain as distinct as they were when first imprinted, and the marks will be carried by us to the grave. They were exceedingly anxious to perform the operation on our faces; but this we would not submit to, telling them, that sooner than have it done, we would die in resisting them."

But this was comparatively a light item in the incessant sufferings of these poor mariners. Out of the six left after Captain Barnard escaped with Rollins, three sank under their afflictions. One of them died rather suddenly; but the other two, when reduced to the last extremity, and unable to move, were each put into a canoe, and set adrift to meet a horrible living death! A fourth of the band, for some trifling offence, was beaten to death, and it was with difficulty that the remaining two, Holden and Nute, to the former of whom we owe this narrative, escaped the same fate. As for the three poor islanders of Pelew, who in the simplicity of ignorance had set sail for an unknown land of promise, one of them was charged with stealing food, and turned adrift in a canoe on the wide ocean with his *hands tied!* A second was literally starved to death. The third was one of the miserable trio of survivors.

Seeing their captives perishing one by one, and getting totally unserviceable, the brutal savages in whose hands these poor men were, began to see that it would be their interest to complete some bargain for their release before the death of the whole made it too late. Accordingly, the captives got a promise that they should be put on board the first passing vessel, on condition of a present of iron being made to them. On the 24th of December 1834, the British barque Britannia, bound for Canton River, came in view, and the captives obtained their release. When Nute came on board the Britannia, he was in such a deplorable state that it was believed two days more would have ended his life. Unhappily, the British captain did not think it consistent with prudence to take the poor Pelew islander on board, though the others, who had got greatly attached to him, prayed earnestly for his reception. The Americans were taken away, and in due time got on board another vessel, which conveyed them to their own land in safety.

It gives us pleasure to add that the Pelew islander was released after all. The American sloop of war Vincennes released him from North's Island, in the course of the year 1835, and took him safely back to his own country. The sloop also brought home the men who were left as hostages at the Pelew Isles. It is said that the captain of the Vincennes, whether by orders or otherwise, made a difficulty of paying the full promised ransom to the Pelew natives, a proceeding equally impolitic and ungenerous. The impression that the promises made by the distressed mariners of civilised nations will be scrupulously fulfilled, either in the way of reward or punishment, affords the only security for good treatment, at the hands of such savages, under the like circumstances. Generous conduct, above all, should ever meet a reward above the stipulation rather than below it. The future should always be kept in view, as shipwrecks will occur, to a greater or less extent, while navigation lasts.

TOILET OF A PAWNEE INDIAN DANDY.

He began his toilet, about eight in the morning, by greasing and smoothing his whole person with fat, which he rubbed afterwards perfectly dry, only leaving the skin sleek and glossy; he then painted his face vermilion, with a stripe of red also along the centre of the crown of the head; he then proceeded to his "coiffure," which received great attention, although the quantum of hair demanding such care was limited, inasmuch as his head was shaved close, except one tuft at the top, from which hung two plaited "tresses." (Why must I call them "pigtails?") He then filled his ears, which were bored in two or three places, with rings and wampum, and hung several strings of beads round his neck; then, sometimes painting stripes of vermilion and yellow upon his breast and shoulders, and placing armlets above his elbows and rings upon his fingers, he proceeded to adorn the nether man with a pair of mocassins, some scarlet cloth leggins fastened to his waist-belt, and bound round below the knee with garters of beads four inches broad. Being so far prepared, he drew out his mirror, fitted into a small wooden frame (which he always, whether hunting or at home, carried about his person), and commenced a course of self-examination, such as the severest disciple of Watts, Mason, or any other religious moralist, never equalled. Nay more, if I were not afraid of offending the softer sex by venturing to bring man into comparison with them in an occupation which is considered so peculiarly their own, I would assert that no female creation of the poets, from the time that Eve first saw "that smooth watery image," till the polished toilet of the lovely Belinda, ever studied her own reflected self with more perseverance or satisfaction than this Pawnee youth. I have repeatedly seen him sit, for above an hour at a time, examining his face in every possible position and expression; now frowning like Homer's Jove before a thunder-storm, now like the same god, described by Milton, "smiling with superior love;" now slightly varying the streaks of paint upon his cheeks and forehead, and then pushing or pulling "each particular hair" of his eyebrows into its most becoming place! Could the youth have seen anything in that mirror half so dangerous as the features which the glassy wave gave back to the gaze of the fond Narcissus, I might have feared for his life or reason; but, fortunately for these, they had only to contend with a low receding forehead, a nose somewhat *simious*, a pair of small sharp eyes, with high cheek-bones, and a broad mouth, well furnished with a set of teeth, which had at least the merit of demolishing speedily every thing, animal or vegetable, that came within their range.

His toilet thus arranged to his satisfaction, one of the women or children led his buffalo-horse before the tent; and he proceeded to deck his steed, by painting his forehead, neck, and shoulders, with stripes of vermilion, and sometimes twisted a few feathers into his tail. He then put into his mouth an old-fashioned bridle, bought or stolen from the Spaniards, from the bit of which hung six or eight steel chains, about nine inches long; while some small bells, attached to the reins, contributed to render the movements of the steed as musical as those of the lovely Sonnante, in the incomparable tales of Comte Hamilton.

All things being now ready for the promenade, he threw a scarlet mantle over his shoulders; thrust his mirror in below his belt; took in one hand a large fan, of wild goose or turkey feathers, to shield his fair and delicate complexion from the sun; while a whip hung from his wrist, having the handle studded with brass nails. Thus accoutred, he mounted his jingling palfrey, and ambled through the encampment, envied by all the youths less gay in attire, attracting the gaze of the unfortunate drudges who represent the gentler sex, and admired supremely by himself!—*Travels in North America, by the Hon. C. A. Murray.* 1839.

NATURAL CURIOSITY.

We were favoured the other day with a sight of a beautiful antediluvian specimen of the fir tribe, just dug from the Stevenson freestone quarry, on the estate of Mr Warner of Ardeer. The trunk, stems, and leaves, are as perfectly formed and portrayed in this piece of solid rock as those now growing in the neighbourhood of the quarry. This geological curiosity, along with a cluster of nuts, five in number, which composed part of the stone, was thirty feet from the surface, being twenty feet below the present level of the sea. The nuts and the leaves, stem and trunk of the fir, are of a dark brown colour, while the surrounding body of the stone is a bluish white, which gives these fragments the appearance of the finest fresco painting. Many interesting curiosities of the like description have been found during the working of this extensive quarry. The antiquarian geologist would certainly be highly gratified by repeated visits to this excavation.—*Ayr paper.*

The present number of the Journal completes the eighth volume of the work, for which a title-page and copious index are prepared, and may be had on application to the Publishers or their Agents, at the usual price of a number. Any odd or past numbers of the Journal can also be had for the purpose of completing sets.

END OF THE EIGHTH VOLUME.

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